

Advanced Algebra

Wang Yuyao

Contents

0	Elementary Definitions and Conventions	1
0.1	Rings and Ideals	1
0.2	Unique Factorization	4
1	Introduction to Module Theory	5
1.1	Basic Definitions and Examples	5
1.1.1	$\mathbb{Z}$ -modules	7
1.1.2	$F[x]$ -modules	7
1.2	Module Homomorphisms	9
1.3	Generation of Modules	13
1.4	Direct Products, (Direct Sums,) and Free Modules	14
1.5	Tensor Products	17
1.5.1	Tensor Products of Modules	17
1.5.2	Tensor Products of Module Homomorphisms	21
1.5.3	Extension of Scalars	22
1.5.4	Tensor Product of Algebras	24
1.5.5	Exact Sequences	25
1.6	Projective, Injective and Flat Modules	32
1.6.1	Projective Modules ($\text{Hom}_R(D, \cdot)$)	32
1.6.2	Injective Modules ($\text{Hom}_R(\cdot, D)$)	37
1.6.3	Flat Modules ($D \otimes_R \cdot$)	40
2	Algebraic Geometry	44
2.1	Chain Conditions	44
2.1.1	Noetherian Rings	44
2.1.2	Artinian Rings	47
2.1.3	Noetherian and Artinian Modules	50
2.2	Affine Algebraic Sets	51
2.3	Radicals	58
2.4	Zariski Topology	60
2.5	Affine Varieties	62

2.5.1	Decompositions of Affine Algebraic Sets	62
2.5.2	Primary Decomposition of Ideals in Noetherian Rings	64
2.6	Integral Extensions	68
2.7	Algebraic Integers	72
2.8	Noetherian's Normalization Lemma and Hilbert's Nullstellensatz	74
2.9	Localization	77
2.9.1	Localization of Rings	77
2.9.2	Extensions and Contractions of Ideals in Localization	79
2.9.3	Localization of Modules	81
2.9.4	Local Rings and Localization at Prime Ideals	85
2.9.5	Local-Global Principle	87
2.9.6	Local Rings of Affine Algebraic Varieties	89

Chapter 0

Elementary Definitions and Conventions

0.1 Rings and Ideals

Definition 0.1. Rings

A *ring* is an abelian additive group with a multiplicative operation $(a, b) \mapsto ab$ satisfying the associativity and distributivity. Moreover, we say that a ring R is

- *commutative* if for any $a, b \in R$, $ab = ba$;
- *unital* if there exists an multiplicative identity 1_R . Furthermore, an element u in a unital ring R is called a *unit* (or an *invertible element*) if there exists $v \in R$, s.t.: $uv = 1_R$, which is denoted as $v = u^{-1}$ and called the *inverse* of u . We denote by $U(R)$ the set of all units in R and then we get the definition of *field*: a commutative unital ring F is a *field* if $F \setminus \{0_F\} = U(F)$.

Convention: In this book, every ring is treated as a commutative unital ring. Furthermore, in this book, unless otherwise specified, the letter " R " represents a (commutative unital) ring.

Definition 0.2. Ideals

- A subset $I \subseteq R$ of R is called an *ideal* of R , denoted as $I \triangleleft R$, if I is additive subgroup of R and if for any $r \in R$, any $x \in I$, we have $rx \in I$.
- An ideal $I \triangleleft R$ is said to be *generated by a subset* $S \subseteq R$ if for any $x \in I$, we can write x in the form

$$x = \sum_{i=1}^n r_i s_i$$

where $r_i \in R, s_i \in S$. Then we denote I as (S) .

Convention: We write as 0 the ideal generated by the empty set $\emptyset$.

- An ideal is *principal* if it can be generated by one single element.
- An ideal $I \triangleleft R$ is *prime* if I is proper, i.e.: $I \neq R$, and if $xy \in I$ implies $x \in I$ or $y \in I$.

- An ideal is *maximal* if it is proper and if it is NOT contained in any other proper ideal.

Proposition 0.3. *Prime Ideal-Maximal Ideal Proposition*

1. $I \triangleleft R$ is prime $\Leftrightarrow \forall$ ideals $J, K \triangleleft R$ with $J, K \subseteq I$, we have $J \subseteq I$ or $K \subseteq I \Leftrightarrow R/I$ is an ID.
2. $I \triangleleft R$ is maximal $\Leftrightarrow R/I$ is a field.

Proof. Omitted. □

Definition 0.4. Domain

R is called a *domain* if $0 = (\emptyset)$ is prime.

Definition 0.5. Prime Elements

An element $p \in R$ is *prime* if (p) is a prime ideal, or equivalently, if $p \notin U(R)$ and if $p \mid xy \Rightarrow p \mid x$ or $p \mid y$.

Definition 0.6. Ring Homomorphisms

A map $\varphi : R \rightarrow S$ from a ring R to a ring S is called a *ring homomorphism* if it preserves addition and multiplication. Furthermore, if $\varphi(1_R) = 1_S$, then we say φ is *unital*.

Convention: In this book, we will omit the adjectives "unital" and "ring", i.e.: "homomorphism" means "unital ring homomorphism".

Definition 0.7. Let $r, s, r_1, \dots, r_n \in R$ be elements of R .

- r is an *idempotent* if $r^2 = r$.
- r and s are *orthogonal* if $rs = 0$.
- $\{r_1, \dots, r_n\}$ is a *complete set of orthogonal idempotents* in R if every r_i is an idempotent in R , if $\forall i \neq j \in \{1, \dots, n\}$, $r_i r_j = 0$, i.e.: they are orthogonal, and if $\sum_{i=1}^n r_i = 1_R$.

Example: $\{(1_{R_1}, 0, \dots, 0), (0, 1_{R_2}, 0, \dots, 0), \dots, (0, \dots, 0, 1_{R_n})\} \subseteq R_1 \times \dots \times R_n$ is a *complete set of orthogonal idempotents* in $R_1 \times \dots \times R_n$.

Proposition 0.8. *Complete Set of Orthogonal Idempotents-Decomposition Proposition*

If $\{e_1, \dots, e_n\}$ is a complete set of orthogonal idempotents in R , then

$$R \cong Re_1 \times \dots \times Re_n$$

is a direct product decomposition.

Proof. We only deal with the case $n = 2$. Consider the map $\varphi : R \rightarrow Re_1 \times Re_2$ given by $\varphi(r) := (re_1, re_2)$.

- φ is a homomorphism: For any $r, s \in R$, let $r = r_1 e_1 + r_2 e_2$ and $s = s_1 e_1 + s_2 e_2$.
 - $\varphi(r + s) := (r_1 e_1 + s_1 e_1, r_2 e_2 + s_2 e_2) = (r_1 e_1, r_2 e_2) + (s_1 e_1, s_2 e_2) := \varphi(r) + \varphi(s)$.
 - $\varphi(rs) := ((rs)e_1, (rs)e_2) = ((r_1 e_1 + r_2 e_2)(s_1 e_1 + s_2 e_2)) = (r_1 e_1, s_1 e_1)(r_2 e_2, s_2 e_2) := \varphi(r)\varphi(s)$.

- φ is injective: $\ker \varphi := \{r \in R \mid re_1 = 0, re_2 = 0\} = \{r \in R \mid r_1 = 0, r_2 = 0\} = \{0\}$.
- φ is surjective: $\forall (x, y) \in Re_1 \times Re_2, \exists r_1, r_2 \in R, \text{ s.t.: } x = r_1e_1, y = r_2e_2$. Then $\varphi(r_1e_1 + r_2e_2) := ((r_1e_1 + r_2e_2)e_1, (r_1e_1 + r_2e_2)e_2) = (r_1e_1, r_2e_2) = (x, y)$.

□

Remark: Conversely, if $R \cong R_1 \times \cdots \times R_n$ can be decomposed as a direct product of finitely many (nontrivial) subrings, then $\{e_i := (0, \dots, 0, \underbrace{1}_{i\text{th position}}, 0, \dots, 0)\}_{i=1}^n$ is a complete set of orthogonal idempotents.

Definition 0.9. Commutative Algebra

- A *commutative algebra over R* (or *commutative R -algebra*) is a ring S together with a homomorphism $\alpha : R \rightarrow S$, namely (S, α) .

e.g.:

$$- \text{ Any ring } S \text{ together with the homomorphism } \alpha : n \mapsto \begin{cases} \overbrace{1 + \cdots + 1}^{n\text{-times}} & , \text{ if } n > 0 \\ 0 & , \text{ if } n = 0 \\ \underbrace{(-1) + \cdots + (-1)}_{(-n)\text{-times}} & , \text{ if } n < 0 \end{cases}$$

is a commutative $\mathbb{Z}$ -algebra. Furthermore, (S, α) is the *unique* commutative $\mathbb{Z}$ -algebra.

$$- (R[x_1, \dots, x_n], \underset{r \mapsto r+0x_1+\dots+0x_n}{R \rightarrow R[x_1, \dots, x_n]}) \text{ is a commutative } R\text{-algebra.}$$

- We usually omit the homomorphism α and write $rs := \alpha(r)s$ for $r \in R, s \in S$.
- A *subalgebra* of S is a subring S' of S that contains $\alpha(R)$.
e.g.: $R[x_1^2, x_2^3]$ is a R -subalgebra of $R[x_1, x_2]$.
- A *homomorphism of R -algebra* $\varphi : S \rightarrow T$ is a homomorphism of rings such that $\varphi(rs) = r\varphi(s) \forall r \in R, s \in S$. More precisely, $\varphi : (S, \alpha_S) \rightarrow (T, \alpha_T)$ is a homomorphism of rings from S to T such that $\varphi(\alpha_S(r)s) = \alpha_T(r)\varphi(s) \forall r \in R, s \in S$.
e.g.: Given $r \in R, \varphi : \underset{f \mapsto f(r)}{R[x] \rightarrow R}$ is a homomorphism of R -algebras.

Definition 0.10. Polynomial Rings

Let $R[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ be a *polynomial ring over R* .

- The elements in R are referred to as *scalars*.
- A *monomial* is a product of variables, whose *degree* is defined as the number of these factors (counting repeats), e.g.: $\deg(x_1^2x_2^3) = \deg(x_1x_1x_2x_2x_2) = 5$. By *convention*, we regard 1 as the empty product, i.e.: 1 is the unique monomial of degree 0.
- A *term* is a scalar timing a monomial, i.e.: of the form:

$$r \cdot x_1^{a_1} \cdots x_n^{a_n} \text{ where } r \in R, a_i \in \mathbb{N} \cup \{0\}$$

- $f \in R[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ is said to be *homogeneous* if $f = 0$ or if the monomials in the terms of f all have the same degree. We also use the word "*form*" to mean "homogeneous polynomial".

0.2 Unique Factorization

Convention: In this book, we say that R is *factorial* if it is a UFD.

Theorem 0.11. $PID \Rightarrow FD \Rightarrow UFD$.

Proof. Outline: $PID \Rightarrow ACCP \Rightarrow FD$. □

Chapter 1

Introduction to Module Theory

1.1 Basic Definitions and Examples

Definition 1.1. Modules

An R -module M is an abelian additive group with an action of R on M , that is a map $\begin{matrix} R \times M \rightarrow M \\ (r, m) \mapsto rm \end{matrix}$, satisfying that: for any $r, s \in R$, any $m, n \in M$,

- $r(sm) = (rs)m$
- $(r + s)m = rm + sm$
- $r(m + n) = rm + rn$
- $1_R m = m$

Remark: Modules over field F and vector spaces over a field F is the same.

Convention: In this book, unless otherwise specified, the letter " M " represents an R -module.

Definition 1.2. Submodules

A R -submodule of M is a subgroup N of M which is closed under the action of ring elements, i.e.: for any $r \in R$, any $n \in N$, we have $rn \in N$. Moreover, we call 0 the trivial R -submodule.

Example:

- $M = R$ is an R -module, where the action is just the usual multiplication in R . In particular, every field can be considered as a (1-dimensional) vector space over itself. Furthermore, when R is considered as an R -module, then the submodules of R are precisely the ideals of R .
- Let $R = F$ be a field and let $n \in \mathbb{N}_+$. Consider

$$F^n := \{(a_1, \dots, a_n) \mid a_i \in F, \forall i\}$$

which is called an *affine n -space over F* . Make F^n into an n -dimensional vector space over F by defining addition and scalar multiplication componentwise: for any $a_i, b_i \in F, \alpha \in F$, we define:

- addition by $(a_1, \dots, a_n) + (b_1, \dots, b_n) := (a_1 + b_1, \dots, a_n + b_n)$ and
- multiplication by $\alpha(a_1, \dots, a_n) := (\alpha a_1, \dots, \alpha a_n)$.

- Let $n \in \mathbb{N}_+$. Define

$$R^n := \{(a_1, \dots, a_n) \mid a_i \in R, \forall i\}$$

with the componentwise addition and multiplication similar as above, which is called the *free module of rank n over R* . An obvious submodule of R^n is given by the i th component $:=$ the set of all n -tuples with arbitrary ring elements in the i th position and zeros in the j th position for all $j \neq i$.

- If S is a subring of R , then an R -module M is automatically a S -module, e.g.: $\mathbb{R}$ is an R -module, a $\mathbb{Q}$ -module and a $\mathbb{Z}$ -module.
- Let $I \triangleleft R$ be an ideal that *annihilates* M , i.e.: for any $a \in I$, any $m \in M$, $am = 0$. Then M is an (R/I) -module with an action of R/I on M defined as follows: $\forall m \in M, \forall r + I \in R/I$, we define

$$(r + I)m := rm$$

whose well-defined-ness is easy to check by the hypothesis that I annihilates M . In particular, if I is a maximal ideal of R , then M is a vector space over R/I .

- We record the next two examples as the later two subsections.

Proposition 1.3. *Submodule Criterion*

A subset $N \subseteq M$ of an R -module M is a submodule of M iff

1. $N \neq \emptyset$
2. $\forall x, y \in N, \forall r \in R$, we have $x + ry \in N$.

Definition 1.4. *R -algebra*

An R -algebra is a ring A with a homomorphism $\varphi : R \rightarrow A$ such that

$$\varphi(R) \subseteq Z(A)$$

where $Z(A) := \{a \in A \mid ar = ra, \forall r \in A\}$ denotes the center of A .

Remark: If A is an R -algebra, then it is easy to check that A is an R -module with the action of R on A defined by

$$ra := \varphi(r) \cdot_A a$$

Definition 1.5. *Algebra Homomorphisms and Isomorphisms*

Let A, B be R -algebras. An R -algebra homomorphism (or *isomorphism*) is a homomorphism (respectively isomorphism) $\varphi : A \rightarrow B$ such that $\varphi(r \cdot a) := r \cdot \varphi(a)$ for all $r \in R, a \in A$.

Example:

- Any ring with identity (may **NOT** commutative) is a $\mathbb{Z}$ -algebra.

- A commutative unital ring A is an R -algebra for any subring R of A .

1.1.1 $\mathbb{Z}$ -modules

Let $R = \mathbb{Z}$ and let $(A, +)$ be any abelian additive group. Define the action of $\mathbb{Z}$ on A by

$$na := \begin{cases} \overbrace{a + \cdots + a}^{n\text{-times}} & , \text{if } n > 0 \\ 0 & , \text{if } n = 0 \\ \underbrace{(-a) + \cdots + (-a)}_{(-n)\text{-times}} & , \text{if } n < 0 \end{cases}$$

and hence A is a $\mathbb{Z}$ -module. Conversely, every $\mathbb{Z}$ -module, by def, is an abelian group. Hence,

$$\mathbb{Z}\text{-modules} \Leftrightarrow \text{abelian groups}$$

Furthermore, we also have

$$\mathbb{Z}\text{-submodules} \Leftrightarrow \text{abelian subgroups}$$

If A is an abelian additive group containing an element x of order $n < \infty$, then $nx = 0$. Hence, a $\mathbb{Z}$ -module may have nonzero elements x such that $nx = 0$ for some nonzero ring element n . In particular, if A has order m , then by Lagrange's Theorem, for any $x \in A$, $mx = 0$. Therefore, A is a $(\mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z})$ -module. Furthermore, if $m = p$ is prime, then A is a vector space over the field $\mathbb{F}_p = \mathbb{Z}/p\mathbb{Z}$.

1.1.2 $F[x]$ -modules

Let F be a field, let $R = F[x]$ be the polynomial ring, let V be a vector space over F and let T be a linear transformation from V to V . Then we've already seen that V is an F -module.

Proposition 1.6. *Vector Spaces-Polynomial Rings-Modules Proposition*

V can be regarded as an $F[x]$ -module.

Proof. We only find the "legal" action of $F[x]$ on V here and omit the check of axioms of modules. We need some preparations:

1. For any $n \in \mathbb{N} \cup \{0\}$, we define

$$T^n := \begin{cases} id_V & , \text{if } n = 0 \\ T \circ T \circ \cdots \circ T \text{ (} n \text{ times)} & , \text{if } n \in \mathbb{N}_+ \end{cases}$$

which is again a linear transformation from V to V .

2. It's easy to check that the linear combinations of linear transformations are again linear transformations.

Now we can define the action of $F[x]$ on V : for any $a_i \in F$, any $v \in V$, we define:

$$(a_n x^n + \cdots + a_1 x + a_0)v := (a_n T^n + \cdots + a_1 T + a_0 T^0)(v) \stackrel{2}{=} a_n T^n(v) + \cdots + a_1 T(v) + a_0 v$$

□

Remark:

- Note that F is naturally the subring of $F[x]$ (the constant polynomials) and by the first preparation in the proof of Vector Spaces-Polynomial Rings-Modules Proposition, the action of $F[x]$ on V is consistent with the action of F on V . Hence, the def of the action of $F[x]$ on V is an extension of the action of F on V .

Example: Let $V = F^n$ be the affine n -space, defined in the second example of modules and submodules, and let T be the "shift operator"

$$T(a_1, a_2, \cdots, a_n) := (a_2, a_3, \cdots, a_n, 0)$$

Then given $k \in \mathbb{N} \cup \{0\}$ and $i \in \{1, \cdots, n\}$,

$$T^k(e_i) := \begin{cases} e_{i-k} & , \text{if } i > k \\ 0 & , \text{if } i \leq k \end{cases}$$

and hence, for example, if $m < n$,

$$(a_m x^m + \cdots + a_1 x + a_0)e_n := a_m T^m(e_n) + \cdots + a_1 T(e_n) + a_0 e_n = (0, \cdots, 0, a_m, \cdots, a_1, a_0)$$

From this, we can determine the action of any polynomial on any vector in F^n .

Conversely, if V is an $F[x]$ -module, then V is an F -module and the action of the ring element x on V is a linear transformation from V to V . Hence, there is a bijection between the collection of $F[x]$ -modules and the collection of all pairs $(V, T : V \rightarrow V)$:

$$\{V \text{ an } F[x]\text{-module}\} \longleftrightarrow \left\{ \begin{array}{c} V \text{ a vector space over } F \\ \text{and} \\ T : V \rightarrow V \text{ a linear transformation} \end{array} \right\}$$

given by the element x acts on V as the linear transformation T .

- Consider the $F[x]$ -submodules of V where V is any $F[x]$ -module and T is the linear transformation:

$V \rightarrow V$ given by the action of x . An $F[x]$ -submodule W of V must be an F -submodule of V , i.e.: W must be a vector subspace of V . For any $w \in W$, $T(w) \in W$, i.e.: W is T -stable (or T -invariant) and hence $T^n(W) \subseteq W \ \forall n \in \mathbb{N} \cup \{0\}$. Therefore, if W is T -stable (or T -invariant), then the action of $F[x]$ on W is closed in W . So we see that

$$\text{the } F[x] \text{ - submodules of } V \Leftrightarrow \text{the } T \text{ - stable vector subspaces of } V$$

i.e.: we have the bijection:

$$\{W \text{ an } F[x]\text{-submodule of } V\} \longleftrightarrow \left\{ \begin{array}{c} W \text{ a vector subspace of } V \\ \text{and} \\ W \text{ is } T\text{-stable} \end{array} \right\}$$

e.g.: If T is the shift operator defined on affine n -space above and $k \in \{0, 1, \dots, n\}$, then the subspace

$$U_k := \{(a_1, \dots, a_k, 0, \dots, 0) \mid a_i \in F\}$$

is clearly T -stable and hence is an $F[x]$ -submodule of V .

Definition 1.7. Annihilators

The *annihilator* of M is defined as

$$\text{ann}M := \{r \in R \mid rM = 0\}$$

Example: R/I is an R -module and $\text{ann}R/I = I$.

Definition 1.8. • Let $I, J \triangleleft R$ be ideals of R . We define the *ideal quotient* by

$$(I : J) := \{r \in R \mid rJ \subseteq I\}$$

(which can be supposed to suggest division: $I = (i), J = (j)$ with i nonzerodivisor).

- Then we extend the ideal quotients to submodules M, N of R -module P and write

$$(M : N) := \{r \in R \mid rN \subseteq M\}$$

- Let $I \triangleleft R$ be an ideal of R and let M be a submodule of R -module P . Then we define

$$(M : I) = (M :_P I) := \{p \in P \mid Ip \subseteq M\} \subseteq P$$

which is a submodule of P .

1.2 Module Homomorphisms

Definition 1.9. Module Homomorphisms

- A *homomorphism of R -modules* is a homomorphism $\varphi : M \rightarrow N$ of abelian groups such that $\varphi(rm) = r\varphi(m)$.
- If φ is injective, then we say it is a *monomorphism*; if φ is surjective, then we say it is a *epimorphism*; if φ is bijective, then we say it is a *isomorphism*.
- Similarly as the ring homomorphisms, we define the kernel and image of module homomorphisms.
- Let M, N be R -modules. Define $\text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ to be the set of all R -module homomorphisms from M into N .

Proposition 1.10. *Kernels and images of R -module homomorphisms are submodules.*

Example:

- R -module homomorphisms need NOT be ring homomorphisms and ring homomorphisms need NOT be R -module homomorphisms:
 - $R = \mathbb{Z}$. The $\mathbb{Z}$ -module homomorphism $x \mapsto 2x$ is NOT a ring homomorphism.
 - $R = F[x]$. The ring homomorphism $f(x) \mapsto f(x^2)$ is NOT an $F[x]$ -module homomorphism.
- Let $n \in \mathbb{N}_+$ and let $M = R^n$. For any $i \in \{1, \dots, n\}$, the projection map $\pi_i : R^n \rightarrow R$ given by

$$\pi_i(x_1, \dots, x_n) := x_i$$

is a surjective R -module homomorphism with $\ker \pi_i :=$ the submodule of n -tuples which have a zero in position i .

- If $R = F$ is a field, then F -module homomorphisms are called linear transformations.
- Recall that $\mathbb{Z}$ -modules $\Leftrightarrow$ abelian groups. Similarly, we have:

$\mathbb{Z}$ -module homomorphisms $\Leftrightarrow$ abelian group homomorphisms

- Let $I \triangleleft R$ be an ideal of R and let M, N be R -modules annihilated by I , i.e.: $\forall i \in I, m \in M, n \in N$, we have $im = 0, in = 0$. Any R -module homomorphism from M to N is then automatically a homomorphism of (R/I) -modules. In particular, if A is an abelian additive group of order p prime, then any group homomorphism from A to itself is a $\mathbb{F}_p = \mathbb{Z}/p\mathbb{Z}$ -module homomorphism, i.e.: is a linear transformation over the field $\mathbb{F}_p$. In particular, the group of all (group) automorphisms of A is the group of invertible linear transformations from A to itself: $GL(A)$.

Proposition 1.11. *Module Homomorphisms-Properties Proposition*

Let M, N, L be R -modules.

1. A map $\varphi : M \rightarrow N$ is an R -module homomorphism iff $\forall x, y \in M, r \in R$, we have

$$\varphi(rx + y) = r\varphi(x) + \varphi(y)$$

2. Let $\Phi, \Psi \in \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$. Consider the map $\Phi + \Psi$ given by

$$(\Phi + \Psi)(m) := \Phi(m) + \Psi(m), \forall m \in M$$

Then $\Phi + \Psi \in \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ and hence $(\text{Hom}_R(M, N), +)$ is an abelian group. Furthermore, given $r \in R$, define $r\Phi$ by

$$(r\Phi)(m) := r(\Phi(m)), \forall m \in M$$

Then $r\Phi \in \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ and hence this action of R on $\text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ gives that $\text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ is an R -module.

3. Let $\varphi_1 \in \text{Hom}_R(L, M), \varphi_2 \in \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$. Then $\varphi_2 \circ \varphi_1 \in \text{Hom}_R(L, N)$.

4. With the addition as above and multiplication defined as map composition, $\text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ is a ring (commutative unital ring).

5. $\text{Hom}_R(M, M)$ is an R -algebra.

Proof. 1. • $(\Rightarrow)$ holds immediately by definition.

• $(\Leftarrow)$: Take $r = 1$ to check that φ is additive and take $y = 0$ to check that φ commutes with the action of R on M .

2. Omitted.

3. For any $r \in R$, any $x, y \in L$, we have

$$(\Psi \circ \Phi)(rx + y) = \Psi(\Phi(rx + y)) \stackrel{1}{=} \Psi(r\Phi(x) + \Phi(y)) \stackrel{1}{=} r(\Psi \circ \Phi)(x) + (\Psi \circ \Phi)(y)$$

Hence, by 1, we're done.

4. Omitted.

5. Omitted.

□

Definition 1.12. Endomorphisms

The ring $\text{Hom}_R(M, M)$ is called the *endomorphism ring* of M , denoted as $\text{End}_R(M) := \text{Hom}_R(M, M)$ and the elements of $\text{End}_R(M)$ are called *endomorphisms*.

Remark: There is a *natural map* from R to $\text{End}_R(M)$ given by $r \mapsto r \cdot \text{id}_R$. If the image of R is contained in $Z(\text{End}_R(M)) :=$ the center of $\text{End}_R(M)$, then $\text{End}_R(M)$ is an R -algebra. Note that $R = \mathbb{Z}, M = \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}, r = 2 \Rightarrow rm = 0, \forall m \in M$. Hence, the natural map from R to $\text{End}_R(M)$, which can be shown that it is a ring homomorphism, may NOT be injective. But when $R = F$

is a field, this map is injective and the copy of R in $\text{End}_R(M)$ is called the (subring of) *scalar transformations*.

Proposition 1.13. *Quotient Module Proposition*

Let N be an R -submodule of an R -module M . The abelian (additive) quotient group M/N can be made into an R -module by defining an action of R on M/N by

$$r(x + N) := (rx) + N, \forall r \in R, \forall x + N \in M/N$$

The natural projection map $\pi : M \rightarrow M/N$ given by $x \mapsto x + N$ is an R -module homomorphism with kernel N .

Proof. • Since M is an abelian additive group, then the quotient group M/N is defined and is an abelian additive group.

- The action of R on M/N is well-defined: $\forall x + N = y + N \in M/N$, i.e.: $y - x \in N$, since N is an R -submodule, then $ry - rx = r(y - x) \in N$ and hence $rx + N = ry + N$.

Therefore, M/N is an R -module.

- π is an R -module homomorphism, i.e.: $\pi(rm) = r\pi(m)$:

$$\pi(rm) := (rm) + N := r(m + N) := r\pi(m)$$

- The kernel of any module homomorphism is the same as its kernel when viewed as a homomorphism of the abelian group structures.

□

Definition 1.14. Sum of Submodules

Let A, B be R -submodules of an R -module M . The *sum* of A and B is defined as

$$A + B := \{a + b \mid a \in A, b \in B\}$$

Proposition 1.15. *Sum of Submodules-Property Proposition*

The sum of two submodules B is again a submodule and is the smallest submodule containing them.

Proof. The proof of the first statement is going to be omitted. Let A, B be two submodules and let N be any submodule that contains both A and B . Then $\forall a \in A \subseteq N, b \in B \subseteq N$, by the additive closed-ness of submodule, $a + b \in N$ and hence $A + B \subseteq N$. □

Theorem 1.16. *Isomorphism Theorem for Modules*

- **The First Isomorphism Theorem for Modules:** Let M, N be R -modules and let $\varphi : M \rightarrow N$ be an R -module homomorphism. Then $\ker \varphi$ is a submodule of M and we have the isomorphism:

$$M / \ker \varphi \cong \text{im} \varphi$$

- **The Second Isomorphism Theorem for Modules:** Let A, B be R -submodules of an R -module M . Then we have the isomorphism:

$$(A + B)/B \cong A/(A \cap B)$$

- **The Third Isomorphism Theorem for Modules:** Let A, B be R -submodules of an R -module M such that $A \subseteq B$. Then we have the isomorphism:

$$(M/A)/(B/A) \cong M/B$$

- **The Fourth (or Lattice) Isomorphism Theorem for Modules:** Let N be an R -submodule of an R -module M . Then there is a bijection between the submodules of M containing N and the submodules of M/N

1.3 Generation of Modules

Definition 1.17. Generation of Modules

Let $N_1, \dots, N_n$ be R -submodules of an R -module M .

- We generalize the sum of two submodules into the n submodules case:

$$N_1 + \dots + N_n := \{a_1 + \dots + a_n \mid a_i \in N_i\}$$

is the *sum* of $N_1, \dots, N_n$.

- For any subset $A \subseteq M$ of M , we define the *submodule of M generated by A* as

$$RA := \{r_1 a_1 + \dots + r_m a_m \mid r_1, \dots, r_m \in R, a_1, \dots, a_m \in A, m \in \mathbb{N}_+\}$$

(where by convention $RA := \{0\}$ if $A \neq \emptyset$). If A is the finite set $\{a_1, \dots, a_n\}$, then we write:

$$RA = Ra_1 + \dots + Ra_n$$

If N is a submodule of M and if $N = RA$ for some $A \subseteq M$, then we call A a *set of generators* or *generating set for N* and we say that N is *generated by A* . A submodule N of M is *finitely generated* if N is generated by some finite subset of M .

- A submodule N of M is *cyclic* if there exists $a \in M$, s.t.: $N = Ra := R\{a\}$.

Remark:

- These definitions do **NOT** require that R is unital, but this condition ensures that A is contained in RA .
- It's easy to see using the Submodule Criterion that for any subset $A \subseteq M$ of M , RA is a submodule of M , and is the smallest submodule of M that contains A .

- In particular, for submodules $N_1, \dots, N_n$ of M , $N_1 + \dots + N_n$ is the submodule generated by the set $N_1 \cup \dots \cup N_n$ and is the smallest submodule of M that contains N_i for all i . If $N_1, \dots, N_n$ are generated by sets $A_1, \dots, A_n$, respectively, then $N_1 + \dots + N_n$ is generated by $A_1 \cup \dots \cup A_n$.
- A submodule N of an R -module M may have many different generating sets (e.g.: the above remark). If N is finitely generated, then there is a smallest non-negative integer d such that N is generated by d elements (and no fewer), where every generating set consisting of d elements is called a *minimal set of generators for N* (it is NOT unique in general). If N is NOT finitely generated, then it need NOT have a minimal generating set.

Example:

- Let $R = \mathbb{Z}$ and let M be any $\mathbb{Z}$ -module, that is, any abelian group. If $a \in M$, then $\mathbb{Z}a$ is precisely the cyclic subgroup of M generated by a , say $\langle a \rangle$.
- Let $M = R$. Note that R is a finitely generated, in fact cyclic, R -module since $R = R1$. Hence, we say I is a cyclic R -submodule of R -module R is precisely that I is a principal ideal of R . Therefore, a PID is a commutative unital ID with every R -submodule of R cyclic.
- Consider a vector space over F as an $F[x]$ -module via T . V is a cyclic $F[x]$ -module with generator $v \Leftrightarrow V = \{p(x)v \mid p(x) \in F[x]\} \Leftrightarrow$ every elements of V can be written as an F -linear combination of elements of $\{T^n(v) \mid n \in \mathbb{N} \cup \{0\}\} \Leftrightarrow \{v, T(v), T^2(v), \dots\}$ spans V as a vector space over F .

For instance, if $T = id_V$ is the identity linear transformation from V to V or if $T = 0$ is the zero linear transformation, then $\{v, T(v), T^2(v), \dots\}$ consists of one single elements v or 0 , respectively. Hence, if $\dim_F(V) > 1$, then V can **NOT** be a cyclic $F[x]$ -module corresponding $T = id_V$ or $T = 0$.

For another example, let $V = F^n$ be an affine n -space and let T be the "shift operator". Recall that

$$T^k(e_n) = \begin{cases} e_{n-k} & , \text{if } 1 \leq k < n \\ 0 & , \text{if } k \geq n \end{cases}$$

Hence, V is spanned by the elements $e_n, T(e_n), T^2(e_n), \dots, T^{n-1}(e_n)$, that is, V is a cyclic $F[x]$ -module with generator e_n .

1.4 Direct Products, (Direct Sums,) and Free Modules

Definition 1.18. Direct Product

Let $M_1, \dots, M_k$ be R -modules. We define the *direct product* of $M_1, \dots, M_k$ by

$$M_1 \times \dots \times M_k := \{(m_1, \dots, m_k) \mid m_i \in M_i\}$$

with addition and action of R defined componentwise.

Remark:

- The direct product of a collection of R -modules is again an R -module.
- In the finite case, the direct product is also referred to as the (*external*) *direct sum*, i.e.:

$$M_1 \times \cdots \times M_k = M_1 \oplus \cdots \oplus M_k$$

Proposition 1.19. *Module-Isomorphic-to-Direct Product of its Submodules Proposition*

Let $N_1, \dots, N_k$ be submodules of an R -module M . The followings are equivalent:

1. The map $\pi : N_1 \times \cdots \times N_k \rightarrow N_1 + \cdots + N_k$ given by

$$\pi(a_1, \dots, a_k) := a_1 + \cdots + a_k$$

is an isomorphism of R -modules.

2. For any $j \in \{1, \dots, k\}$, we have

$$N_j \cap (N_1 + \cdots + \hat{N}_j + \cdots + N_k) = 0$$

3. Every $x \in N_1 + \cdots + N_k$ can be uniquely written in the form $a_1 + \cdots + a_k$ with $a_i \in N_i$.

Proof. • (1 $\Rightarrow$ 2): Suppose on the contrary that 2 fails for some j and then we can pick $0 \neq a_j \in (N_1 + \cdots + \hat{N}_j + \cdots + N_k) \cap N_j$. Then $\forall i \neq j$, there exists $a_i \in N_i$, s.t.:

$$a_j = a_1 + \cdots + a_{j-1} + a_{j+1} + \cdots + a_k$$

Hence, there is a contradiction to the injectivity of π :

$$0 = a_1 + \cdots + a_{j-1} + (-a_j) + a_{j+1} + \cdots + a_k = \pi(a_1, \dots, a_{j-1}, -a_j, a_{j+1}, \dots, a_k) \neq \pi(0)$$

- (2 $\Rightarrow$ 3): It suffices to prove the uniqueness of the form. Suppose that $a_1 + \cdots + a_k = b_1 + \cdots + b_k$ for some $a_i, b_i \in N_i$. Then given any fixed j , we have

$$N_j \ni a_j - b_j = (b_1 - a_1) + \cdots + (b_{j-1} - a_{j-1}) + (b_{j+1} - a_{j+1}) + \cdots + (b_k - a_k) \in (N_1 + \cdots + \hat{N}_j + \cdots + N_k)$$

Hence, by 2, for any j , $a_j - b_j = 0$.

- (3 $\Rightarrow$ 1): Note that π is clearly a surjective R -module homomorphism. Since 3 implies the injectivity of π , then 1 holds.

□

Remark: If an R -module $M = N_1 + \cdots + N_k$ is the sum of submodules $N_1, \dots, N_k$ of M satisfying the equivalent conditions of the Module-Isomorphic-to-Direct Product of its Submodules

Proposition, then M is said to be the (*internal*) *direct sum* of $N_1, \dots, N_k$, written

$$M = N_1 \oplus \dots \oplus N_k$$

(The reason why we identify the external direct sum and the interval direct sum is the Module-Isomorphic-to-Direct Product of its Submodules Proposition.1.)

Definition 1.20. Free Modules

An R -module F is said to be *free* on the subset $A \subseteq F$ of F if $\forall 0 \neq x \in F, \exists! 0 \neq r_1, \dots, r_n \in R, \exists! a_1, \dots, a_n \in A$, with some $n \in \mathbb{N}_+$, s.t.:

$$x = r_1 a_1 + \dots + r_n a_n$$

In this situation, we say that A is a *basis* or *set of free generators* for F . And then we define the *rank* of $F :=$ the cardinality of A .

Remark: We need to pay attention on the difference of the uniqueness property of direct sums and the uniqueness property of free modules. Namely,

- in the direct sum of two modules, say $N_1 \oplus N_2$, each element can be written *uniquely* as $n_1 + n_2$, where the uniqueness is on the *module elements* n_1, n_2 ,
- while in the case of free modules, the uniqueness is on the *ring elements and the module elements*.

For example, let $R = \mathbb{Z}$ and let $N_1 = N_2 = \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$. Then each element of $N_1 \oplus N_2$ has a unique representation in the form $n_1 + n_2$, **but** $n_1 = 3n_1 = 5n_1 = \dots$ and hence each element does NOT have a unique representation in the form $r_1 a_1 + r_2 a_2$. Therefore, $\mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z} \oplus \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ is NOT a free $\mathbb{Z}$ -module on the set $\{(1, 0), (0, 1)\}$. Similarly, it is NOT free on any set.

Theorem 1.21. Universal Property of Free Modules

For any set A , there exists a free R -module $F(A)$ on the set A and $F(A)$ satisfies the following universal property: if M is any R -module and $\varphi : A \rightarrow M$ is any map of sets, then there exists an R -module homomorphism $\Phi : F(A) \rightarrow M$, s.t.: $\Phi(a) = \varphi(a), \forall a \in A$, i.e.: the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} A & \hookrightarrow & P \\ & \searrow \varphi & \downarrow \Phi \\ & & X_i \end{array}$$

When $A = \{a_1, \dots, a_n\}$ is finite, $F(A) = Ra_1 \oplus \dots \oplus Ra_n \cong R^n$.

Proof. If $A = \emptyset$, then let $F(A) := \{0\}$. Otherwise, if $A \neq \emptyset$, then let $F(A)$ be the collection of all set functions $f : A \rightarrow R$ such that $f(a) = 0$ for all but finitely many $a \in A$. Make $F(A)$ into an R -module by pointwise addition of functions and pointwise multiplication of a ring elements times

a function, i.e.: for any $a \in A$, any $r \in R$, any $f, g \in F(A)$, we define:

$$(f + g)(a) := f(a) + g(a), (rf)(a) := r(f(a))$$

(The details of checking the axioms of R -module are omitted.) Identify A as a subset of $F(A)$ by $a \mapsto f_a$ where f_a is the function defined by

$$f_a(x) := \begin{cases} 1 & , \text{if } x = a \\ 0 & , \text{if } x \in A \setminus \{a\} \end{cases}$$

Then, in this way, we can refer to $F(A)$ as all finite R -linear combinations of elements of A by identifying each function f with the sum $r_1a_1 + \cdots + r_na_n$ where f takes on the value r_i at a_i and zero at all other elements of A . Moreover, each element of $F(A)$ has a unique expression as such a formal sum.

Now define $\Phi : F(A) \rightarrow M$ by

$$\Phi\left(\sum_{i=1}^n r_ia_i\right) := \sum_{i=1}^n r_i\varphi(a_i)$$

By the uniqueness of the expression for the elements of $F(A)$ as linear combinations of a_i , we see that Φ is a well-defined R -module homomorphism (where the details are omitted). Then by def, $\Phi|_A = \varphi$.

As for the uniqueness of Φ , since $F(A)$ is generated by A and since we know the values of an R -module homomorphism on A , then its values on every element of $F(A)$ are uniquely determined. When $A = \{a_1, \dots, a_n\}$ is finite, the Module-Isomorphic-to-Direct Product of its Submodule Proposition.3 shows that $F(A) = Ra_1 \oplus \cdots \oplus Ra_n$. Since the map: $R \xrightarrow{\cong} Ra_i$ given by $r \mapsto ra_i$ is an isomorphism for every i , then $F(A) \cong R^n$. $\square$

Corollary 1.22. *of the Universal Property of Free Modules*

1. If F_1 and F_2 are free modules on the same set A , then there exists a unique isomorphism between F_1 and F_2 which is the identity map on A .
2. If F is any free R -module with basis A , then $F \cong F(A)$. In particular, F enjoys the same universal property with respect with A as $F(A)$ does in the Universal Property of Free Module.

Remark: When $R = \mathbb{Z}$, the free module on a set A is called the *free abelian group on A* . If $|A| = n$, then $F(A)$ is called the free abelian group of *rank n* and is isomorphic to $\underbrace{\mathbb{Z} \oplus \cdots \oplus \mathbb{Z}}_{n \text{ times}}$.

1.5 Tensor Products

1.5.1 Tensor Products of Modules

Definition 1.23. Bilinear Maps of Modules

Let M, N, P be R -modules. A map $\alpha : M \times N \rightarrow P$ is called *bilinear* if for any $m \in M$, any $n \in N$, the maps

$$\alpha_n := \alpha(\cdot, n) : M \rightarrow P \quad \text{and} \quad \alpha_m := \alpha(m, \cdot) : N \rightarrow P$$

are R -linear.

Definition 1.24. Tensor Product of Modules

Let M, N be R -modules. A *tensor product* of M and N over R is an R -module T together with a bilinear map $\tau : M \times N \rightarrow T$ satisfying the following *universal property*:

for any bilinear map $\alpha : M \times N \rightarrow P$ to any module P , there exists a unique linear map $\Phi : T \rightarrow P$ such that $\alpha = \Phi \circ \tau$, i.e.: the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M \times N & \xrightarrow{\alpha} & P \\ \tau \downarrow & \nearrow \exists! \Phi & \\ T & & \end{array}$$

The elements of a tensor product are called *tensors*.

Proposition 1.25. Uniqueness of Tensor Products of Modules

A tensor product is unique up to unique isomorphism in the following sense:

if T_1 and T_2 together with linear maps $\tau_1 : M \times N \rightarrow T_1$ respectively $\tau_2 : M \times N \rightarrow T_2$ are two tensor products for M and N over R , then there is a unique R -module isomorphism $\varphi : T_1 \rightarrow T_2$, s.t.: $\tau_2 = \varphi \circ \tau_1$.

Proof. For $T = T_1, P = T_2$, we have the following commutative diagram:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M \times N & \xrightarrow{\tau_2} & T_2 \\ \tau_1 \downarrow & \nearrow \exists! \varphi & \\ T_1 & & \end{array}$$

where φ is the unique R -module homomorphism from T_1 to T_2 . And for $T = T_2, P = T_1$, we have the following commutative diagram:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M \times N & \xrightarrow{\tau_1} & T_1 \\ \tau_2 \downarrow & \nearrow \exists! \psi & \\ T_2 & & \end{array}$$

where ψ is the unique R -module homomorphism from T_2 to T_1 . Now for $T = P = T_1$, we have the

following commutative diagram:

$$\begin{array}{ccc}
 M \times N & \xrightarrow{\tau_1} & T_1 \\
 \tau_1 \downarrow & \searrow \text{id}_{T_1} & \nearrow \psi \circ \varphi \\
 T_1 & &
 \end{array}$$

i.e.: $\tau_1 = \psi \circ \varphi \circ \tau_1$ and $\tau_1 = \text{id}_{T_1} \circ \tau_1$. Hence, by the uniqueness part of the universal property, we can conclude that $\psi \circ \varphi = \text{id}_{T_1}$. Similarly for $\varphi \circ \psi = \text{id}_{T_2}$. Therefore, φ is an R -module isomorphism. $\square$

Proposition 1.26. *Existence pf Tensor Products of Modules*

Any two R -modules have a tensor product of them.

Proof. Let M, N be R -modules. Denote by F the R -module of all finite linear combinations of elements of $M \times N$, i.e.:

$$F := \{a_1(m_1, n_1) + \cdots + a_k(m_k, n_k) \mid k \in \mathbb{N}_+, a_i \in R, (m_i, n_i) \in M \times N\}$$

More precisely, F can be referred to as the set of maps from $M \times N$ to R that have non-zero values at most at finitely many elements, which has the R -module structure with pointwise addition and scalar multiplication.

Note that $\forall m \in M, n \in N, a \in R, a(m, n), 1(am, n)$ and $1(m, an)$ are different elements of F . Let G be the submodule of F generated by the elements of the forms:

$$\begin{aligned}
 &(m_1 + m_2, n) - (m_1, n) - (m_2, n), (am, n) - a(m, n), \\
 &(m, n_1 + n_2) - (m, n_1) - (m, n_2), (m, an) - a(m, n)
 \end{aligned}$$

$\forall a \in R, m, m_1, m_2 \in M, n, n_1, n_2 \in N$. Then set $T := F/G$. Then the map $\tau : M \times N \rightarrow T$ given by

$$\tau(m, n) := \overline{(m, n)} := (m, n) + G$$

is R -bilinear obviously. Now we claim that T together with τ is a tensor product of M and N over R . To check the universal property, let $\alpha : M \times N \rightarrow P$ be an R -bilinear map to any R -module P .

- For the existence, define a homomorphism $\varphi : T \rightarrow P$ by $\varphi(\overline{(m, n)}) := \alpha(m, n)$ and then extend this by linearity, i.e.:

$$\varphi(a_1 \overline{(m_1, n_1)} + \cdots + a_k \overline{(m_k, n_k)}) := a_1 \alpha(m_1, n_1) + \cdots + a_k \alpha(m_k, n_k)$$

By the bilinearity of α , we can easily see the well-defined-ness of φ . Then we find the existence part of the universal property of tensor products.

- The unique part is easy to check so we omit it here.

$\square$

Remark:

- We denote by $M \otimes_R N$ the tensor product of M and N over R and write $\tau(m, n)$ as $m \otimes n$, called the *tensor product* of m and n .
- Tensors in $M \otimes_R N$ that are of the form $m \otimes n$ for $m \in M, n \in N$ are called *pure* or *monomial*. Note that this def is **NOT** "meaningless" since the general element of $M \otimes_R N$ can be written as a finite linear combination

$$a_1(m_1 \otimes n_1) + \cdots + a_k(m_k \otimes n_k)$$

- By the proof of Existence of Tensor Products Proposition, we have the operations:

$$\begin{aligned} (m_1 + m_2) \otimes n &= m_1 \otimes n + m_2 \otimes n, (am) \otimes n = a(m \otimes n), \\ m \otimes (n_1 + n_2) &= m \otimes n_1 + m \otimes n_2, m \otimes (an) = a(m \otimes n) \end{aligned}$$

for all $a \in R, m, m_1, m_2 \in M, n, n_1, n_2 \in N$. In fact, we can get these operations also by the def saying that τ is bilinear.

- Using multilinear maps instead of bilinear maps, we can also define tensor products $M_1 \otimes \cdots \otimes M_k$ of more than two modules in the same way as above.

Proposition 1.27. *Tensor Product of Modules-Properties Proposition*

For any R -modules M, N, P , there are some isomorphisms:

1. $M \otimes_R N \cong N \otimes_R M$
2. $M \otimes_R R \cong M$
3. $(M \oplus N) \otimes_R P \cong (M \otimes_R P) \oplus (N \otimes_R P)$
4. $M \otimes_R N \otimes_R P \cong (M \otimes_R N) \otimes_R P \cong M \otimes_R (N \otimes_R P)$

Proof. 1,3,4 hold immediately by the universal property of tensor product of modules. For 2, we also use universal property first and get the following commutative diagram:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M \times R & \xrightarrow{(m,r) \mapsto rm} & M \\ \downarrow (m,r) \mapsto m \otimes r & \nearrow \exists! \varphi: (m \otimes r) \mapsto m & \\ M \otimes R & & \end{array}$$

Consider the map $\psi : M \rightarrow M \otimes R$ given by $m \mapsto m \otimes 1$. Since $(\varphi \circ \psi)(m) := \varphi(m \otimes 1) := m$ and since $(\psi \circ \varphi)(m \otimes r) := (rm) \otimes 1 = r(m \otimes 1) = m \otimes r$, then $\psi \circ \varphi = id_{M \otimes R}$ and $\varphi \circ \psi = id_M$. Hence, $\varphi : M \otimes R \xrightarrow{\cong} M$ is an isomorphism. $\square$

Example:

- Let M and N be *free* R -modules of ranks m respectively n . Then $M \cong R^m$ and $N \cong R^n$.

Hence, by the Tensor Product-Properties Proposition.2,3, one has

$$M \otimes N \cong R^m \otimes R^n \cong R^m \otimes \underbrace{(R \oplus \cdots \oplus R)}_{n \text{ times}} \stackrel{3}{\cong} (R^m \otimes R)^n \stackrel{2}{\cong} (R^m)^n = R^{mn}$$

So after a choice of bases of elements of M and N , the elements of $M \otimes N$ can be described as mn -matrices over R .

- Let $I, J \triangleleft R$ be coprime. Then $\exists a \in I, b \in J$, s.t.: $a + b = 1$. Hence, in the tensor product $R/I \otimes_R R/J$, $\forall$ pure tensors $\bar{r} \otimes \bar{s}$ with $r, s \in R$, we have

$$\bar{r} \otimes \bar{s} = 1(\bar{r} \otimes \bar{s}) = (a + b)(\bar{r} \otimes \bar{s}) = \overline{ar} \otimes \bar{s} + \bar{r} \otimes \overline{bs}$$

Since I and J are ideals and $a \in I, b \in J$, then $ar \in I, bs \in J$ and hence $\overline{ar} = 0 \in R/I, \overline{bs} = 0 \in R/J$. Therefore, $\bar{r} \otimes \bar{s} = 0$ and hence $R/I \otimes_R R/J = 0$.

For example, $\forall$ primes $p \neq q$,

$$\mathbb{Z}_p \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}_q = 0$$

This shows that (in contrast to the previous example) a tensor product space need **NOT** be "bigger" than its factors and might be 0 even if none of its factors are.

- Consider the tensor product $\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}_2$, we have

$$2 \otimes \bar{1} = 2(1 \otimes \bar{1}) = 1 \otimes \bar{2} = 0$$

However, if we consider $2 \otimes \bar{1}$ as an element of $2\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}_2$, the above computation is invalid since $1 \notin 2\mathbb{Z}$. So it induces a question: is it still true for $2 \otimes \bar{1} = 0 \in 2\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}_2$?

The answer is NO! Since $2\mathbb{Z} \cong \mathbb{Z}$ as a $\mathbb{Z}$ -module by isomorphism $2 \mapsto 1$, then by the Tensor Product-Properties Proposition.2,3,

$$2\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}_2 \stackrel{2}{\cong} \mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}_2 \stackrel{3}{\cong} \mathbb{Z}_2$$

by the isomorphism $\varphi : 2\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}_2 \xrightarrow{\cong} \mathbb{Z}_2$ sending $(2a) \otimes \bar{b}$ to $\overline{ab}$. Now we see that $\varphi(2 \otimes \bar{1}) = \bar{1} \neq 0$ and hence $2 \otimes \bar{1} \neq 0 \in 2\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}_2$.

1.5.2 Tensor Products of Module Homomorphisms

Definition 1.28. Tensor Products of Module Homomorphisms

Let $\varphi : M \rightarrow N$ and $\varphi' : M' \rightarrow N'$ be two R -module homomorphisms. Then the map $\begin{matrix} M \times M' \rightarrow N \otimes N' \\ (m, m') \mapsto \varphi(m) \otimes \varphi'(m') \end{matrix}$ is bilinear and hence the universal property of tensor product of modules gives rise to a unique homomorphism

$$\varphi \otimes \varphi' : \begin{matrix} M \otimes M' \rightarrow N \otimes N' \\ m \otimes m' \mapsto \varphi(m) \otimes \varphi'(m') \end{matrix}$$

$\forall m \in M, m' \in M'$. We refer to $\varphi \otimes \varphi'$ as the *tensor product* of φ and φ' .

Remark:

- We can make an interpretation on this def in the view of tensor product of modules: since $Hom_R(M, N) \times Hom_R(M', N') \rightarrow Hom_R(M \otimes M', N \otimes N')$ where $\Phi_{\varphi, \varphi'}(m \otimes m') := \varphi(m) \otimes \varphi'(m')$ is bilinear, then the universal property gives rise to the following commutative diagram:

$$\begin{array}{ccc}
 Hom_R(M, N) \times Hom_R(M', N') & \xrightarrow{(\varphi, \varphi') \mapsto \Phi_{\varphi, \varphi'}} & Hom_R(M \otimes M', N \otimes N') \\
 (\varphi, \varphi') \mapsto \varphi \otimes \varphi' \downarrow & \nearrow \exists! \Phi: \varphi \otimes \varphi' \mapsto \Phi_{\varphi, \varphi'} & \\
 Hom_R(M, N) \otimes Hom_R(M', N') & &
 \end{array}$$

Then we can identify $\Phi_{\varphi, \varphi'}$ directly as $\varphi \otimes \varphi'$.

- One application of tensor products of modules and module homomorphisms is to extend the ring of scalars for a given module and we record it as the later subsection:

1.5.3 Extension of Scalars

Motivation: Suppose that the ring R is a subring of the ring S . Then any S -module is immediately an R -module. More generally, if $f : R \rightarrow S$ is a homomorphism, then the action of R on N can be defined as

$$rn := f(r)n, \forall r \in R, n \in N$$

In this situation, S can be considered as an *extension* of the ring R and the resulting R -module is said to be obtained from N by *restriction of scalars* from S to R .

Now suppose that R is a subring of S and we try to reverse this, namely we start with an R -module N and attempt to define an S -module structure on N that extends the action of R on N to an action of S on N (hence "extending the scalars" from R to S). In general, this is impossible, even in the simplest situation: the ring R itself is an R -module but is usually NOT an S -module. For example, $\mathbb{Z}$ is a $\mathbb{Z}$ -module but it can NOT be made into a $\mathbb{Q}$ -module (otherwise, then $\frac{1}{2} \circ 1 = z$ would be an element of $\mathbb{Z}$ with $z + z = 1$ which is impossible in $\mathbb{Z}$). However, although $\mathbb{Z}$ itself can NOT be made into a $\mathbb{Q}$ -module, it is *contained* in a $\mathbb{Q}$ -module, namely $\mathbb{Q}$ itself, i.e.: there's an injection (also called an embedding) of $\mathbb{Z}$ -module $\mathbb{Z}$ into the $\mathbb{Q}$ -module $\mathbb{Q}$. This raises the question of whether an arbitrary R -module N can be embedded as an S -submodule of some S -module, or more generally, the question of what R -module homomorphisms exist from N to S -modules.

Example: We know this process for vector spaces very well: suppose that we're given a real vector space V with $\dim_{\mathbb{R}} V = n < \infty$ and want to study the eigenvalues and eigenvectors of a linear transformation $\varphi : V \rightarrow V$. We then usually set up the matrix $A \in M_{m \times n}(\mathbb{R})$ corresponding to φ in some chosen basis and compute its characteristic polynomial. But often it happens that this polynomial does NOT split in $\mathbb{R}$ and we then therefore consider $A \in M_{n \times n}(\mathbb{C})$ as a complex matrix. We use complexification of real vector spaces to attain this goal, which will be discussed later.

Definition 1.29. Extension of Scalars

Let M be an R -module and let R' be an R -algebra (so that R' is a ring as well as an R -module). For any $a \in R$, consider the multiplication map $\mu_a : R' \rightarrow R$ given by

$$\mu_a(s) := as$$

which is obviously a homomorphism of R -modules. If we set $M_{R'} := M \otimes_R R'$, then we obtain a scalar multiplication with R' on $M_{R'}$

$$\begin{aligned} R' \times M_{R'} &\rightarrow M_{R'} \\ (a, m \otimes s) &\mapsto a(m \otimes s) := (1 \otimes \mu_a)(m \otimes s) = m \otimes (as) \end{aligned}$$

which turns $M_{R'}$ into an R' -module. We say that $M_{R'}$ is obtained from M by an *extension of scalars* from R to R' .

Remark: Any R -module homomorphism $\varphi : M \rightarrow N$ gives rise to an "extend" R' -module homomorphism

$$\varphi_{R'} := \varphi \otimes id : M_{R'} \rightarrow N_{R'}$$

Example (*Complexification of a real vector space*): Let V be a real vector space. Extending scalars from $\mathbb{R}$ to $\mathbb{C}$, we call $V_{\mathbb{C}} := V \otimes_{\mathbb{R}} \mathbb{C}$ the *complexification* of V . By def, this is now a complex vector space.

Let us assume for simplicity that V is finitely generated, with basis $\{b_1, \dots, b_n\}$. Then $V \cong \mathbb{R}^n$ by an isomorphism mapping b_i to e_i for $i = 1, \dots, n$ and consequently, $V_{\mathbb{C}} := V \otimes_{\mathbb{R}} \mathbb{C} \cong \mathbb{R}^n \otimes_{\mathbb{R}} \mathbb{C} \cong \mathbb{R}^n \otimes_{\mathbb{R}} \mathbb{C} \cong (\mathbb{R} \otimes_{\mathbb{R}} \mathbb{C})^n \cong \mathbb{C}^n$ as R -modules by the Tensor Product of Modules-Properties Proposition and by def, also as $\mathbb{C}$ -modules. Moreover, $b_i \otimes 1$ maps to e_i under this chain of isomorphisms for all i and so as expected the vectors $b_1 \otimes 1, \dots, b_n \otimes 1$ form a basis of $V_{\mathbb{C}}$.

Finally, consider a linear transformation $\varphi : V \rightarrow V$ described by the matrix $A \in M_{n \times n}(\mathbb{R})$ with respect to $\{b_1, \dots, b_n\}$, i.e.: $\varphi(b_i) = \sum_{j=1}^n a_{ji} b_j$, $\forall i$. Then $\varphi_{\mathbb{C}} : V_{\mathbb{C}} \rightarrow V_{\mathbb{C}}$ obtained in the def of Extension of Scalars is an endomorphism of the complexification vector space and since

$$\varphi_{\mathbb{C}}(b_i \otimes 1) = \varphi(b_i) \otimes 1 = \sum_{j=1}^n a_{ji} (b_j \otimes 1)$$

then we see that the matrix of $\varphi_{\mathbb{C}}$ with respect to the basis $\{b_1 \otimes 1, \dots, b_n \otimes 1\}$ is precisely A again, just now considered as a complex matrix.

Proposition 1.30. *Extension of Scalars Proposition*

Let M, N be R -modules and let R' be an R -algebra. The extension of scalars commutes with tensor products in the sense that there exists an isomorphism of R' -modules

$$(M \otimes_R N)_{R'} \cong_{R'} M_{R'} \otimes_{R'} N_{R'}$$

Proof.

Lemma 1.31. *For any R' -module X , we have*

$$M_{R'} \otimes_{R'} X \cong_{R'} M \otimes_R X$$

where the R' -structure of $M \otimes_R X$ is given by X , i.e.: $r'(m \otimes x) := m \otimes (r'x)$.

Proof. of lemma: By universal property, we have the following commutative diagrams:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M_{R'} \times X & \xrightarrow{(m \otimes r', x) \mapsto m \otimes (r'x)} & M \otimes_R X \\ \downarrow (m \otimes r', x) \mapsto (m \otimes r') \otimes x & \nearrow \exists! \varphi: (m \otimes r') \otimes x \mapsto m \otimes (r'x) & \\ M_{R'} \otimes_{R'} X & & \end{array}$$

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M \times X & \xrightarrow{(m, x) \mapsto (m \otimes 1) \otimes x} & M_{R'} \otimes_R X \\ \downarrow (m, x) \mapsto m \otimes x & \nearrow \exists! \psi: m \otimes x \mapsto (m \otimes 1) \otimes x & \\ M \otimes_R X & & \end{array}$$

Since $(\varphi \circ \psi)(m \otimes x) := \varphi((m \otimes 1) \otimes x) := m \otimes x$ and $(\psi \circ \varphi)((m \otimes r') \otimes x) := \psi(m \otimes (r'x)) := (m \otimes 1) \otimes (r'x) = (m \otimes r') \otimes x$, then φ is an R' -module isomorphism between $M_{R'} \otimes_{R'} X \cong M \otimes_R X$ as R' -modules. $\square$

Now we return back to the *proof of the Extension of Scalars Proposition*: Let $X = N_{R'}$ and then we get:

$$\begin{aligned} M_{R'} \otimes_{R'} N_{R'} &:= (M \otimes_R R')_{R'} \otimes_{R'} N_{R'} \stackrel{\text{lemma}}{\cong} M \otimes_R N_{R'} := M \otimes_R (N \otimes_R R') \\ &\cong (M \otimes_R N) \otimes_R R' := (M \otimes_R N)_{R'} \end{aligned}$$

$\square$

Proposition 1.32. *Extension of Scalars for Free Modules*

The module obtained from the free R -module $N \cong R^n$ by extension of scalars from R to an R -algebra R' (and hence a ring that contains R) is the free R' -module S^n , i.e.:

$$R' \otimes_R R^n \cong (R')^n$$

as R' -modules.

Proof. It immediately hold by the Tensor Product of Modules-Properties Proposition. $\square$

1.5.4 Tensor Product of Algebras

Definition 1.33. Tensor Product of Algebras

Let R_1, R_2 be R -algebras. The map $R_1 \times R_2 \times R_1 \times R_2 \rightarrow R_1 \otimes R_2$ given by $(s, t, s', t') \mapsto (ss') \otimes (tt')$

is multilinear and hence by using repeatedly the universal property of tensor product, it induces an R -module homomorphism

$$\begin{aligned} (R_1 \otimes R_2) \otimes (R_1 \otimes R_2) &\rightarrow R_1 \otimes R_2 \\ (s \otimes t) \otimes (s' \otimes t') &\mapsto (ss') \otimes (tt') \end{aligned}$$

Again by the universal property of tensor product, this now corresponds to a bilinear map

$$\begin{aligned} (R_1 \otimes R_2) \times (R_1 \otimes R_2) &\rightarrow R_1 \otimes R_2 \\ (s \otimes t, s' \otimes t') &\mapsto (s \otimes t) \cdot (s' \otimes t') := (ss') \otimes (tt') \end{aligned}$$

This multiplication makes $R_1 \otimes R_2$ into a ring and hence into an R -algebra.

Proposition 1.34. *Multivariate Polynomial Rings-Tensor Products Proposition*

$$R[x, y] \cong R[x] \otimes_R R[y]$$

are isomorphic as R -algebra.

Proof. There are R -module homomorphisms $\varphi : R[x] \otimes_R R[y] \rightarrow R[x, y]$ and $\psi : R[x, y] \rightarrow R[x] \otimes_R R[y]$ given by

$$\varphi(f \otimes g) := fg, \quad \psi\left(\sum_{i,j} a_{ij} x^i y^j\right) := \sum_{i,j} a_{ij} (x^i \otimes y^j)$$

Since for all $i, j \in \mathbb{N} \cup \{0\}$, $(\psi \circ \varphi)(x^i \otimes y^j) = x^i \otimes y^j$ and $(\varphi \circ \psi)(x^i y^j) = x^i y^j$ and since $x^i \otimes y^j$ and $x^i y^j$ generate $R[x] \otimes_R R[y]$ respectively $R[x, y]$ as an R -module, then we see that φ and ψ are inverse to each other. Since

$$\varphi((f \otimes g) \cdot (f' \otimes g')) := \varphi((ff') \otimes (gg')) := ff'gg' = fgf'g' = \varphi(f \otimes g) \cdot \varphi(f' \otimes g')$$

then φ is also a ring homomorphism with the multiplication in $R[x] \otimes_R R[y]$. Therefore, $R[x, y] \cong R[x] \otimes_R R[y]$ as R -algebras. $\square$

1.5.5 Exact Sequences

1.5.5.1 Exact Sequences

Intuition: One of the fundamental results for studying the structure of an algebraic object B (e.g. a group, a ring, or a module) is the First Isomorphism Theorem, which relates to the sub-objects of B (the normal groups, the ideals, or the submodules, respectively) with the possible homomorphic images of B . More precisely, consider whether, given two modules A, C , there exists a module B containing (an isomorphic copy of) A such that $B/A \cong C$, where B is said to be an *extension* of C by A . So we introduce the following definition:

Definition 1.35. Exact Sequences

- The pair of homomorphisms (of algebraic objects) $X \xrightarrow{\alpha} Y \xrightarrow{\beta} Z$ is said to be *exact* (at Y) if $\text{im } \alpha = \ker \beta$.

- A sequence $\cdots \rightarrow X_{k-1} \rightarrow X_k \rightarrow X_{k+1} \rightarrow \cdots$ of homomorphisms (of algebraic objects) is said to be an *exact* sequence if it is exact at each X_k between a pair of homomorphisms (of algebraic objects).

Remark: Note that if $\psi : A \rightarrow B$ is injective and if $\varphi : B \rightarrow C$, then the sequence

$$0 \rightarrow A \xrightarrow{\psi} B \xrightarrow{\varphi} C \rightarrow 0$$

is exact and that the converse also holds.

Definition 1.36. Short Exact Sequence

We often call the exact sequence

$$0 \rightarrow A \xrightarrow{\psi} B \xrightarrow{\varphi} C \rightarrow 0$$

a *short exact sequence*.

Remark: Every exact sequence can be written as a short exact sequence:

$$X \xrightarrow{\alpha} Y \xrightarrow{\beta} Z \text{ is exact} \Leftrightarrow 0 \rightarrow \alpha(X) \rightarrow Y \rightarrow Y/\ker \beta \rightarrow 0 \text{ is a short exact sequence}$$

Example:

- Given modules A, C , the sequence

$$0 \rightarrow A \xrightarrow{a \mapsto (a,0)} A \oplus C \xrightarrow{(a,c) \mapsto c} C \rightarrow 0$$

is a short exact sequence, which follows that there always exists at least one extension of C by A . In particular, consider two $\mathbb{Z}$ -modules $A = \mathbb{Z}, C = \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$:

$$0 \rightarrow \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{z \mapsto (z,0)} \mathbb{Z} \oplus \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{(z_1, z_2 + n\mathbb{Z}) \mapsto z_2 + n\mathbb{Z}} C \rightarrow 0$$

giving one extension of $\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$ by $\mathbb{Z}$.

- If $\varphi : B \rightarrow C$ is any homomorphism of algebraic objects, then we have an exact sequence:

$$0 \rightarrow \ker \varphi \hookrightarrow B \xrightarrow{\varphi} \text{im} \varphi \rightarrow 0$$

In particular, if φ is surjective, then the sequence may be extended to a short exact sequence.

- Let $a \in R$ be an element in R . Then we can get the following *short exact sequence*:

$$0 \rightarrow R/(I : a) \xrightarrow{r \mapsto (I;a) \mapsto ar+I} R/I \twoheadrightarrow R/(I + (a)) \rightarrow 0$$

- Let S be a set of generators for M and let $F(S)$ be the free R -module on S . Then we have a short exact sequence:

$$0 \rightarrow \ker \varphi \hookrightarrow F(S) \xrightarrow{\varphi} M \rightarrow 0$$

where φ denotes the uniqueness R -module homomorphism which is the identity on S (by the universal property of free module). More generally, when M is any group (possibly non-abelian), the above short exact sequence describes a *presentation* of M , where $\ker \varphi$ is the normal subgroup of $F(S)$ generated by the *relations* defining M .

- (*Presentation of Modules*):

As in the presentation of groups, an R -module can be given by "generators" and "relations", e.g.: if we say that M has one generator g and relations $r_1g = r_2g = \cdots = r_ng = 0$ for some $r_i \in R$, then $M = R/(r_1, \dots, r_n)$. Here is an exact sequence view:

Note that each element m of M corresponds to a homomorphism from R to M , sending 1 to m . Hence, if $\{m_i\}_{i \in I}$ generates M , then consider the corresponding homomorphism $\varphi : \bigoplus_{i \in I} R \rightarrow M$, sending the i th 1 to m_i , which is easy to check that φ is surjective.

Let $\{n_j\}_{j \in J}$ be such that it generates $\ker \varphi$, which give the "relations" on m_j 's. Similarly, n_j 's correspond a homomorphism $\psi : \bigoplus_{j \in J} R \rightarrow \bigoplus_{i \in I} R$, sending the j th 1 to n_j .

Now we see that: M is described as the module with generators $\{m_i\}_{i \in I}$ and relations $\{n_j\}_{j \in J}$ iff the sequence

$$\bigoplus_{j \in J} R \xrightarrow{\psi} \bigoplus_{i \in I} R \xrightarrow{\varphi} M \rightarrow 0$$

is exact. This example leads to a definition for presentation of modules but we will first introduce the main content and then introduce this concept at the end of this "subsubsection". For convenience, let's give this example a name, say "the presentation of modules".

- In contrast to the first example, another extension of $\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$ by $\mathbb{Z}$ is given by the short exact sequence

$$0 \rightarrow \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{z \mapsto nz} \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{z \mapsto z + n\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z} \rightarrow 0$$

Note that the modules in the middle of the previous two exact sequences are **NOT** isomorphic even though the respective "A" and "C" terms are isomorphic. Hence, there are (at least) two "essentially different" or "inequivalent" ways of extending $\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$, which leads to the following definition:

Definition 1.37. Homomorphisms of Short Exact Sequences

Let $0 \rightarrow A \rightarrow B \rightarrow C \rightarrow 0$ and $0 \rightarrow A' \rightarrow B' \rightarrow C' \rightarrow 0$ be two short exact sequences of modules.

- A *homomorphism of short exact sequences* is a triple (α, β, γ) of module homomorphisms such that the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & A & \longrightarrow & B & \longrightarrow & C \longrightarrow 0 \\ & & \downarrow \alpha & & \downarrow \beta & & \downarrow \gamma \\ 0 & \longrightarrow & A' & \longrightarrow & B' & \longrightarrow & C' \longrightarrow 0 \end{array}$$

This homomorphism is an *isomorphism of short exact sequences* if α, β, γ are all isomorphisms, in which case the extensions B and B' are said to be *isomorphic extensions*.

- The two short exact sequences are called *equivalent* if $A = A', C = C'$ and there is an isomorphism between them as in the above that is the identity maps on A and C (i.e.: $\alpha = id_A, \gamma = id_C$). In this case the corresponding extensions B and B' are said to be *equivalent extensions*.

Remark:

- Isomorphic extensions $\Rightarrow$ isomorphism of modules.
- If B and B' are isomorphic extensions, then there is an R -module isomorphism between B and B' that restricts to an isomorphism from A to A' and induces an isomorphism on the quotients C and C' .
- If B and B' are equivalent extensions of C by A , then there exists an R -module isomorphism between B and B' that restricts to the identity map on A and induces the identity map on C .
- The notion of isomorphic extensions measures how many different extensions of C by A there are, allowing for C and A to be changed by an isomorphism. The notion of equivalent extensions measures how many different extensions of C by A there are when A and C are rigidly fixed.
- It's easy to see that homomorphisms and isomorphisms between short exact sequences with composition

$$(\alpha, \beta, \gamma) \circ (\alpha', \beta', \gamma') := (\alpha \circ \alpha', \beta \circ \beta', \gamma \circ \gamma')$$

gives a group structure.

- Since: if the triple (α, β, γ) is an isomorphism (or equivalent) then $(\alpha^{-1}, \beta^{-1}, \gamma^{-1})$ is an isomorphism (or equivalent respectively) in the reverse direction, then: "isomorphism" (or "equivalence") is an equivalence relation on any set of short exact sequence.

Example:

- Let $m, n \in \mathbb{N}_+ \setminus \{1\}$. Assume that $n \mid m$ and then let $k := m/n$. Then the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & \mathbb{Z} & \xrightarrow{z \mapsto nz} & \mathbb{Z} & \xrightarrow{z \mapsto z+n\mathbb{Z}} & \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z} \longrightarrow 0 \\ & & \downarrow \alpha: z \mapsto z+k\mathbb{Z} & & \downarrow \beta: z \mapsto z+m\mathbb{Z} & & \downarrow \gamma = id_{\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}} \\ 0 & \longrightarrow & \mathbb{Z}/k\mathbb{Z} & \xrightarrow{z \mapsto kz \mapsto nz \mapsto m\mathbb{Z}} & \mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z} & \xrightarrow{z \mapsto m\mathbb{Z} \mapsto z \mapsto n\mathbb{Z}} & \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z} \longrightarrow 0 \end{array}$$

i.e.: (α, β, γ) is a homomorphism of short exact sequences.

- The following commutative diagram gives an isomorphism of the exact sequence with oneself

but *NOT* an equivalence of sequences:

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc}
 0 & \longrightarrow & \mathbb{Z} & \xrightarrow{z \mapsto nz} & \mathbb{Z} & \xrightarrow{z \mapsto z+n\mathbb{Z}} & \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z} \longrightarrow 0 \\
 & & \downarrow \alpha & & \downarrow \beta & & \downarrow \gamma \\
 0 & \longrightarrow & \mathbb{Z} & \xrightarrow{z \mapsto nz} & \mathbb{Z} & \xrightarrow{z \mapsto z+n\mathbb{Z}} & \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z} \longrightarrow 0
 \end{array}$$

where α, β, γ all map $x \mapsto -x$, since α and γ are NOT identity maps.

Theorem 1.38. *The short Five Lemma*

Let (α, β, γ) be a homomorphism of short exact sequences:

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc}
 0 & \longrightarrow & A & \longrightarrow & B & \longrightarrow & C \longrightarrow 0 \\
 & & \downarrow \alpha & & \downarrow \beta & & \downarrow \gamma \\
 0 & \longrightarrow & A' & \longrightarrow & B' & \longrightarrow & C' \longrightarrow 0
 \end{array}$$

1. If α and γ are injective, then so is β .
2. If α and γ are surjective, then so is β .
3. If α and γ are isomorphisms, then so is β and hence the two sequences are isomorphic.

Proof. We only prove 1 here. Let $\psi : A \rightarrow B$ and $\varphi : B \rightarrow C$ be the homomorphisms in the upper short exact sequence. For any $b \in B$ with $\beta(b) = 0$, the image of $\beta(b)$ in C' is also 0. By the commutativity of the diagram, $\gamma(\varphi(b)) = 0$. By the injectivity of γ , $\varphi(b) = 0 \Rightarrow b \in \ker \varphi = \text{im } \psi$, i.e.: there exists $a \in A$, s.t.: $b = \psi(a)$. Then again by the commutativity of the diagram, the image of $\alpha(a)$ in B' is the same as $\beta(\psi(a)) = \beta(b) = 0$. Note that α and the map: $A' \rightarrow B'$ are injective by hypothesis. Hence, $a = 0$. Therefore, $b = \psi(a) = 0$. $\square$

Definition 1.39. Free Presentation of Modules

Recall the fifth example under the definition of short exact sequence, namely, the presentation of modules, we often write $F = \oplus_{j \in J} R, G = \oplus_{i \in I} R$ to describe the relations of M respectively the generators of M . Then we call the sequence $F \rightarrow G \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$ a *free presentation* of M . Furthermore:

- In case I and J are finite, so that each of F and G is finitely generated free module over R , the sequence is called a *finite free presentation*.
- M is *finitely generated* if $|I| < \infty$.
- M is *finitely presented* if $|J| < \infty$.

1.5.5.2 Split Sequences

Intuition: We've already seen that there is always at least one extension of a module C by A , namely the direct sum $B = A \oplus C$. In this case, the module B contains a submodule $C' = 0 \oplus C \cong C$ as well as the submodule A and this complement to A "splits" B into a direct sum.

Definition 1.40. Split (Short Exact) Sequences

We say a short exact sequence

$$0 \rightarrow A \xrightarrow{\alpha} B \xrightarrow{\beta} C \rightarrow 0$$

is *split* if there exists an R -module homomorphism $\mu : C \rightarrow B$, s.t.:

$$\varphi \circ \mu = id_C$$

In this case, the extension B is called a *split extension* of C by A . Furthermore, any map $\nu : C \rightarrow B$, s.t.: $\varphi \circ \nu = id_C$ is called a *section* of φ and if $\nu = \mu$ is an R -module homomorphism as above, then it is called a *splitting homomorphism* for the sequence.

Remark: We want to know "split" more explicitly, namely as in intuition above but before that, we need some preparations and then we can prove the Split Sequence Proposition, which will be introduced in the following text, more easily.

Definition 1.41. General def for Direct Sum and Direct Product

Let $\{M_i\}_{i \in I}$ be a family of R -modules.

- *Direct Product:*

$$\prod_{i \in I} M_i := \{(m_i)_{i \in I} \mid m_i \in M_i\}$$

- *Direct Sum:*

$$\oplus_{i \in I} M_i := \{(m_i)_{i \in I} \mid m_i \in M_i, \text{ all but finitely many } m'_i \text{ are } 0\}$$

Definition 1.42. Direct Summand of Module

Let M, P be R -modules. We say that M is a *direct summand* of P if there are homomorphisms $\alpha : M \rightarrow P$ and $\sigma : P \rightarrow M$ such that the composition $\sigma \circ \alpha = id_M$.

Proposition 1.43. *Direct Summand-Direct Sum-Decomposition Proposition*

If M is a direct summand of P with $\alpha : M \rightarrow P, \sigma : P \rightarrow M$, then

$$P \cong M \oplus (\ker \sigma)$$

Proof. Consider the map $\varphi : M \oplus (\ker \varphi) \rightarrow P$ given by $(m, k) \mapsto \alpha(m) + k$.

- φ is a module homomorphism: For any $m, n \in M$, any $k, t \in \ker \sigma$, any $r \in R$,
 - $\varphi((m, k) + (n, t)) = \varphi(m + n, k + t) := \alpha(m + n) + k + t = (\alpha(m) + k) + (\alpha(n) + t) := \varphi(m, k) + \varphi(n, t)$
 - $\varphi(r(m, k)) = \varphi(rm, rk) := \alpha(rm) + rk = r(\alpha(m) + k) := r\varphi(m, k)$
- φ is injective: For any (m, k) with $\varphi(m, k) = 0$, we have

$$\alpha(m) + k = 0 \Leftrightarrow \varphi(m) = -k \Rightarrow m = (\sigma\alpha)(m) = -\sigma(k) = 0 \Rightarrow \alpha(m) = 0 \Rightarrow k = 0 \Rightarrow (m, k) = 0$$

- φ is surjective: For any $p \in P$, set $m := \sigma(p), k := p - \alpha(\sigma(p))$.

– **Check** that $k \in \ker \sigma$:

$$\sigma(k) := \sigma(p) - (\sigma\alpha)(\sigma(p)) = \sigma(p) - \sigma(p) = 0$$

- $\varphi(m, k) := \alpha(m) + k = \alpha(\sigma(p)) + p - \alpha(\sigma(p)) = p$.

□

Proposition 1.44. *Split Sequence Proposition*

1. $0 \rightarrow A \xrightarrow{\alpha} B \xrightarrow{\beta} C \rightarrow 0$ is split $\Leftrightarrow B \cong A \oplus C$.
2. $0 \rightarrow A \xrightarrow{\alpha} B \xrightarrow{\beta} C \rightarrow 0$ is split $\Leftrightarrow$ there exists a homomorphism $\sigma : B \rightarrow A$ such that $\sigma\alpha = id_A$.

Proof. 1. • $(\Rightarrow)$: Note that C is a direct summand of B . Hence, by the Direct Summand-Direct Sum-Decomposition Proposition,

$$B \cong C \oplus (\ker \beta) \xrightarrow{\ker \beta = im \alpha} C \oplus (im \alpha) \xrightarrow{\alpha \text{ inj.}} C \oplus A \cong A \oplus C$$

- $(\Leftarrow)$: Consider $C' \subseteq B$ with $\varphi(C') \cong C$. Then define $\mu := \varphi^{-1} : C \xrightarrow{\cong} C' \subseteq B$
- 2. • $(\Rightarrow)$: Set $\sigma' := id_B - \tau\beta : B \rightarrow B$. Since

$$\beta\sigma' := \beta - \beta\tau\beta = \beta - id_C\beta = 0$$

then $im \sigma' \subseteq \ker \beta = im \alpha$. Now we define σ by the following:

For any $b \in B$, $\sigma'(b) \in im \alpha \Rightarrow \exists a \in A$, s.t.: $\alpha(a) = \sigma'(b)$. Since α is injective, then such a is unique. Hence we can define a well-defined $\sigma(b) :=$ the unique $a \in A$ such that $\alpha(a) = \sigma'(b)$ and hence $\alpha(\sigma(b)) = \sigma'(b) \Leftrightarrow \alpha\sigma = \sigma'$.

For any $a \in A$, since

$$\alpha(\sigma\alpha(a)) = \alpha\sigma(\alpha(a)) = \sigma'(\alpha(a)) := \alpha(a) - \tau\beta\alpha(a) \xrightarrow{im \alpha = \ker \beta} \alpha(a) - 0 = \alpha(a)$$

then by the injectivity of α , one has

$$\sigma\alpha(a) = a \Rightarrow \sigma\alpha = id_A$$

- $(\Leftarrow)$: Similarly.

□

1.6 Projective, Injective and Flat Modules

Intuition: Consider a short exact sequence of R -modules

$$0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$$

with M an extension of N by L . It's natural to ask whether properties for L and N imply related properties for the extension M .

1.6.1 Projective Modules ($\text{Hom}_R(D, \cdot)$)

Intuition: The first situation we shall consider is whether an R -module homomorphism from some fixed R -module D to either L or N implies that there is an R -module homomorphism from D to M .

Proposition 1.45. *L - ψ -Inducing-Map Proposition*

Let D, L, M be R -modules and let $\psi : L \rightarrow M$ be an R -module homomorphism. Then the map $\psi' : \text{Hom}_R(D, L) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(D, M)$ given by

$$\psi'(f) := \psi \circ f$$

is a homomorphism of abelian group. Furthermore, if ψ is injective, then ψ' is also injective, i.e.:

if $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M$ is exact, then $0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(D, L) \xrightarrow{\psi'} \text{Hom}_R(D, M)$ is also exact.

Proof. It's clear that ψ' is a homomorphism. Now suppose that ψ is injective. If $g \neq f \in \text{Hom}_R(D, L)$, then $\exists d \in D$, s.t.: $f(d) \neq g(d)$. Hence, by the injectivity of ψ , we have

$$(\psi \circ f)(d) \neq (\psi \circ g)(d)$$

Therefore, $\psi'(f) := \psi \circ f \neq \psi \circ g := \psi'(g)$. □

Remark:

- The L - ψ -Inducing-Map Prop. can be indicated by the commutative diagram:

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} & & D & & \\ & & \downarrow f & \searrow \psi'(f) & \\ (0) & \longrightarrow & L & \xrightarrow{\psi} & M \end{array}$$

- As for the situation for N , the question is whether there exists an R -module homomorphism $F : D \rightarrow M$ that *extends* or *lifts* f to M , i.e.: that makes the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccc}
 & & D \\
 & \swarrow F & \downarrow f \\
 M & \xrightarrow{\varphi} & N
 \end{array}$$

However, unlike the L - ψ -Inducing-Map Prop, this may not necessarily hold in general, i.e.: in general it may not be possible to lift a homomorphism f from D to N to a homomorphism from D to M . For example, consider the nonsplit exact sequence

$$0 \rightarrow \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{z \mapsto 2z} \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{z \mapsto z+2\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z} \rightarrow 0$$

Let $D = \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ and let $f = id_{\mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}}$ be the identity map from D to N . Then any homomorphism F of D into $M = \mathbb{Z}$ must map D to 0 (since $\mathbb{Z}$ has no elements of order 2). Hence, $(z \mapsto z + 2\mathbb{Z}) \circ F$ maps D to 0 in N . Therefore, $(z \mapsto z + 2\mathbb{Z}) \circ F \neq f$, which shows that

if $M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$ is exact, then $Hom_R(D, M) \xrightarrow{\varphi'} Hom_R(D, N) \rightarrow 0$ is *not necessarily* exact.

where $\varphi' : f \mapsto \varphi \circ f$.

Theorem 1.46. *Associated $Hom_R(D, \cdot)$ Sequence Theorem*

Let D, L, M, N be R -modules. Given a short exact sequence

$$0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$$

the associated sequence

$$0 \rightarrow Hom_R(D, L) \xrightarrow{\psi'} Hom_R(D, M) \xrightarrow{\varphi'} Hom_R(D, N) \quad (*)$$

is exact. A homomorphism $f : D \rightarrow N$ lifts to a homomorphism $F : D \rightarrow M \Leftrightarrow f \in im \varphi' \subseteq Hom_R(D, M)$. In general, $\varphi' : Hom_R(D, M) \rightarrow Hom_R(D, N)$ need NOT be surjective. Furthermore, φ' is surjective $\Leftrightarrow$ every homomorphism from D to N lifts to a homomorphism from D to M , in which case the exact sequence $(*)$ can be extended to a short exact sequence.

Moreover, $(*)$ is exact for all R -modules $D \Leftrightarrow$ the sequence

$$0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \text{ is exact.}$$

Proof. • The only thing in the first statement that has not already been proved is the exactness of $(*)$ at $Hom_R(D, M)$, i.e.: $\ker \varphi' = im \psi'$.

- $\ker \varphi' \subseteq im \psi'$: $\forall F \in \ker \varphi' \subseteq Hom_R(D, M)$, we have $\varphi \circ F = 0$ as homomorphisms from D to N , i.e.: $\forall d \in D$, $\varphi(F(d)) = 0$ and hence $F(d) \in \ker \varphi$. By the exactness of $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$, $F(d) = \varphi(l_d)$ for some $l_d \in L$. By the injectivity of ψ , the element l_d is unique and hence this gives a well-defined map $F' : D \rightarrow L$ given by

$F'(d) := l_d$, which can be checked that F' is a homomorphism, i.e.: $F' \in \text{Hom}_R(D, L)$. Then we have

$$F = \psi \circ F' := \psi'(F') \Rightarrow F \in \text{im}\psi'$$

Therefore, $\ker \varphi' \subseteq \text{im}\psi'$.

– $\text{im}\psi' \subseteq \ker \varphi'$: $\forall F \in \text{im}\psi', \exists F' \in \text{Hom}_R(D, L)$, s.t.: $F = \psi'(F')$. Hence, $\forall d \in D$, we have

$$\varphi(F(d)) = \varphi(\psi(F'(d))) = (\varphi \circ \psi)(F'(d)) \stackrel{\ker \varphi = \text{im}\psi}{=} 0$$

$$\Rightarrow (\varphi \circ F)(d) = 0, \forall d \in D, \text{ i.e.: } \varphi'(F) = \varphi \circ F = 0 \Rightarrow F \in \ker \varphi' \Rightarrow \text{im}\psi' \subseteq \ker \varphi'.$$

- For the last statement in the theorem, note that the surjectivity of φ is not required for the proof that $(*)$ is exact and hence the $(\Leftarrow)$ direction has already been proven. For the converse, note that in general, $\text{Hom}_R(R, X) \cong X$ are isomorphic as R -modules for any R -module X , with the isomorphism $f \mapsto f(1)$. Taking $D = R$ in $(*)$, the exactness of the sequence $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N$ follows easily.

□

Remark: More precisely, the sequence $0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(D, L) \xrightarrow{\psi'} \text{Hom}_R(D, M) \xrightarrow{\varphi'} \text{Hom}_R(D, N) \rightarrow 0$ is exact $\Leftrightarrow$ there is a bijection

$$\{F : D \rightarrow M \text{ homomorphisms}\} \leftrightarrow \{(g : D \rightarrow L, f : D \rightarrow N) \text{ pairs of homomorphisms}\}$$

given by $F|_{\psi(L)} = \psi'(g)$ and $f = \varphi'(F)$.

Proposition 1.47. *Split- $\text{Hom}_R(D, \cdot)$ Proposition*

Let D, L, N be R -modules. Then

1. $\text{Hom}_R(D, L \oplus N) \cong \text{Hom}_R(D, L) \oplus \text{Hom}_R(D, N)$, and,
2. $\text{Hom}_R(L \oplus N, D) \cong \text{Hom}_R(L, D) \oplus \text{Hom}_R(N, D)$.

Proof. We only prove 1 and the proof of 2 is similar.

- Let $\pi_1 : L \oplus N \rightarrow L, \pi_2 : L \oplus N \rightarrow N$ be the natural projections. If $f \in \text{Hom}_R(D, L \oplus N)$, then $\pi_1 \circ f \in \text{Hom}_R(D, L)$ and $\pi_2 \circ f \in \text{Hom}_R(D, N)$. Hence, $\varphi : \text{Hom}_R(D, L \oplus N) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(D, L) \oplus \text{Hom}_R(D, N)$ with $f \mapsto (\pi_1 \circ f, \pi_2 \circ f)$ is a homomorphism.
- Conversely, let $\psi : \text{Hom}_R(D, L) \oplus \text{Hom}_R(D, N) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(D, L \oplus N)$ be given by $(f_1, f_2) \mapsto f$ where $f(d) := (f_1(d), f_2(d)), \forall d \in D$. Then it's easy to show that $\psi \circ \varphi = \text{id}_{\text{Hom}_R(D, L \oplus N)}$ and $\varphi \circ \psi = \text{id}_{\text{Hom}_R(D, L) \oplus \text{Hom}_R(D, N)}$ and hence φ is an isomorphism between $\text{Hom}_R(D, L \oplus N) \cong \text{Hom}_R(D, L) \oplus \text{Hom}_R(D, N)$.

□

Remark:

- These results can extend immediately by induction to any finite direct sum of R -modules.

- These results are referred to by saying that Hom *commutes with finite direct sums in either variable*. For infinite direct sums, the situation is more complicated: Part 1 still holds if $L \oplus N$ is replaced by an arbitrary direct sum and the right hand side is replaced by a direct product; part 2 still holds if the direct sums on both sides are replaced by direct products.

Corollary 1.48. *of the Split- $\text{Hom}_R(D, \cdot)$ Proposition*

If the sequence $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$ is a split short exact sequence of R -modules, then

$$0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(D, L) \xrightarrow{\psi'} \text{Hom}_R(D, M) \xrightarrow{\varphi'} \text{Hom}_R(D, N) \rightarrow 0$$

is also a split short exact sequence of abelian groups for every R -module D .

Remark: Converse also holds.

Definition 1.49. Projective Modules

An R -module P is called *projective* if it satisfies one of the following (equivalent) conditions (we will prove the equivalence of those conditions later):

1. $\forall$ R -modules L, M, N , if $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$ is a short exact sequence, then so is

$$0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(P, L) \xrightarrow{\psi'} \text{Hom}_R(P, M) \xrightarrow{\varphi'} \text{Hom}_R(P, N) \rightarrow 0$$

2. $\forall$ R -modules M, N , if $M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$ is exact, then every R -module homomorphism from P to N lifts to an R -module homomorphism to M , i.e.: given $f \in \text{Hom}_R(P, N)$, there is a lift $F \in \text{Hom}_R(P, M)$, s.t.: the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} & P & \\ & \downarrow f & \\ M & \xrightarrow{\varphi} & N \longrightarrow 0 \\ & \nwarrow F & \end{array}$$

3. If P is a quotient of the R -module M , then P is isomorphic to a direct summand of M , i.e.: every short exact sequence $0 \rightarrow L \rightarrow M \rightarrow P \rightarrow 0$ splits.
4. P is a direct summand of a free R -module.

Proposition 1.50. *Projective Modules-Conditions-Equivalent Proposition*

The conditions in the definition of projective modules are equivalent.

Proof. • $(1 \Leftrightarrow 2)$: is a restatement of a result in the Associated $\text{Hom}_R(D, \cdot)$ Sequence Theorem.

- $(2 \Rightarrow 3)$: Let $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} P \rightarrow 0$ be exact. By 2, the identity map from P to P lifts to a

homomorphism μ making the following diagram commute:

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} & & P & & \\ & \swarrow \mu & \downarrow id_P & & \\ M & \xrightarrow{\varphi} & P & \longrightarrow & 0 \end{array}$$

Then we find that μ is a splitting homomorphism for the sequence.

- (3 $\Rightarrow$ 4): We refer to P as a set and then we have: the sequence

$$0 \rightarrow \ker \varphi \hookrightarrow F(P) \xrightarrow{\varphi} P \rightarrow 0$$

is exact where $F(P)$ denotes the free module on the set P . Hence, if 3 holds, then this sequence is split, so $F(P) \cong \ker \varphi \oplus P$.

- (4 $\Rightarrow$ 2): Let S be a set and K be an R -module, s.t.:

$$F(S) \cong P \oplus K$$

$\forall f \in \text{Hom}_R(P, N)$, consider the natural projection map $\pi : F(S) \rightarrow P$ and hence $f \circ \pi \in \text{Hom}_R(F(S), N)$. $\forall s \in S$, define $n_s := (f \circ \pi)(s) \in N$. By the surjectivity of φ , $\varphi(m_s) = n_s$ for some $m_s \in M$. By the universal property of free modules, $\exists!$ R -module homomorphism $F' : F(S) \rightarrow M$, s.t.: $F'(s) = m_s$, i.e. the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} & & F(S) \cong P \oplus K & & \\ & \swarrow \exists! F' & \downarrow \pi & & \\ & & P & & \\ & & \downarrow f & & \\ M & \xrightarrow{\varphi} & N & \longrightarrow & 0 \end{array}$$

namely, $\varphi \circ F' = f \circ \pi : F(S) \rightarrow N$. Now define a map $F : P \rightarrow M$ by

$$F(d) := F'((d, 0))$$

Since $F = (P \hookrightarrow F(S)) \circ F'$, then F is a homomorphism. Then $\forall d \in P$, we have

$$(\varphi \circ F)(d) = (\varphi \circ F')((d, 0)) = (f \circ \pi)((d, 0)) = f(d)$$

and hence $\varphi \circ F = f$. Therefore, the diagram

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} & & P & & \\ & \swarrow F & \downarrow f & & \\ M & \xrightarrow{\varphi} & N & \longrightarrow & 0 \end{array}$$

commutes.

□

Corollary 1.51. *of the Projective Modules-Conditions-Equivalent Proposition*

1. *Free modules are projective.*
2. *A finitely generated module is projective $\Leftrightarrow$ it is a direct summand of a finitely generated free module.*
3. *Every module is a quotient of a projective module.*

Example:

- If $R = F$ is a field, then every F -module is projective.
- $\mathbb{Z}$ is a projective $\mathbb{Z}$ -module.
- Free $\mathbb{Z}$ -modules have no nonzero elements of finite order, so no nonzero finite abelian groups can be isomorphic to a submodule of free $\mathbb{Z}$ -module. Hence, no nonzero finite abelian group is a projective $\mathbb{Z}$ -module. In particular, for $n \geq 2$, the $\mathbb{Z}$ -module $\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$ is *not* projective.
- Since $\mathbb{Q}/\mathbb{Z}$ is a torsion $\mathbb{Z}$ -module, then it is *not* a submodule of a free $\mathbb{Z}$ -module and hence it is *not* projective. Note also that the exact sequence $0 \rightarrow \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{Q} \xrightarrow{\pi} \mathbb{Q}/\mathbb{Z} \rightarrow 0$ does not split since $\mathbb{Q}$ contains no submodule isomorphic to $\mathbb{Q}/\mathbb{Z}$.
- The $\mathbb{Z}$ -module $\mathbb{Q}$ is *not* projective.
- The direct sum of two projective modules is again projective.
- Let $R = \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z} \times \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ and let P_1, P_2 be the principal ideals generated by $(1, 0)$ respectively $(0, 1)$. Then $R = P_1 \oplus P_2$ and hence P_1 and P_2 are projective R -modules.

1.6.2 Injective Modules ($\text{Hom}_R(\cdot, D)$)

Intuition: In the contrast, naturally, we consider the "dual" question of maps from L or N to D .

Theorem 1.52. *Associated $\text{Hom}_R(\cdot, D)$ Sequence Theorem*

Let D, L, M, N be R -modules. Given a short exact sequence

$$0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$$

the associated sequence

$$0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(N, D) \xrightarrow{\varphi'} \text{Hom}_R(M, D) \xrightarrow{\psi'} \text{Hom}_R(L, D) \quad (**)$$

where $\varphi'(f) := f \circ \varphi, \psi'(f) := f \circ \psi$. A homomorphism $f : L \rightarrow D$ lifts to a homomorphism $F : M \rightarrow D \Leftrightarrow f \in \text{im} \psi' \subseteq \text{Hom}_R(L, D)$. In general $\psi' : \text{Hom}_R(M, D) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(L, D)$ need not be surjective. Furthermore, ψ' is surjective $\Leftrightarrow$ every homomorphism from M to D , in which case the exact sequence $(**)$ can be extended to a short exact sequence.

Moreover, $(**)$ is exact for all R -modules $D \Leftrightarrow$ the sequence

$$L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0 \text{ is exact.}$$

Proof. Similarly as the proof of the Associated $\text{Hom}_R(D, \cdot)$ Sequence Theorem hence we omit this proof here. $\square$

Definition 1.53. Injective Modules

An R -module Q is called *injective* if it satisfies one of the following (equivalent) conditions (we will not prove the equivalence of these conditions here):

1. $\forall$ R -modules L, M, N , if $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$ is a short exact sequence, then so is

$$0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(N, Q) \xrightarrow{\varphi'} \text{Hom}_R(M, Q) \xrightarrow{\psi'} \text{Hom}_R(L, Q) \rightarrow 0$$

2. $\forall$ R -modules L, M , if $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M$ is exact, then every R -module homomorphism from L to Q lifts to an R -module homomorphism of M to Q , i.e.: given $f \in \text{Hom}_R(L, Q)$, $\exists$ a lift $F \in \text{Hom}_R(M, Q)$, s.t.: the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & L & \xrightarrow{\psi} & M \\ & & \downarrow f & \swarrow F & \\ & & Q & & \end{array}$$

3. If Q is a submodule of the R -module M , then Q is a direct summand of M , i.e.: every short exact sequence $0 \rightarrow Q \rightarrow M \rightarrow N \rightarrow 0$ splits.

Theorem 1.54. Baer's Criterion

The R -module Q is injective $\Leftrightarrow \forall$ ideal $I \triangleleft R$ of R , any R -module homomorphism $g : I \rightarrow Q$ can be extended to an R -module homomorphism $G : R \rightarrow Q$.

Proof. • The $(\Rightarrow)$ direction holds immediately by the second condition in the definition of injective module.

- Conversely, we want to prove the second condition. Suppose that $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M$ is exact and that $f : L \rightarrow Q$ is an R -module homomorphism. Consider the collection $\mathcal{S}$ of all pairs (f', L')

where $f' : L' \rightarrow Q$ are the lifts of f and L' is a submodule of M containing L . Then we define the partial order on $\mathcal{S}$ by

$$(f', L') \leq (f'', L'') \text{ if } L' \subseteq L'' \text{ and } f''|_{L'} = f'$$

Since $\mathcal{S} \neq \emptyset$, then by the Zorn's Lemma, there is a maximal element (F, M') in $\mathcal{S}$. It suffices to complete this proof by proving the following claim:

– **Claim:** $M = M'$.

– *Proof. of claim:* Suppose on the contrary that $M' \subsetneq M$, i.e.: there is an element $m \in M \setminus M'$, and then let $I = \{r \in R \mid rm \in M'\}$, which can be easily verified that I is an ideal of R . For applying the hypothesis, consider the map $g : I \rightarrow Q$ given by $g(x) := F(xm)$, an R -module homomorphism from I to Q . Then by hypothesis, $\exists$ a lift $G : R \rightarrow Q$ of g . Note that $M' + Rm$ is a submodule of M . Define a map $F' : M' + Rm \rightarrow Q$ by

$$F'(m' + rm) := F(m') + G(r)$$

Check: if $m'_1 + r_1m = m'_2 + r_2m$, then $(r_1 - r_2)m = m'_2 - m'_1$ which follows that

$$\begin{aligned} F'(m'_1 + r_1m) - F'(m'_2 + r_2m) &:= F(m'_1 - m'_2) + G(r_1 - r_2) = F(m'_1 - m'_2) + g(r_1 - r_2) \\ &:= F(m'_1 - m'_2) + F((r_1 - r_2)m) = 0 \end{aligned}$$

and hence F' is well-defined and it is then immediately an R -module homomorphism, extending f to $M' + Rm$. This contradicts the maximality of M' . $\square$

$\square$

Proposition 1.55. *Injective PID-Modules Proposition*

Let R be a PID and let Q be an R -module.

1. Q is injective $\Leftrightarrow rQ = Q \ \forall 0 \neq r \in R$. In particular, a $\mathbb{Z}$ -module is injective $\Leftrightarrow$ it is divisible.
2. Quotient modules of injective R -modules are again injective.

Proof. 1. $\forall$ nonzero ideal $I \triangleleft R$, PID, $I = (r)$ for some $0 \neq r \in R$. Then an R -module homomorphism $f : I \rightarrow Q$ is completely determined by $f(r) \in Q$. Since f can be extended to an R -module homomorphism $F : R \rightarrow Q \Leftrightarrow$ there is an element q' in Q with $F(1) = q'$ satisfying $q := f(r) = F(r) = rq'$, then the Baer's Criterion holds for $Q \Leftrightarrow rQ = Q$.

2. Since a quotient of Q with $rQ = Q \ \forall 0 \neq r \in R$ has the same property, then we're done. $\square$

Example:

- Since $\mathbb{Z}$ is *NOT* divisible, then $\mathbb{Z}$ is *NOT* an injective $\mathbb{Z}$ -module, which also follows from the fact that the exact sequence $0 \rightarrow \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{z \mapsto 2z} \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{z \mapsto z+2\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z} \rightarrow 0$ does *NOT* split.

- $\mathbb{Q}$ is an injective $\mathbb{Z}$ -module.
- $\mathbb{Q}/\mathbb{Z}$ is an injective $\mathbb{Z}$ -module.
- A direct sum of divisible $\mathbb{Z}$ -modules is again divisible and hence a direct sum of injective $\mathbb{Z}$ -modules is again injective. e.g.: $\mathbb{Q} \oplus \mathbb{Q}/\mathbb{Z}$ is injective.

Corollary 1.56. *of Injective PID-Modules Proposition*

Every $\mathbb{Z}$ -module is a submodule of an injective $\mathbb{Z}$ -module.

Proof. Let M be a $\mathbb{Z}$ -module, let A be any set of $\mathbb{Z}$ -module generators of M and let $F(A)$ be the free $\mathbb{Z}$ -module on the set A . Then by the universal property of free modules, $\exists$ a *surjective* $\mathbb{Z}$ -module homomorphism $\varphi : F(A) \rightarrow M$ and then we can identify $M = F(A)/\ker \varphi$. Let $\mathcal{Q}$ be a free $\mathbb{Q}$ -module on A . Then $\mathcal{Q} \cong$ a direct sum of a number of copies of $\mathbb{Q}$, so it is divisible and hence by the Injective PID-Modules Proposition, an injective $\mathbb{Z}$ -module containing $F(A)$. Since $\ker \varphi$ is a $\mathbb{Z}$ -module of $\mathcal{Q}$, then $\mathcal{Q}/\ker \varphi$ is injective, again by the Injective PID-Modules Proposition. Since $M = F(A)/\ker \varphi \subseteq \mathcal{Q}/\ker \varphi$, then we're done. $\square$

Remark: This corollary can be used to prove the following more general version valid for arbitrary R -modules:

Theorem 1.57. *Any R -module is contained in an injective R -module.*

1.6.3 Flat Modules ($D \otimes_R \cdot$)

Theorem 1.58. *Tensor-Exact Sequences Proposition*

Let D, M, N, L be R -modules. Given a short exact sequence $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$, the associated sequence of R -modules

$$D \otimes_R L \xrightarrow{id_D \otimes \psi} D \otimes_R M \xrightarrow{id_D \otimes \varphi} D \otimes_R N \rightarrow 0 \quad (***)$$

is exact. In general, the map $id_D \otimes \psi$ need NOT be surjective.

Moreover, $(***)$ is exact for all R -modules $D \Leftrightarrow$ the sequence

$$L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0 \text{ is exact.}$$

Proof. For the first statement, it remains to prove the exactness of $(***)$ at $D \otimes_R M$. By the exactness of $L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N$, $\varphi \circ \psi = 0$ and hence we have

$$(id_D \otimes \varphi)(\sum_i (d_i \otimes (\psi(l_i)))) := \sum_i (d_i \otimes ((\varphi \circ \psi)(l_i))) = 0$$

which follows that $\text{im}(id_D \otimes \psi) \subseteq \ker(id_D \otimes \varphi)$. In particular, there is a natural projection $\pi : (D \otimes_R M)/\text{im}(id_D \otimes \psi) \rightarrow (D \otimes_R M)/\ker(id_D \otimes \varphi) \cong D \otimes_R N$. It suffices to show that π is an isomorphism. To show this, we shall define an inverse of π . Consider $\pi' : D \times N \rightarrow (D \otimes_R M)/\text{im}(id_D \otimes \psi)$ given by $(d, n) \mapsto d \otimes m + \text{im}(id_D \otimes \psi)$ where $m \in M$ is such that $\varphi(m) = n$, which is well-defined by

$\ker \varphi = \text{im} \psi$. It's easy to verify that π' is bilinear and hence it induces an R -module homomorphism $\tilde{\pi} : D \otimes_R N \rightarrow (D \otimes_R M)/\text{im}(id_D \otimes \psi)$ with

$$\tilde{\pi}(d \otimes n) := d \otimes m + \text{im}(id_D \otimes \psi)$$

Then we find an inverse of π . □

Remark:

- If $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$ is split, then $(***)$ can be extended to a split short exact sequence $0 \rightarrow D \otimes_R L \xrightarrow{id_D \otimes \psi} D \otimes_R M \xrightarrow{id_D \otimes \varphi} D \otimes_R N \rightarrow 0$.
- This theorem gives rise to the following definition, where the conditions are equivalent, which can be directly obtained from this theorem:

Definition 1.59. Flat Modules

An R -module A is called *flat* if it satisfies the following (equivalent) conditions:

1. $\forall$ R -modules L, M, N , if

$$0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$$

is a short exact sequence, then

$$0 \rightarrow A \otimes_R L \xrightarrow{id_A \otimes \psi} A \otimes_R M \xrightarrow{id_A \otimes \varphi} A \otimes_R N \rightarrow 0$$

is also a short exact sequence.

2. $\forall$ R -modules L, M , if $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M$ is an exact sequence of R -modules, then $0 \rightarrow A \otimes_R L \xrightarrow{id_A \otimes \psi} A \otimes_R M$ is an exact sequence of abelian groups.

Proposition 1.60. *Important Example of Flat Modules Free modules are flat. More generally, projective modules are flat.*

Proof. • To show that a free module F is flat, it suffices to show that $\forall$ injective map $\psi : L \rightarrow M$ of R -modules, the induced map $id_F \otimes \psi : F \otimes_R L \rightarrow F \otimes_R M$ is also injective, i.e.: condition 2 holds for F .

Suppose first that $F \cong R^n$ is a finitely generated free R -module. Then $F \otimes_R L \cong R^n \otimes_R L \cong L^n$ and similarly $F \otimes_R M \cong M^n$. Hence, ψ induces a natural injective map $: L^n \rightarrow M^n$.

Suppose now that F is an arbitrary free module and that the element $\sum(f_i \otimes l_i) \in \ker(id_F \otimes \psi) \subseteq F \otimes_R L$. This means that $\sum(f_i, \psi(l_i))$ can be written as a sum of generators in the free group on $F \times M$, namely as in the proof of existence of tensor product. Since this sum of elements is finite, then f_i 's all lie in some finitely generated submodule F' of F , which reduces to the finitely generated case.

- Let P be a projective module. Then by the fourth condition in the definition of projective module, P is a direct summand of a free module F , asy $F = P \oplus P'$. As in the above, we'll prove the second condition in the definition of flat modules, so we pick $\psi : L \rightarrow M$ to be

injective. We've shown that $id_F \otimes \psi : F \otimes_R L \rightarrow F \otimes_R M$ is also injective. Since $F = P \oplus P'$, then by the Tensor Product of Modules-Properties Proposition,

$$id_{P \oplus P'} \otimes \psi : (P \otimes_R L) \oplus (P' \otimes_R L) \cong (P \oplus P') \otimes_R L \rightarrow (P \oplus P') \otimes_R M \cong (P \otimes_R M) \oplus (P' \otimes_R M)$$

is injective. Hence, $id_P \otimes \psi : P \otimes_R L \rightarrow P \otimes_R M$ is injective. $\square$

Example:

- $\mathbb{Z}$ is projective $\mathbb{Z}$ -module $\Rightarrow$ it is a flat $\mathbb{Z}$ -module.
- Note that the injection $\mathbb{Z} \hookrightarrow \mathbb{Q}$ of $\mathbb{Z}$ -modules induces the zero map from $\mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z} \cong \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ to $\mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Q} = 0$. Hence, $\mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ is *NOT* a flat $\mathbb{Z}$ -module.
- $\mathbb{Q}$ is a flat $\mathbb{Z}$ -module: Let $\psi : L \rightarrow M$ be an injective map of $\mathbb{Z}$ -modules. Then every element in $\mathbb{Q} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} L$ can be written in the form

$$\left(\frac{1}{d}\right) \otimes l \text{ for some } d \in \mathbb{Z} \setminus \{0\}, l \in L$$

If $(\frac{1}{d}) \otimes l \in \ker(id_{\mathbb{Q}} \otimes \psi)$, then $(\frac{1}{d}) \otimes \psi(l) = 0 \in \mathbb{Q} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} M$. Hence, $\psi(c \cdot l) = c\psi(l) = 0 \in M$ for some $c \in \mathbb{Z} \setminus \{0\}$. Then by the injectivity of ψ , $c \cdot l = 0 \in L$. Therefore, $(\frac{1}{d}) \otimes l = (\frac{1}{cd}) \otimes (cl) = 0 \in \mathbb{Q} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} L$, i.e.: $id_{\mathbb{Q}} \otimes \psi$ is injective.

- The $\mathbb{Z}$ -module $\mathbb{Q}/\mathbb{Z}$ is injective but *NOT* flat: Consider the injective map $\psi : \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{Z}$ given by $z \mapsto 2z$. Since

$$(id_{\mathbb{Q}/\mathbb{Z}} \otimes \psi)((\frac{1}{2} + \mathbb{Z}) \otimes 1) = (\frac{1}{2} + \mathbb{Z}) \otimes 2 = (1 + \mathbb{Z}) \otimes 1 = 0_{\mathbb{Q}/\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}}$$

and since $(\frac{1}{2} + \mathbb{Z}) \otimes 1 \neq 0_{\mathbb{Q}/\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}}$, then $id_{\mathbb{Q}/\mathbb{Z}} \otimes \psi$ is *NOT* injective.

- The direct sum of flat modules are flat.

Definition 1.61. Torsion-Free Modules

An R -module M is *torsion-free* if $rm \neq 0$ whenever r is not a zerodivisor in R and $m \neq 0$.

Proposition 1.62. Flat Modules-are-Torsion Free Proposition

Every flat R -module F is torsion-free.

Proof. Suppose on the contrary that $\exists r_0 \in R$ not a zerodivisor and $\exists m_0 \neq 0$, s.t.: $r_0 m_0 = 0$. Consider $f : R \rightarrow R$ given by $f(r) := r_0 r$. Since r_0 is not a zerodivisor, then $\ker f = \{0\}$ and hence f is injective. The following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} F \otimes_R R & \xrightarrow{id_F \otimes f} & F \otimes_R R \\ \downarrow \pi & & \downarrow \pi \\ F & \xrightarrow{m \mapsto r_0 m} & F \end{array}$$

By the flat-ness of F , $id_F \otimes f$ is injective and hence so is the map $m \mapsto r_0 m$, contradicting to $0 \neq m_0 \in \ker(m \mapsto r_0 m)$. $\square$

Theorem 1.63. *Adjoint Associativity*

Let R, S be rings, let A, C be R -modules and let B be a module over both R and S . Then $\exists$ an isomorphism between

$$\text{Hom}_S(A \otimes_R B, C) \cong \text{Hom}_R(A, \text{Hom}_S(B, C))$$

Proof. Let $\varphi \in \text{Hom}_S(A \otimes_R B, C)$. For any $a \in A$, we define a homomorphism $\Phi(a) : B \rightarrow C$ by $\Phi(a)(b) := \varphi(a \otimes b)$. So the map $f : \varphi \rightarrow \Phi$ gives a homomorphism from $\text{Hom}_S(A \otimes_R B, C)$ to $\text{Hom}_R(A, \text{Hom}_S(B, C))$. Conversely, let $\Phi \in \text{Hom}_R(A, \text{Hom}_S(B, C))$. Since the map from $A \times B$ to C given by $(a, b) \mapsto \Phi(a)(b)$ is bilinear, then by the universal property of tensor products, it induces a homomorphism $\varphi : A \otimes_R B \rightarrow C$. So the map $g : \Phi \mapsto \varphi$ gives a homomorphism from $\text{Hom}_R(A, \text{Hom}_S(B, C))$ to $\text{Hom}_S(A \otimes_R B, C)$, which can easily be verified to be an inverse of f . $\square$

Chapter 2

Algebraic Geometry

2.1 Chain Conditions

2.1.1 Noetherian Rings

Definition 2.1. Noetherian Rings

A ring R is called *Noetherian* if it satisfies the *ascending chain condition (ACC) on ideals*, i.e.: there is no infinite strictly increasing chain of ideals in R , namely, every increasing chain of ideals in R

$$I_1 \subseteq I_2 \subseteq I_3 \subseteq \cdots$$

must stop somewhere ($I_n = I_{n+1} = I_{n+2} = \cdots$ for some n).

Proposition 2.2. *Quotient-Noetherian Proposition*

If I is an ideal of the Noetherian ring R , then the quotient ring R/I is a Noetherian ring. In particular, any homomorphic image of a Noetherian ring is Noetherian.

Proof. Omitted. □

Theorem 2.3. *Equivalent-Conditions-of-Noetherian Rings Proposition*

The followings are equivalent:

1. R is a Noetherian ring.
2. Every nonempty set of ideals of R contains a maximal element under inclusion.
3. Every ideal of R is finitely generated.

Proof. • $(1 \Rightarrow 2)$: Suppose on the contrary that there is a nonempty set of ideals of R Σ which has no maximal elements. For any $I_1 \in \Sigma$, since Σ has no maximal elements, then there exists an $I_2 \in \Sigma$, s.t.: $I_1 \subsetneq I_2$. Similarly, repeating this procedure, we can construct an infinite increasing chain of ideals in R , say $I_1 \subsetneq I_2 \subsetneq \cdots$, contradicting 1.

- (2 $\Rightarrow$ 3): Given any $I \triangleleft R$, consider the set Σ of all finitely generated ideals, that is contained in I , i.e.:

$$\Sigma := \{J \subseteq I \mid J \text{ is a finitely generated ideal}\}$$

Since $(0) \in \Sigma$, then Σ is nonempty and hence by 2, $\exists M \in \Sigma$, s.t.: M is a maximal element of Σ . By the definition of Σ , let $M = (m_1, \dots, m_k) \subseteq I$. It suffices to prove the following claim:

- **Claim:** $M = I$.
- *Proof. of claim:* Suppose on the contrary that $M \subsetneq I$ and hence we can pick an element $x \in I \setminus M$. Then

$$M' := (m_1, \dots, m_k, x) \subseteq I$$

is immediately contained in M , contradicting the maximality of M . $\square$

- (3 $\Rightarrow$ 1): Given any increasing chain of ideals $I_1 \subseteq I_2 \subseteq \dots$, consider $I := \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} I_n$, which is an ideal of R . Hence by 3, $I = (i_1, \dots, i_m)$ is finitely generated. By the definition of I , $\forall j \in \{1, \dots, m\}$, $i_j \in I_{n_j}$ for some $n_j \in \mathbb{N}_+$. Take $N := \max\{n_1, \dots, n_m\}$. Then $I_N = I_n$ $\forall n \geq N$. $\square$

Example:

- By the third condition in the Equivalent-Conditions-of-Noetherian Rings Prop, every PID is Noetherian. In particular, $\mathbb{Z}, F[x]$ (where F is a field), $\mathbb{Z}[i]$ are Noetherian.
- $\mathbb{Z}[x_1, x_2, \dots]$ is *NOT* Noetherian since the ideal $(x_1, x_2, \dots)$ can *NOT* be generated by any finite set.
- $\mathcal{C}([0, 1]) :=$ continuous real valued functions on $[0, 1]$ is *NOT* Noetherian.

Remark: In $\mathbb{Z}$, $(2) \supseteq (4) \supseteq (8) \supseteq \dots$ is an infinite decreasing chain. Hence, a Noetherian ring need *NOT* satisfy the *descending chain condition (DCC) on ideals*. However, we shall see that a ring satisfying DCC on ideals necessarily satisfies ACC on the ideals, i.e.: is Noetherian, which are called *Artinian* and are studied in the later sections.

Theorem 2.4. Hilbert's Basis Theorem

If R is a Noetherian ring, then so is the polynomial ring $R[x]$.

Proof. Given an ideal $I \triangleleft R[x]$ in $R[x]$, $\forall n \in \mathbb{N} \cup \{0\}$, consider

$$L_n := \{a \in R \mid \exists f(x) \in I, \text{ s.t.: } f(x) = ax^n + \text{lower-order terms}\} \cup \{0\}$$

which is an ideal in R . Then by the Noetherian-ness of R , $\exists N \in \mathbb{N} \cup \{0\}$, s.t.: $L_N = L_n, \forall n \geq N$. By the Equivalent-Conditions-Noetherian Prop.3, L_n 's are finitely generated, i.e.: $\forall 0 \leq n \leq N$, $L_n = (a_{n,1}, \dots, a_{n,m_n})$. Then by the definition of L_n , $\forall a_{n,j} \in L_n$, $\exists$ a polynomial with leading

coefficient $a_{n,j}$ and of order n . We denote this polynomial as $f_{n,j}(x)$. Now consider an ideal of $R[x]$

$$J := (\{f_{n,j}(x) \mid 0 \leq n \leq N, 1 \leq j \leq m_n\})$$

i.e.: $J \triangleleft R[x]$ is an ideal of $R[x]$ generated by the set $\{f_{n,j}(x) \mid 0 \leq n \leq N, 1 \leq j \leq m_n\}$. Since each $f_{n,j}(x)$ is in I , then we have $J \subseteq I$. It suffices to show that $I \subseteq J$. $\forall g \in I$, we do induction on $\deg(g)$.

- **Basic Case:** $\deg(g) = 0 \Rightarrow g(x) = 0 \in J$.
- **Inductive Step:** Suppose that all polynomials in I of order $\leq d-1$ are in J . For $\deg(g) = d$, let $g(x) = bx^d + b_{d-1}x^{d-1} + \cdots + b_1x + b_0$. By the definition of L_d , $b \in L_d$.
 - If $d \leq N$, then $b \in (a_{d,1}, \dots, a_{d,m_d})$ and hence $b = r_1a_{d,1} + \cdots + r_{m_d}a_{d,m_d}$ for some $r_j \in R$. Consider the polynomial

$$h(x) := r_1f_{d,1} + \cdots + r_{m_d}f_{d,m_d}(x) \in J$$

with leading coefficient $\sum_{j=1}^{m_d} r_j a_{d,j} = b$ and of order d . Hence, $g(x) - h(x)$ is of order $d-1$. Therefore, $g(x) - h(x) \in J \Rightarrow g(x) \in J$.

- If $d > N$, then $L_d = L_N = (a_{N,1}, \dots, a_{N,m_N})$ and hence $b = r_1a_{N,1} + \cdots + r_{m_N}a_{N,m_N}$ for some $r_j \in R$. Consider the polynomial

$$h(x) := (r_1f_{N,1}(x) + \cdots + r_{m_N}f_{N,m_N}(x)) \cdot x^{d-N} \in J$$

with leading coefficient $\sum_{j=1}^{m_N} r_j a_{N,j} = b$ and of order d . Then apply the same argument in case $d \leq N$ and then we're done.

□

Corollary 2.5. *1 of Hilbert's Basis Theorem*

If R is a Noetherian ring, then so is $R[x_1, \dots, x_n]$.

Definition 2.6. Let F be a field.

- Recall that a ring R is a F -algebra if $\exists$ a homomorphism $\varphi : F \rightarrow R$, s.t.: $\varphi(F) \subseteq Z(R)$. We identify F into R .
- The ring R is a *finitely generated F -algebra* if R is generated as a ring by F together with finitely many elements of R .
- Let R, S be F -algebras. A map $\psi : R \rightarrow S$ is a *F -algebra homomorphism* if ψ is a (ring) homomorphism and $\psi|_F = \text{identity map}$.

Corollary 2.7. *2 of Hilbert's Basis Theorem*

The ring R is a finitely generated F -algebra $\Leftrightarrow$ there is some surjective F -algebra homomorphism $\varphi : F[x_1, \dots, x_n] \rightarrow R$. Any finitely generated F -algebra is therefore Noetherian.

Proof.

- $(\Rightarrow)$: Let R be generated by $r_1, \dots, r_n$. Define $\varphi : F[x_1, \dots, x_n] \rightarrow R$ by $x_i \mapsto r_i$ and $\varphi(a) = a, \forall a \in F$.
- $(\Leftarrow)$: $\varphi(x_i)$ generates R .
- Since: field $\Rightarrow$ PID $\Rightarrow$ Noetherian, then by the corollary 1 of Hilbert's Basis Theorem, $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ is Noetherian and hence by the Quotient-Noetherian Proposition, so is R .

□

2.1.2 Artinian Rings

Definition 2.8. Artinian Rings

A ring R is called *Artinian* if it satisfies the DCC on ideals, i.e.: there is no infinite strictly decreasing chain of ideals in R , namely, every decreasing chain of ideals in R

$$I_1 \supseteq I_2 \supseteq I_3 \supseteq \dots$$

must stop somewhere ($I_n = I_{n+1} = I_{n+2} = \dots$ for some n).

Proposition 2.9. Equivalent-Conditions-of-Artinian Rings Proposition

The followings are equivalent:

1. R is an Artinian ring.
2. Every nonempty set of ideals in R contains a minimal element under inclusion.

Proof. Similarly as the Equivalent-Conditions-of-Noetherian Rings Prop. □

Definition 2.10. (Krull) Dimension

For any commutative ring R , the *(Krull) dimension* of R is the maximum possible length n of a chain $P_0 \subseteq P_1 \subseteq P_2 \subseteq \dots \subseteq P_n$ of distinct prime ideals on R . The *dimension* of R is said to be *infinite* if R has arbitrary long chains of distinct prime ideals.

Remark:

- A ring with finite dimension must satisfy both ACC and DCC on *prime ideals* (not necessarily on all ideals).
- A field has dimension 0 and a PID that is not a field has dimension 1.

Definition 2.11. Radicals

Let $I \triangleleft R$ be an ideal in a commutative ring R .

- The *radical* of I , denoted by $\text{rad}I$, is the collection of elements in R some power of which lie in I , i.e.:

$$\text{rad}I := \{r \in R \mid r^k \in I \text{ for some } k \in \mathbb{N}_+\}$$

- The radical of the zero ideal is called the *nilradical* of I .

- An ideal I is called a *radical ideal* if $I = \text{rad}I$.

Definition 2.12. Jacobson Radical

The *Jacobson radical* of R is the intersection of all maximal ideals of R , denoted by $\text{Jac}R$.

Proposition 2.13. *Jacobson Radical Proposition*

Let R be a commutative ring.

1. If I is a proper ideal of R , so is $(I, \text{Jac}R)$, the ideal generated by I and $\text{Jac}R$.
2. The Jacobson radical contains the nilradical of R , i.e.:

$$\text{rad}0 \subseteq \text{Jac}R$$

3. $x \in \text{Jac}R \Leftrightarrow 1 - rx \in U(R), \forall r \in R$.

Proof. 1. I proper $\Leftrightarrow I \subseteq M$ for some maximal ideal M . Then by the def of $\text{Jac}R$, $\text{Jac}R \subseteq M$.

Hence, $(I, \text{Jac}R) \subseteq M$.

2. • $(\Rightarrow)$: Suppose on the contrary that $\exists r \in R$, s.t.: $1 - rx \notin U(R)$. Let M be a maximal ideal containing $1 - rx$. Since $1 \notin M$, then $rx \notin M$ and hence $x \notin \text{Jac}R \subseteq M$, contradiction.
- $(\Leftarrow)$: Suppose on the contrary that $x \notin J$, i.e.: $x \notin M$ for some maximal ideal M . Then $R = (x, M)$. Hence, $1 = rx + y$ for some $y \in M$. Therefore, $1 - rx = y \in M \Rightarrow 1 - rx \notin U(R)$, contradiction.

□

Theorem 2.14. *Nakayama's Lemma*

Let R be a commutative ring. If M is any finitely generated R -module and $(\text{Jac}R)M = M$, then $M = 0$.

Proof. Suppose on the contrary that $M \neq 0$. Let n be the smallest integer such that M is generated by n elements, say $m_1, \dots, m_n$. Since $M = (\text{Jac}R)M$, then $m_n = r_1 m_1 + \dots + r_n m_n$ for some $r_j \in \text{Jac}R$. Hence, $(1 - r_n)m_n = r_1 m_1 + \dots + r_{n-1} m_{n-1}$. By the Jacobson Radical Proposition.3, $1 - r_n \in U(R) \Rightarrow m_n \in (m_1, \dots, m_{n-1})$, contradicting the minimality of n . □

Theorem 2.15. *Artinian Rings-Properties Theorem*

Let R be an Artinian ring.

1. There're only finitely many maximal ideals in R .
2. The quotient $R/\text{Jac}R$ is a direct product of a finite number of fields. More precisely, if $M_1, \dots, M_n$ are the finitely many maximal ideals in R , then

$$R/\text{Jac}R \cong R/M_1 \times \dots \times R/M_n$$

3. Every prime ideal of R is maximal, i.e.: R has (Krull) dimension 0. The Jacobson radical of R equals the nilradical of R and is a nilpotent ideal $(\text{Jac}R)^m = 0$ for some $m \in \mathbb{N}_+$.
4. The ring R is isomorphic to the direct product of a finite number of Artinian local rings(, where "local ring" means the ring with unique maximal ideal).
5. Every Artinian ring is Noetherian.

Proof. 1. Let $\mathcal{S}$ be the set of all ideals of R that are the intersection of a finite number of maximal ideals. By the Equivalent-Conditions-of-Artinian Rings Prop, $\mathcal{S}$ has a minimal element, say $M_1 \cap \cdots \cap M_n$, which means that $\forall M$ maximal ideal in R , we have

$$M \cap M_1 \cap \cdots \cap M_n = M_1 \cap \cdots \cap M_n$$

Hence, $M_1 \cap \cdots \cap M_n \subseteq M$. Then $M_i \subseteq M$ for some i (which can easily be proved and we omit the details here). Since M_i and M are both maximal, then $M = M_i$ and thus $M_1, \dots, M_n$ are *all* the maximal ideals of R .

2. holds immediately by the Chinese Remainder Theorem.
3. We first prove that $\text{Jac}R$ is nilpotent. By DCC, there is some $m \in \mathbb{N}_+$, s.t.: $(\text{Jac}R)^m = (\text{Jac}R)^{m+i}$ for all $i \in \mathbb{N}$. Suppose on the contrary that $(\text{Jac}R)^m \neq 0, \forall m \in \mathbb{N}_+$. Consider the set $\mathcal{S}$ of proper ideals I such that $I(\text{Jac}R)^m \neq 0$. Hence, $\text{Jac}R \in \mathcal{S}$. By the Equivalent-Conditions-of-Artinian Proposition, $\exists I_0 \in \mathcal{S}$, s.t.: I_0 is the minimal element of $\mathcal{S}$. Then there must be an element $x \in I_0$, s.t.: $x(\text{Jac}R)^m \neq 0$. Note that by the minimality of I_0 , $I_0 = (x)$. But

$$((x)\text{Jac}R)(\text{Jac}R)^m = x(\text{Jac}R)^{m+1} = x(\text{Jac}R)^m \neq 0$$

which means that $(x)\text{Jac}R \in \mathcal{S} \Rightarrow (x)\text{Jac}R \subseteq (x)R = (x) \stackrel{\text{min. of } I_0}{\subseteq} (x)\text{Jac}R \Rightarrow (x) = (x)\text{Jac}R$. Therefore, by the Nakayama's Lemma, $(x) = 0 \Rightarrow x = 0$, contradicting $x(\text{Jac}R)^m \neq 0$, which follows that $\text{Jac}R$ is nilpotent, and hence $\text{Jac}R \subseteq \text{rad}0$. Then by the Jacobson Radical Prop.2, these two ideals are equal.

Now we prove the first statement. Given any prime ideal P in R , note that

$$\text{Jac}R = \text{rad}0 = \text{Nil}R = \bigcap_{I \triangleleft R, \text{ prime}} I \subseteq P$$

Hence, the image of P in $R/\text{Jac}R \stackrel{2}{\cong} R/M_1 \times \cdots \times R/M_n$ consists of the elements that are 0 in one of the components. In particular, such a prime ideal also maximal ideal in $R/M_1 \times \cdots \times R/M_n$, which follows that P is a maximal ideal in R

4. Let $M_1, \dots, M_n$ be all the distinct maximal ideals of R and let $(\text{Jac}R)^m = 0$ as in 3. Since

$$M_1^m \times \cdots \times M_n^m \subseteq (M_1 \times \cdots \times M_n)^m \subseteq (\text{Jac}R)^m = 0$$

then $M_1^m \times \cdots \times M_n^m = 0$. Then by the Chinese Remainder Theorem,

$$R \cong R/M_1^m \times \cdots \times R/M_n^m$$

and each R/M_i^m is an Artinian ring with unique maximal ideal M_i/M_i^m .

5. It suffices by 4 to show that an Artinian local ring is Noetherian. Let S be an Artinian ring with unique maximal ideal M . In this case, we have $M = \text{Jac}R$. Hence, by 3, $M^m = (\text{Jac}R)^m = 0$ for some $m \in \mathbb{N}_+$. Therefore, $R \cong R/M^m$, which is Noetherian $\Leftrightarrow$ Artinian. $\square$

Corollary 2.16. *of Artinian Rings-Properties Theorem*

The ring R is Artinian $\Leftrightarrow R$ is Noetherian and has (Krull) dimension 0.

Proof. • holds immediately by the Artinian Rings-Properties Theorem.

- Omitted. $\square$

Example:

- Let $n > 1$ be an integer. Since $R = \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$ is finite, then it is Artinian. Let $n = p_1^{a_1} \cdots p_s^{a_s}$ be the unique factorization of n into distinct prime powers. Then

$$\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z} \cong \mathbb{Z}/p_1^{a_1}\mathbb{Z} \times \cdots \times \mathbb{Z}/p_s^{a_s}\mathbb{Z}$$

Since $\mathbb{Z}/p_i^{a_i}\mathbb{Z}$ is an Artinian local ring with unique maximal ideal $(p_i)/(p_i^{a_i})$, then this is the decomposition of $\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$ given by the Artinian Rings-Properties Theorem.4. The Jacobson radical of R is the ideal generated by $p_1 \cdots p_s$ and $R/\text{Jac}R \cong \mathbb{Z}/p_1\mathbb{Z} \times \cdots \times \mathbb{Z}/p_s\mathbb{Z}$.

- For any field F , a F -algebra R that is finite dimensional as a vector space over F is Artinian since ideals in R are in particular F -subspaces of R . Hence, the length of any chain of ideals in R is bounded by $\dim_F R$.

2.1.3 Noetherian and Artinian Modules

Definition 2.17. Noetherian Modules

An R -module M is *Noetherian* if every ascending chain of submodules $M_0 \subseteq M_1 \subseteq M_2 \subseteq \cdots$ stabilizes. That is, for some k , $M_{k+j} = M_k, \forall j \in \mathbb{N}$.

Proposition 2.18. *Equivalent-Conditions-of-Noetherian Modules Proposition*

An R -module M is Noetherian $\Leftrightarrow$ every nonempty set Σ of submodules of M has a maximal element $\Leftrightarrow$ every submodule of M is finitely generated.

Proof. Similarly as the Equivalent-Conditions-of-Noetherian Rings Prop. $\square$

Definition 2.19. Artinian Modules

An R -module M is *Artinian* if every descending chain of submodules $M_0 \supseteq M_1 \supseteq M_2 \supseteq \cdots$ inside M stabilizes.

Proposition 2.20. *Equivalent-Conditions-of-Artinian Modules Proposition*

An R -module M is Artinian $\Leftrightarrow$ every nonempty set Σ of submodules of M has a minimal element.

Proof. Similarly as the Equivalent-Conditions-of-Noetherian Rings Prop. □

Remark: A ring R is Noetherian (or Artinian) if R is a Noetherian (respectively Artinian) as an R -module.

2.2 Affine Algebraic Sets

Definition 2.21. Affine Spaces

Let F be a field. The set $\mathbb{A}^n$ of n -tuples of elements of F is called *affine n -space over F* .

Remark: If the variables $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$ are independent over F , then every polynomial f in $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ can be viewed as F -valued functions $f : \mathbb{A}^n \rightarrow F$ on $\mathbb{A}^n$ by evaluating f at the points in $\mathbb{A}^n$:

$$f : (a_1, \dots, a_n) \mapsto f(a_1, \dots, a_n) \in F$$

This gives the following definition:

Definition 2.22. Coordinate Rings of Affine Spaces

Let $\mathbb{A}^n$ be an affine n -space over F . We define the *coordinate ring of $\mathbb{A}^n$* by

$$F[\mathbb{A}^n] := \text{the ring of } F\text{-valued functions on } \mathbb{A}^n$$

Remark: It's easy to show that $F[\mathbb{A}^n]$ has ring structure together with the usual addition and multiplication.

Example: $F = \mathbb{R}, n = 2$. The coordinate ring of Euclidean 2-space $\mathbb{R}^2$, denoted as $\mathbb{R}[\mathbb{A}^2]$, is the ring of polynomials in two variables, say x and y , acting as real valued functions on $\mathbb{R}^2$ (the usual "coordinate functions").

Definition 2.23. Affine Algebraic Sets

Let $\mathbb{A}^n$ be an affine n -space over F .

- Let S be any non-empty subset of $F[\mathbb{A}^n]$. We define by $\mathcal{Z}(S)$ the set of points where all functions in S are simultaneously zero, namely

$$\mathcal{Z}(S) := \{(a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathbb{A}^n \mid f(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 0, \forall f \in S\}$$

Conventionally, we write $\mathcal{Z}(\emptyset) := \mathbb{A}^n$.

- A subset V of $\mathbb{A}^n$ is called an *affine algebraic set* if V is the set of common zeros of some set S of polynomials, i.e.: if $V = \mathcal{Z}(S)$ for some $S \subseteq F[\mathbb{A}^n]$. In this case, $V = \mathcal{Z}(S)$ is called the *locus* of S in $\mathbb{A}^n$.

Remark:

- If $S = \{f\}$ or $\{f_1, \dots, f_m\}$, then we shall simply write $\mathcal{Z}(f)$ or $\mathcal{Z}(f_1, \dots, f_m)$ and call it the locus of f or $f_1, \dots, f_m$, respectively.
- Note that the locus of a single polynomial of the form $f - g$ is the same as the solutions in affine n -space of the equation $f = g$. Hence, affine algebraic sets are the solutions to systems of polynomial equations.

Example:

- If $n = 1$, then the locus of a single polynomial $f \in F[x]$ is the set of roots of f in F . Precisely, the affine algebraic sets in $\mathbb{A}^1$ are $\emptyset$, any finite set and F .
- The one point subsets of $\mathbb{A}^n$ for any n are affine algebraic since

$$\mathcal{Z}(x_1 - a_1, \dots, x_n - a_n) = \{(a_1, \dots, a_n)\}$$

More generally, any finite subset of $\mathbb{A}^n$ is an affine algebraic set.

- One may define lines, planes, etc. in $\mathbb{A}^n$, which are *linear algebraic sets*, the loci of sets of linear (degree 1) polynomials of $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$. For example, a line in $\mathbb{A}^2$ is defined by $ax + by = c$ which is the locus of the polynomial $f(x, y) = ax + by - c \in F[x, y]$. In particular, the coordinate axes, coordinate plane, etc. in $\mathbb{A}^n$ are affine algebraic sets.
- In general, the affine algebraic set $\mathcal{Z}(f)$ of a nonconstant polynomial f is called a *hypersurface* in $\mathbb{A}^n$.

Proposition 2.24. Affine Algebraic Sets-Properties Proposition

Let S, T be subsets of $F[\mathbb{A}^n]$.

1. If $S \subseteq T$, then $\mathcal{Z}(T) \subseteq \mathcal{Z}(S)$.
2. $\mathcal{Z}(S) = \mathcal{Z}(I)$ where $I = (S)$ denotes the ideal in $F[\mathbb{A}^n]$ generated by S .
3. The intersection of two affine algebraic sets is again an affine algebraic set. In particular, $\mathcal{Z}(S) \cap \mathcal{Z}(T) = \mathcal{Z}(S \cup T)$. More generally, an arbitrary intersection of affine algebraic sets is an affine algebraic set: if $\{S_j \mid j \in J\}$ is any collection of subsets of $F[\mathbb{A}^n]$, then

$$\bigcap_{j \in J} \mathcal{Z}(S_j) = \mathcal{Z}\left(\bigcup_{j \in J} S_j\right)$$

4. The union of two affine algebraic sets is again an affine algebraic set. In particular, $\mathcal{Z}(I) \cup \mathcal{Z}(J) = \mathcal{Z}(IJ)$, where I, J are ideals and IJ is their product.
5. $\mathcal{Z}(0) = \mathbb{A}^n$ and $\mathcal{Z}(1) = \emptyset$ where 0 and 1 denote constant functions.

Proof. 1. holds directly by the particular part in 3.

2. Since $S \subseteq (S) = I$, then by 1, we have $\mathcal{Z}(I) \subseteq \mathcal{Z}(S)$. Conversely, for any $(a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathcal{Z}(S)$, by def, $f(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 0, \forall f \in S$. Hence, for any finite sum of elements in S , it vanishes at $(a_1, \dots, a_n)$, which follows that $f(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 0, \forall f \in I \Rightarrow (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathcal{Z}(I)$.

3. It suffices to prove the general part:

$$\begin{aligned} (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \bigcap_{j \in J} \mathcal{Z}(S_j) &\Leftrightarrow f(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 0, \forall f \in S_j, \forall j \in J \\ &\Leftrightarrow f(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 0, \forall f \in \bigcup_{j \in J} S_j \\ &\Leftrightarrow (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathcal{Z}\left(\bigcup_{j \in J} S_j\right) \end{aligned}$$

4. By 2, it suffices to prove the particular part:

$$\begin{aligned} (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathcal{Z}(I) \cup \mathcal{Z}(J) &\Leftrightarrow (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathcal{Z}(I) \text{ or } (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathcal{Z}(J) \\ &\Leftrightarrow f(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 0, \forall f \in I \text{ or } g(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 0, \forall g \in J \\ &\Leftrightarrow fg(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 0, \forall fg \in IJ \\ &\Leftrightarrow (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathcal{Z}(IJ) \end{aligned}$$

5. Obvious. □

Proposition 2.25. *Geometric Property-in-Affine Spaces Proposition*

Every affine algebraic set is the intersection of a finite number of hypersurfaces in $\mathbb{A}^n$, namely, $\forall$ subset $S \subseteq \mathbb{A}^n$, $\exists f_1, \dots, f_q \in F[\mathbb{A}^n]$, s.t.:

$$\mathcal{Z}(S) = \mathcal{Z}(f_1) \cap \dots \cap \mathcal{Z}(f_q)$$

Proof. Since by corollary 1 of Hilbert Basis Theorem, $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ is a Noetherian ring, then by the Equivalent-Conditions-of-Noetherian Rings Prop.3, every ideal I in $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ is finitely generated, say $I = (f_1, \dots, f_q)$. Then by the Affine Algebraic Sets-Properties Prop.2, we're done. □

Remark:

- By 2, every affine algebraic set is the affine algebraic set corresponding to an *ideal* of the coordinate ring. Hence, we may consider $\mathcal{Z}(\cdot)$ as a map, namely

$$\mathcal{Z} : \{\text{ideals of } F[\mathbb{A}^n]\} \rightarrow \{\text{affine algebraic sets in } \mathbb{A}^n\}$$

- If V is an affine algebraic set in affine n -space, then there may be many ideals I such that

$V = \mathcal{Z}(I)$. For example, in affine 2-space over $\mathbb{R}$, the y -axis is the locus of the ideals (x) of $\mathbb{R}[x, y]$ and also the locus of $(x^2), (x^3)$, etc. More generally, the zeros of any polynomial are the same as the zeros of all its positive powers and hence $\mathcal{Z}(I) = \mathcal{Z}(I^k), \forall k \in \mathbb{N}_+$.

While the ideal where locus determines a particular affine algebraic set V is not unique, there is a unique largest ideal that determines V , given by the set of all polynomials that vanishes on V .

Definition 2.26. Let $A \subseteq \mathbb{A}^n$ be an arbitrary subset of $\mathbb{A}^n$. Define

$$\mathcal{I}(A) := \{f \in F[x_1, \dots, x_n] \mid f(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 0, \forall (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in A\}$$

which is an ideal and is the unique largest ideal of functions that are identically zero in A .

Remark: This defines a correspondence

$$\mathcal{I} : \{\text{subsets in } \mathbb{A}^n\} \rightarrow \{\text{ideals of } F[\mathbb{A}^n]\}$$

Example:

- In the Euclidean plane, $\mathcal{I}(\text{the } x\text{-axis})$ is the ideal generated by y in the coordinate ring $\mathbb{R}[x, y]$.
- Over any field F , the ideal of functions vanishing at $(a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathbb{A}^n$ is a maximal ideal, since it is the kernel of the surjective ring homomorphism from $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ to the field F given by evaluation at $(a_1, \dots, a_n)$. It follows that

$$\mathcal{I}((a_1, \dots, a_n)) := (x_1 - a_1, \dots, x_n - a_n)$$

- Let $V = \mathcal{Z}(x^3 - y^2)$ in $\mathbb{A}^2$. If $(a, b) \in V$, then $a^3 = b^2$. If $a \neq 0$, then $b \neq 0$ and we can write $a = (b/a)^2, b = (b/a)^3$. Hence,

$$V = \{(a^3, a^2) \mid a \in F\}$$

For any polynomial $f(x, y) \in F[x, y]$, we can write $f(x, y) = f_0(x) + f_1(x)y + (x^3 - y^2)g(x, y)$. For $f(x, y) \in \mathcal{I}(V)$, i.e.: $f(a^2, a^3) = 0, \forall a \in F$, we have

$$f_0(a^2) + f_1(a^2)a^3 = 0, \forall a \in F$$

Let $f_0(x) = a_r x^r + \dots + a_1 x + a_0, f_1(x) = b_s x^s + \dots + b_1 x + b_0$. Then

$$f_0(x^2) + f_1(x^2)x^3 = (a_r x^{2r} + \dots + a_1 x^2 + a_0) + (b_s x^{2s+3} + \dots + b_1 x^5 + b_0 x^3)$$

This polynomial is 0 $\forall x = a \in F$. If F is infinite, then this polynomial has infinitely many zeros, which can happen only if the coefficients are zero. Since the coefficients of the terms of even degree are the coefficients of $f_0(x)$ and the coefficients of the terms of odd degree are

the coefficients of $f_1(x)$, then $f_0(x) = f_1(x) = 0$. Hence, $f(x, y) = (x^3 - y^2)g(x, y)$, so

$$\mathcal{I}(V) = (x^3 - y^2) \subseteq F[x, y]$$

However, on the other hand, if F is finite, then there may be elements in $\mathcal{I}(V)$ not lying in the ideal $(x^3 - y^2)$. For example, if $F = \mathbb{F}_2$, then V is simply the set $\{(0, 0), (1, 1)\}$ and hence $\mathcal{I}(V)$ contains the polynomial $x(x - 1)$.

Proposition 2.27. *$\mathcal{I}$ -Properties Proposition*

Let A, B be subsets of $\mathbb{A}^n$.

1. If $A \subseteq B$, then $\mathcal{I}(B) \subseteq \mathcal{I}(A)$.
2. $\mathcal{I}(A \cup B) = \mathcal{I}(A) \cap \mathcal{I}(B)$.
3. $\mathcal{I}(\emptyset) = F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ and if F is infinite, then $\mathcal{I}(\mathbb{A}^n) = 0$.

Proof. 1. For any $f \in \mathcal{I}(B)$, $f(B) = 0 \xrightarrow{A \subseteq B} f(A) = 0 \Rightarrow f \in \mathcal{I}(A)$.

2. $f \in \mathcal{I}(A \cup B) \Leftrightarrow f(A \cup B) = 0 \Leftrightarrow f(A) = 0, f(B) = 0 \Leftrightarrow f \in \mathcal{I}(A) \cap \mathcal{I}(B)$.

3. Obvious. □

Proposition 2.28. *Relations between $\mathcal{Z}$ and $\mathcal{I}$ Proposition*

1. Let A be any subset of $\mathbb{A}^n$. Then $A \subseteq \mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(A))$. If I is any ideal, then $I \subseteq \mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(I))$.
2. If $V = \mathcal{Z}(I)$ is an affine algebraic set, then $V = \mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(V))$. If $I = \mathcal{I}(A)$, then $\mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(I)) = I$.
Namely,

$$\mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(I))) = \mathcal{Z}(I), \mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(A))) = \mathcal{I}(A)$$

Proof. 1. • $(a_1, \dots, a_n) \in A \Rightarrow f(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 0, \forall f \in \mathcal{I}(A) \Rightarrow (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(A))$.

• $f \in I \Rightarrow f(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 0, \forall (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathcal{Z}(I) \Rightarrow f \in \mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(I))$.

2. • By 1, we've already have $\mathcal{Z}(I) \subseteq \mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(I)))$. Conversely, for any $(a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(I)))$, $f(a_1, \dots, a_n) = 0, \forall f \in \mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(I)) \Rightarrow (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathcal{Z}(I)$.

• Similar. □

Remark: The second relation shows that the maps $\mathcal{Z}$ and $\mathcal{I}$ act as inverses of each other provided one restricts to the collection of affine algebraic sets $V = \mathcal{Z}(I)$ in $\mathbb{A}^n$ and to the set of ideals in $F[\mathbb{A}^n]$ of the form $\mathcal{I}(V)$.

Definition 2.29. *Coordinate Rings of Affine Algebraic Sets*

Let $V \subseteq \mathbb{A}^n$ be an affine algebraic set. The quotient ring $F[\mathbb{A}^n]/\mathcal{I}(V)$ is called the *coordinate ring* of V , denoted as $F[V]$.

Remark:

- Since for $V = \mathbb{A}^n$ and F infinite, by the $\mathcal{I}$ -Properties Prop.3, we have $\mathcal{I}(V) = 0$, then this def extends the previous terminology.
- The polynomials in $F[\mathbb{A}^n]$ define F -valued functions on V simply by restricting these functions on $\mathbb{A}^n$ to the subset V . Two such polynomial functions f and g define the *same* function on $V \Leftrightarrow (f - g)_V \equiv 0 \Leftrightarrow f - g \in \mathcal{I}(V)$. Hence, the cosets $\bar{f} = f + \mathcal{I}(V) \in F[V]$ are precisely the restrictions to V of ordinary polynomial functions f from $\mathbb{A}^n$ to F .
- If x_i denotes the i th coordinate function on $\mathbb{A}^n$ ($x_i : (\cdots, \underbrace{\quad}_{i\text{th position}} a_i, \cdots) \mapsto a_i$), then the restriction $\bar{x}_i$ of x_i to V is an element of $F[V]$ and $F[V]$ is finitely generated as an F -algebra by $\bar{x}_1, \cdots, \bar{x}_n$ (but this need *not* be a minimal generating set).

Example: Let $V = \mathcal{Z}(xy - 1)$ be the hyperbola $y = 1/x$ in $\mathbb{R}^2$. Then

$$\mathbb{R}[V] := \mathbb{R}[x, y]/(xy - 1)$$

The polynomials $f(x, y) = x$ (the x -coordinate function) and $g(x, y) = x + (xy - 1)$ which are different functions on $\mathbb{R}^2$, define the same function on V . In the quotient ring $\mathbb{R}[V]$, we have $\bar{f}(a, b) = f(a, 1/a)$.

Definition 2.30. Morphisms of Affine Algebraic Sets

Let $V \subseteq \mathbb{A}^n, W \subseteq \mathbb{A}^m$ be two affine algebraic sets. A map $\varphi : V \rightarrow W$ is called a *morphism* (or *polynomial map* or *regular map*) of affine algebraic sets if there are polynomials $\varphi_1, \cdots, \varphi_m \in F[x_1, \cdots, x_n]$, s.t.: for any $(a_1, \cdots, a_n) \in V$,

$$\varphi((a_1, \cdots, a_n)) = (\varphi_1(a_1, \cdots, a_n), \cdots, \varphi_m(a_1, \cdots, a_n))$$

Furthermore, φ is an *isomorphism of affine algebraic sets* if there exists a morphism of affine algebraic sets $\psi : W \rightarrow V$, s.t.:

$$\varphi \circ \psi = \text{id}_W, \psi \circ \varphi = \text{id}_V$$

Remark: In general, $\varphi_1, \cdots, \varphi_m$ are *not* uniquely defined. For example, both $f(x, y) = x$ and $g(x, y) = x + (xy - 1)$ in the example above define the same morphism from $V = \mathcal{Z}(xy - 1)$ to $W = \mathbb{A}^1$.

Theorem 2.31. Morphisms-Homomorphisms Theorem

Let $V \subseteq \mathbb{A}^n, W \subseteq \mathbb{A}^m$ be affine algebraic sets. There is a bijective correspondence

$$\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{morphisms from } V \text{ to } W \\ \text{as affine algebraic sets} \end{array} \right\} \longleftrightarrow \left\{ \begin{array}{l} F\text{-algebra homomorphisms} \\ \text{from } F[W] \text{ to } F[V] \end{array} \right\}$$

More precisely,

1. Every morphism $\varphi : V \rightarrow W$ induces an associated F -algebra homomorphism $\tilde{\varphi} : F[W] \rightarrow F[V]$ defined by $\tilde{\varphi}(f) := f \circ \varphi$.

2. Every F -algebra homomorphism $\Phi : F[W] \rightarrow F[V]$ is induced by a unique morphism $\varphi : V \rightarrow W$, i.e.: $\Phi = \tilde{\varphi}$.
3. If $\varphi : V \rightarrow W$ and $\psi : W \rightarrow U$ are morphisms of affine algebraic sets, then $\widetilde{\psi \circ \varphi} = \tilde{\psi} \circ \tilde{\varphi} : F[U] \rightarrow F[V]$.
4. The morphism $\varphi : V \rightarrow W$ is an isomorphism $\Leftrightarrow \tilde{\varphi} : F[W] \rightarrow F[V]$ is an F -algebra isomorphism.

Proof. 1. $\forall$ polynomial $F \in \mathcal{I}(W)$, it's easy too check that $F \circ \varphi = F \circ (\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_m) \in \mathcal{I}(V)$. This gives the well-defined-ness of $\tilde{\varphi}$. We leave to readers to check that $\tilde{\varphi}$ is an F -algebra homomorphism.

2. Let F_i be a representative in $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ for the image under Φ of $x_i \in F[W]$. Then define $\varphi := (F_1, \dots, F_m) : \mathbb{A}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{A}^m$. It suffices to show that $\varphi(V) \subseteq \varphi(W)$, since by def φ is already defined by polynomials. Given any $g \in \mathcal{I}(W) \subseteq F[x_1, \dots, x_m]$, we have

$$g(x_1 + \mathcal{I}(W), \dots, x_m + \mathcal{I}(W)) = g(x_1, \dots, x_m) + \mathcal{I}(W) = 0 \in F[W]$$

and hence $\Phi(g(x_1 + \mathcal{I}(W), \dots, x_m + \mathcal{I}(W))) = 0 \in F[V]$. Since Φ is an F -algebra homomorphism, then

$$g(\Phi(x_1 + \mathcal{I}(W)), \dots, \Phi(x_m + \mathcal{I}(W))) = 0 \in F[V]$$

By def, $\Phi(x_i + \mathcal{I}(W)) = F_i \bmod \mathcal{I}(V)$ and hence $g \circ (F_1, \dots, F_m) \in \mathcal{I}(V)$, which follows that $g \circ (F_1, \dots, F_m)(a_1, \dots, a_m) = 0, \forall (a_1, \dots, a_m) \in V$. Then we have $\tilde{\varphi} = \Phi$. As for the uniqueness, if $\tilde{\varphi} = \tilde{\varphi}' = \Phi$, then $(\varphi' - \varphi)|_V \equiv 0$ and then we're done.

3. Omitted and 4 holds then immediately.

□

Example: For any infinite field F , let $V = \mathbb{A}^1$ and let $W = \mathcal{Z}(x^3 - y^2) = \{(a^2, a^3) \mid a \in F\}$. The map $\varphi : V \rightarrow W$ defined by $\varphi(a) = (a^2, a^3)$ is a morphism from V to W . Note that φ is a bijection. The coordinate rings are $F[V] = F[x]$ and $F[W] = F[x, y]/(x^3 - y^2)$ and the associated F -algebra homomorphism of coordinate rings is determined by

$$\tilde{\varphi} : \begin{array}{l} F[W] \rightarrow F[V] \\ x \mapsto x^2 \\ y \mapsto x^3 \end{array}$$

The image of $\tilde{\varphi}$ is the subalgebra $F[x^2, x^3] = F + x^2 F[x]$ of $F[x]$, so in particular $\tilde{\varphi}$ is *not* surjective. Hence, $\tilde{\varphi}$ is *not* an isomorphism of coordinate rings, which by the Morphisms-Homomorphisms Th'm.4, follows that φ is *not* an isomorphism of affine algebraic sets, even though it is a bijective map. On the other hand, the inverse map of φ is given by $\psi(0, 0) = 0$ and $\psi(a, b) = b/a$ for $a \neq 0$, which can *not* be achieved by a polynomial.

Corollary 2.32. *of Morphisms-Homomorphisms Theorem*

Let $\varphi : V \rightarrow W$ be a map between affine algebraic sets. Then φ is morphism $\Leftrightarrow \forall f \in F[W]$, the

composite map $f \circ \varphi$ is an element of $F[V]$ (as an F -valued function on V). When φ is a morphism, $\varphi(v) = w$ with $v \in V, w \in W \Leftrightarrow \tilde{\varphi}^{-1}(\mathcal{I}(\{v\})) = \mathcal{I}(\{w\})$.

Proof. • We first prove the second statement. Note that $\varphi(v) = w \Leftrightarrow$ every polynomial f vanishing at w vanishes at $\varphi(v) \Leftrightarrow$ every polynomial f vanishing at w satisfies $\tilde{\varphi}(f)$ vanishes at $v \Leftrightarrow$ every polynomial f vanishing at w is in $\mathcal{I}(\{v\}) \Leftrightarrow \tilde{\varphi}(f) \in \mathcal{I}(\{v\})$ for every $f \in \mathcal{I}(\{w\}) \Leftrightarrow \tilde{\varphi}(\mathcal{I}(\{w\})) \subseteq \mathcal{I}(\{v\}) \Leftrightarrow \mathcal{I}(\{v\}) \subseteq \tilde{\varphi}^{-1}(\mathcal{I}(\{v\})) \xrightarrow{\mathcal{I}(\{w\}), \mathcal{I}(\{v\}) \text{ are maximal}} \mathcal{I}(\{w\}) = \tilde{\varphi}^{-1}(\mathcal{I}(\{v\}))$.

- We now prove the first statement:

- ($\Rightarrow$): Obvious.

- ($\Leftarrow$): Note that the composition with any map $\varphi : V \rightarrow W$ defines an F -algebra homomorphism $\tilde{\varphi}$ from the F -algebra of F -valued functions on W to the F -algebra of F -valued functions on V . If $f \circ \varphi \in F[V], \forall f \in F[W]$, then $\tilde{\varphi}$ is an F -algebra homomorphism from $F[W]$ to $F[V]$ and hence there exists a unique morphism $\Phi : V \rightarrow W$ which induces $\tilde{\varphi}$, i.e.: $\tilde{\Phi} = \tilde{\varphi}$. Also, since $\tilde{\varphi}$ is an F -algebra homomorphism from $F[W]$ to $F[V]$, then we've already shown that $\varphi(v) = w \Leftrightarrow \tilde{\Phi}^{-1}(\mathcal{I}(\{v\})) = \tilde{\varphi}^{-1}(\mathcal{I}(\{v\})) = \mathcal{I}(\{w\}) \Leftrightarrow \Phi(v) = w$. Hence, $\varphi = \Phi$ which is a morphism.

□

2.3 Radicals

Intuition: Since the zeros of a polynomial f are the same as the zeros of the powers $f^2, f^3, \dots$, in general there are many different ideals in the ring $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ whose zero locus define the same affine algebraic set V in affine n -space. This leads to the notion of the radical of an ideal, which can be defined in any commutative ring:

Definition 2.33. Radicals

Let $I \triangleleft R$ be an ideal in a commutative ring R .

- The *radical* of I , denoted as $\text{rad } I$, is the collection of elements in R some power of which lie in I , i.e.:

$$\text{rad } I := \{a \in R \mid a^k \in I \text{ for some } k \in \mathbb{N}_+\}$$

- The radical of zero ideal is called the *nilradical* of R , namely

$$\text{Nil } R := \text{rad } 0$$

- I is called a *radical ideal* if $I = \text{rad } I$.

Remark: Since $a \in \text{Nil } R \Leftrightarrow a^k = 0$ for some $k \in \mathbb{N}_+$, then

$$\text{Nil } R = \text{the set of all nilpotent elements of } R.$$

Proposition 2.34. *Radicals-Nilradicals Proposition*

Let $I \triangleleft R$ be an ideal in a commutative ring R . Then $\text{rad } I$ is an ideal containing I , and $(\text{rad } I)/I$ is the nilradical of R/I . In particular,

$$R/I \text{ has no nilpotent elements} \Leftrightarrow I = \text{rad } I \text{ is a radical ideal.}$$

Proof. It's clear that $I \subseteq \text{rad } I$. By def, the nilradical of R/I consists of the elements in the quotient some power of which is 0. By the Lattice Isomorphism Theorem for rings, this collection of elements corresponds to the elements of R some power of which lie in I , i.e.: $\text{rad } I$. It therefore suffices to show that the nilradical N of any commutative ring R is an ideal, which is easy to check. $\square$

Proposition 2.35. *Radicals-Prime Ideals Proposition*

$$\text{rad } I = \bigcap_{I \subseteq P \triangleleft R, \text{ prime}} P$$

In particular, $\text{Nil } R = \bigcap_{P \triangleleft R, \text{ prime}} P$.

Corollary 2.36. *of Radicals-Prime Ideals Proposition*

Prime (and hence also maximal) ideals are radical.

Example:

- In $R = \mathbb{Z}$, the ideal (a) is a radical ideal $\Leftrightarrow a$ is square free or zero. More generally, if $a = p_1^{a_1} p_2^{a_2} \cdots p_r^{a_r}$ with $a_i \in \mathbb{N}_+$ is the prime factorization of the positive integer a , then

$$\text{rad } a = (p_1 p_2 \cdots p_r)$$

For example, $\text{rad } (180) = (30)$. Note that $(p_1), (p_2), \dots, (p_r)$ are precisely the prime ideals containing (a) and that their intersection is the ideal $(p_1 p_2 \cdots p_r)$. More generally, in any UFD R ,

$$\text{rad } a = (p_1 p_2 \cdots p_r)$$

if $a = p_1^{a_1} p_2^{a_2} \cdots p_r^{a_r}$ is the unique factorization of a into distinct irreducibles.

- The ideal $(x^3 - y^2)$ in $F[x, y]$ is a prime ideal, and hence it is radical.
- If $l_1, \dots, l_m$ are linear polynomials in $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$, then $I = (l_1, \dots, l_m)$ is either $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ or a prime ideal and hence I is a radical ideal.

Proposition 2.37. *Noetherian-Radicals Proposition*

If R is a Noetherian ring, then for any ideal I , some positive power of $\text{rad } I$ is contained in I . In particular, the nilradical, $\text{Nil } R$, of a Noetherian ring R is a nilpotent ideal, say $N^k = 0$ for some $k \in \mathbb{N}_+$.

Proof. By the Equivalent-Conditions-of-Noetherian Rings Prop.3, $\text{rad } I$ is finitely generated, since by the Radicals-Nilradicals Prop. $\text{rad } I$ is an ideal. Let $\text{rad } I = (a_1, \dots, a_m)$. Then by the def of radicals, for each i , we have $a_i^{k_i} \in I$ for some positive integer k_i . Take $k := \max\{k_1, \dots, k_m\}$. Then the ideal $(\text{rad } I)^{km}$ is generated by elements of the form

$$a_1^{d_1} a_2^{d_2} \dots a_m^{d_m} \text{ where } d_1 + \dots + d_m = km$$

Note that at least one of d_i 's is greater than or equal to k , say $d_j \geq k$. Hence, $a_j^{d_j} = a_j^{d_j-k} a_j^k \overset{I \triangleleft R}{\in} I$. Therefore, the generators $a_1^{d_1} a_2^{d_2} \dots a_m^{d_m}$ of $(\text{rad } I)^{km}$ are all elements in I and hence

$$(\text{rad } I)^{km} \subseteq I$$

□

2.4 Zariski Topology

Definition 2.38. Algebraically Closed Field

A field F is said to be *algebraically closed* if every polynomial $p(x) \in F[x]$ has a root $\lambda \in F$.

Example: By the Fundamental Theorem of Algebra, the set of complex numbers $\mathbb{C}$ is algebraically closed.

Theorem 2.39. Hilbert's Nullstellensatz Theorem

Let E be an algebraically closed field. Then $\mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(I)) = \text{rad } I$ for every ideal of $E[x_1, \dots, x_n]$. Moreover, the maps $\mathcal{Z}$ and $\mathcal{I}$ in the correspondence

$$\{\text{affine algebraic sets}\} \begin{matrix} \xrightarrow{\mathcal{I}} \\ \xleftarrow{\mathcal{Z}} \end{matrix} \{\text{radical ideals}\}$$

are bijections that are inverses of each other.

Proof. We'll prove this in the later section. □

Remark:

- The maps $\mathcal{I}$ and $\mathcal{Z}$ in the Nullstellensatz are defined over any field F and as mentioned are not bijections if F is *not* algebraically closed. However, for any field F , the map $\mathcal{Z}$ is always surjective and the map $\mathcal{I}$ is always injective.
- One particular consequence of the Nullstellensatz is that for any *proper* ideal I , we have $\mathcal{Z}(I) \neq \emptyset$, since $\text{rad } I \neq F[\mathbb{A}^n]$. Hence, there always exists at least one common zero for all the polynomials contained in a proper ideal (over an algebraically closed field).

Definition 2.40. Zariski Topology

The *Zariski topology* on affine n -space over an arbitrary field F is the topology in which the closed sets are the affine algebraic sets in $\mathbb{A}^n$.

Remark:

- One can check that the Zariski topology is a well-defined topology by the Affine Algebraic Sets-Properties Prop.3,4,5.
- The Zariski topology is defined by the zero sets of the ideals in the coordinate ring of $\mathbb{A}^n$.

Example: For the Zariski topology on $\mathbb{A}^1$, the only closed sets are $\emptyset, F$ and the finite sets and hence the non-empty open sets are the complements of finite sets. If F is infinite, then in the Zariski topology, any two non-empty open sets in $\mathbb{A}^1$ have non-empty intersection.

Proposition 2.41. *Separation Axiom-of-Zariski Topology-on- $\mathbb{A}^1$ Proposition*

In the language of point-set topology, the Zariski topology on $\mathbb{A}^1$ is always T_1 , but for infinite fields, the Zariski topology is never T_2 (Hausdorff).

Proof. • Every single point subset in $\mathbb{A}^1$ can be easily checked to be an affine algebraic set in $\mathbb{A}^1$ and hence by the def of the Zariski topology, it is closed. Therefore, the Zariski topology on $\mathbb{A}^1$ is T_1 .

• Directly holds by the above example. □

Example: $F = \mathbb{R}$. A non-empty Zariski open set just the real line $\mathbb{R}$ with some finite number of points removed and any two such sets have (infinitely many) points in common. Note that the Zariski open (or closed) sets in $\mathbb{R}$ are also open (respectively closed) sets with respect to the usual Euclidean topology. The converse is *not* true: $[0, 1]$ is closed in the Euclidean topology but is not closed in the Zariski topology. Hence, the Euclidean topology on $\mathbb{R}$ is finer than the Zariski topology.

Definition 2.42. Zariski Closure and Zariski Density

For any subset A of $\mathbb{A}^n$,

- the *Zariski closure* of A is the smallest affine algebraic set containing A .
- If $A \subseteq V$ for some affine algebraic set V , then A is *Zariski dense* in V if the Zariski closure of A is V .

Example: $F = \mathbb{R}$. The affine algebraic sets in $\mathbb{A}^1$ are $\emptyset, \mathbb{R}$ and finite subsets of $\mathbb{R}$. The Zariski closure of any infinite set A of real numbers is then all of $\mathbb{A}^1$ and A is Zariski dense in $\mathbb{A}^1$.

Proposition 2.43. *Zariski Closure Proposition*

The Zariski closure of a subset A in $\mathbb{A}^n$ is $\mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(A))$.

Proof. By the Relations between $\mathcal{Z}$ and $\mathcal{I}$ Prop.1, we have

$$A \subseteq \mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(A))$$

For the minimality, let V be any affine algebraic set containing A . Then by the $\mathcal{I}$ -Properties Prop.1, $\mathcal{I}(V) \subseteq \mathcal{I}(A)$. Hence, by the Affine Algebraic Sets-Properties Prop.1, $\mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(A)) \subseteq \mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(V))$. By the Relations between $\mathcal{Z}$ and $\mathcal{I}$ Prop.2, $\mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(V)) = V$ and hence we're done. $\square$

Proposition 2.44. *Zariski Closure-Morphism Proposition*

Let $\varphi : V \rightarrow W$ be a morphism of affine algebraic sets and let $\tilde{\varphi} : F[W] \rightarrow F[V]$ be the associated F -algebra homomorphism of coordinate rings.

1. $\ker \tilde{\varphi} = \mathcal{I}(\varphi(V))$.
2. The Zariski closure of $\varphi(V)$ is the zero set in W of $\ker \tilde{\varphi}$. In particular, the homomorphism $\tilde{\varphi}$ is injective $\Leftrightarrow \varphi(V)$ is Zariski dense in W .

Proof. 1. Since $\tilde{\varphi}(f) = f \circ \varphi$, then we have:

$$\tilde{\varphi}(f) = 0 \Leftrightarrow (f \circ \varphi)(P) = 0, \forall P \in V \Leftrightarrow f(Q) = 0, \forall Q = \varphi(P) \in \varphi(V) \Leftrightarrow f \in \mathcal{I}(\varphi(V))$$

2. The first statement holds immediately by 1 and the Zariski Closure Prop. For the second statement:

- $(\Rightarrow)$: $\tilde{\varphi}$ injective $\Leftrightarrow \mathcal{I}(\varphi(V)) \stackrel{1}{=} \ker \tilde{\varphi} = 0 \Rightarrow$ the Zariski closure of $\varphi(V) = \mathcal{Z}(0) = W \Leftrightarrow \varphi(V)$ is Zariski dense in W .
- $(\Leftarrow)$: $\mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(V)) = W \Rightarrow \mathcal{I}(\varphi(V)) = \mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{I}(\varphi(V)))) = \mathcal{I}(W) = 0$.

$\square$

Remark: If $\varphi : V \rightarrow W$ is a morphism of affine algebra sets, then the image $\varphi(V)$ of V need *not* be an affine algebra subset of W , i.e.: need *not* be Zariski closed in W . For example, the projection of the hyperbola $V = \mathcal{Z}(xy - 1)$ in $\mathbb{R}^2$ onto the x -axis has image $\mathbb{R}^1 \setminus \{0\}$, which is *not* an affine algebra set.

2.5 Affine Varieties

2.5.1 Decompositions of Affine Algebraic Sets

Intuition: We now consider the question of whether an affine algebraic set can be decomposed into smaller affine algebraic sets and the corresponding algebraic formulation in terms of its coordinate ring.

Definition 2.45. Affine Varieties

A non-empty affine algebraic set V is called *irreducible* if it cannot be written as $V = V_1 \cup V_2$, where V_1 and V_2 are proper affine algebraic sets in V . An irreducible affine algebraic set is called an *affine variety*.

Remark: Equivalently, an affine algebraic set is irreducible if it cannot be written as the union of two proper closed subsets in the sense of Zariski topology.

Proposition 2.46. *Affine Algebraic Sets-Decomposition Proposition*

1. The affine algebraic set V is irreducible $\Leftrightarrow \mathcal{I}(V)$ is a prime ideal.
2. Every non-empty affine algebraic set V may be written uniquely in the form

$$V = V_1 \cup V_2 \cup \cdots \cup V_q$$

where each V_i is irreducible and $V_i \not\subseteq V_j, \forall j \neq i$ (i.e.: the decomposition is "minimal" or "irredundant").

Proof. 1. • ($\Leftarrow$): Suppose on the contrary that $V = V_1 \cup V_2$ is not irreducible, where V_1, V_2 are proper affine algebra sets in V . Since $V_1 \neq V$, then $\exists f_1$, s.t.: f_1 vanishes on V_1 but not on V , i.e.: $f_1 \in \mathcal{I}(V_1) \setminus \mathcal{I}(V)$. Similarly, we can also find a function $f_2 \in \mathcal{I}(V_2) \setminus \mathcal{I}(V)$. Then $f_1 f_2$ vanishes on $V_1 \cup V_2 = V$, i.e.: $f_1 f_2 \in \mathcal{I}(V)$, which follows that $\mathcal{I}(V)$ is not prime, contradiction.

• ($\Rightarrow$): Suppose on the contrary that $\mathcal{I}(V)$ is not a prime ideal, i.e.: $\exists f_1, f_2 \in F[\mathbb{A}^n]$, s.t.: $f_1 f_2 \in \mathcal{I}(V)$ but $f_1, f_2 \notin \mathcal{I}(V)$. Consider

$$V_1 := \mathcal{Z}(f_1) \cap V, V_2 := \mathcal{Z}(f_2) \cap V$$

Since $\mathcal{Z}(f_1), \mathcal{Z}(f_2), V$ are closed, then so are the intersections, i.e.: V_1, V_2 are affine algebraic sets. Since neither f_1 nor f_2 belongs to $\mathcal{I}(V)$, then neither f_1 nor f_2 vanishes on V and hence V_1, V_2 are proper subsets of V . But note that by assumption $f_1 f_2 \in \mathcal{I}(V)$, so by the Affine Algebraic Sets-Properties Prop.4, we have

$$V \subseteq \mathcal{Z}(f_1 f_2) = \mathcal{Z}(f_1) \cup \mathcal{Z}(f_2) \Rightarrow V = V_1 \cup V_2$$

contradiction.

2. • *Existence:* Let $\mathcal{S}$ be the collection of non-empty affine algebraic sets that cannot be written as a finite union of irreducible affine algebraic sets. Suppose on the contrary that $\mathcal{S} \neq \emptyset$. Then the corresponding set of ideals

$$\{\mathcal{I}(V) \mid V \in \mathcal{S}\} \subseteq F[\mathbb{A}^n]$$

has a maximal element I_0 by the Equivalent-Conditions-of-Noetherian Rings Prop.2, since $F[\mathbb{A}^n]$ is a Noetherian ring. Then $V_0 = \mathcal{Z}(I_0)$ is a minimal element of $\mathcal{S}$. By the def of $\mathcal{S}$, V_0 cannot be decomposed into finitely many irreducible affine algebraic sets, which follows that V_0 is not irreducible (otherwise V_0 itself is the finite decomposition). Hence, $V = V_1 \cup V_2$ for some proper closed subsets V_1, V_2 of V . Since V_1, V_2 are proper subsets of V , then by the minimality of V , $V_1, V_2 \notin \mathcal{S}$. Therefore, V_1, V_2 can be written as finite unions of irreducible affine algebraic sets and then so is V , contradiction.

- *Uniqueness:* Suppose that V has two decomposition into affine varieties:

$$V = V_1 \cup V_2 \cup \cdots \cup V_r = U_1 \cup U_2 \cup \cdots \cup U_s$$

Then $V_1 \subseteq U_1 \cup U_2 \cup \cdots \cup U_s$. Since $V_1 \cap U_j$ is an affine algebraic set $\forall j = 1, \dots, s$, then we obtain a decomposition of V_1 into affine varieties:

$$V_1 = (V_1 \cap U_1) \cup (V_1 \cap U_2) \cup \cdots \cup (V_1 \cap U_s)$$

By the irreducibility of V_1 , we must have $V_1 = V_1 \cap U_i$ for some $i \in \{1, \dots, s\}$, i.e.: $V_1 \subseteq U_i$. Similarly, we have $U_i \subseteq V_{i'}$ for some $i' \in \{1, \dots, r\}$. Hence, $V_1 \subseteq V_{i'}$, so by the hypothesis of 2, $i' = 1$ and thus $V_1 = U_i$. Applying the similar argument for each V_k , we can get $r = s$ and that

$$\{V_1, \dots, V_r\} = \{U_1, \dots, U_s\}$$

and then we're done. □

Corollary 2.47. *of Affine Algebraic Sets-Decomposition Proposition*

An affine algebraic set V is a variety $\Leftrightarrow$ its coordinate ring $F[V]$ is an ID.

Proof. It follows immediately by the Affine Algebraic Sets-Decomposition Prop.1. □

2.5.2 Primary Decomposition of Ideals in Noetherian Rings

Definition 2.48. Primary Ideals

A *proper* ideal Q in the commutative ring R is called *primary* if whenever $ab \in Q$ and $a \notin Q$, we have $b^n \in Q$ for some positive integer $n \in \mathbb{N}_+$, i.e.: $b \in \text{rad } Q$.

Proposition 2.49. *Primary Ideals-Properties Proposition*

Let R be a ring (commutative and unital).

1. *Prime ideals in R are primary.*
2. *The ideal $Q \triangleleft R$ is primary $\Leftrightarrow$ every zero divisor in R/Q is nilpotent.*
3. *If Q is primary, then $\text{rad } Q$ is a prime ideal and is the unique smallest prime ideal containing Q .*
4. *If Q is an ideal whose radical is a maximal ideal, then Q is a primary ideal.*
5. *Suppose M is a maximal ideal and Q is an ideal with $M^n \subseteq Q \subseteq M$ for some positive integer n . Then Q is a primary ideal with $\text{rad } Q = M$.*

Proof. 1. holds immediately by the def of primary ideals.

2. holds immediately by the def of primary ideals.

3. By the corollary of the Radicals-Prime Ideals Prop, it suffices to show that $\text{rad } Q$ is prime. Then we have

$$ab \in \text{rad } Q \Rightarrow a^m b^m = (ab)^m \in Q \stackrel{Q \text{ primary}}{\Rightarrow} \text{WLOG, let } (b^m)^n \in Q \Rightarrow b \in \text{rad } Q.$$

4. By 2, it suffices to show that every zero divisor in R/Q is nilpotent, so we can be reduced to the situation where $Q = (0)$ and let $M = \text{rad } Q = \text{rad } (0) = \text{Nil } R$ be a maximal ideal. By the Radicals-Prime Ideals Prop, M is the unique prime ideal in R , and hence also the unique maximal ideal in R . If d is a zero divisor of R/Q , then the ideal (d) is a proper ideal, hence contained in some maximal ideal. By the uniqueness for maximal ideals of M , since $M = \text{Nil } R$, then $d \in \text{Nil } R/Q$.
5. • $Q \subseteq M \Rightarrow \text{rad } Q \subseteq \text{rad } M \stackrel{M \text{ maximal}}{=} M$.
 • $M^n \subseteq Q \Rightarrow M \subseteq \text{rad } Q$.

Therefore, by 4, we're done. □

Definition 2.50. Associated Prime Ideals of Primary Ideals

Let Q be a primary ideal. Then the prime ideal $P = \text{rad } Q$ is called the *associated prime to Q* , and Q is said to *belong to P* (or to be *P -primary*).

Proposition 2.51. A finite intersection of P -primary ideals is again a P -primary ideal.

Example:

- The primary ideals of $\mathbb{Z}$ are precisely 0 and the ideals (p^m) for p prime and $m \geq 1$.
- Let F be any field. The ideal $(x) \triangleleft F[x, y]$ in $F[x, y]$ is primary since it is a prime ideal. For any $n \in \mathbb{N}_+$, the ideal $(x, y)^n$ is primary since (x, y) is a maximal ideal. Furthermore, the ideal $Q = (x^2, y)$ in $F[x, y]$ is primary since $(x, y)^2 \subseteq Q \subseteq (x, y)$ (by the Primary Ideals-Properties Prop.5). Similarly, $Q' = (4, x)$ in $\mathbb{Z}[x]$ is a $(2, x)$ -primary ideal.
- Primary ideal need *not* be powers of prime ideals. For instance, Q in the previous example is not the power of any prime ideal: If $(x^2, y) = P^k$ for some prime ideal P and some $k \in \mathbb{N}_+$, then $x^2, y \in P^k \subseteq P$ and hence $x, y \in P$, since P is prime. Then the only case is $P = (x, y)$. Since $y \notin (x, y)^2$, then $k = 1$. But $x \notin (x^2, y)$, contradiction.
- If R is Noetherian, and Q is a primary ideal belonging to the prime ideal P , then by the Noetherian-Radicals Prop, we have

$$P^m \subseteq Q \subseteq P$$

for some $m \in \mathbb{N}_+$. If P is a maximal ideal, then the Primary Ideals-Properties Prop.5 show that the converse also holds. This is not necessarily true if P is prime but not maximal. For instance, consider the ideal $I = (x^2, xy)$ in $F[x, y]$. Then $(x^2) = (x)^2 \subseteq I \subseteq (x)$ and (x)

is prime, but I is *not* primary: $xy \in I$ and $x \notin I$ but no positive power of y is in I . This example also shows that an ideal whose radical is prime is not necessarily prime. However, (x^2, xy) can be written as the intersection of primary ideals:

$$(x^2, xy) = (x) \cap (x, y)^2$$

Definition 2.52. Primary Decomposition

- An ideal I in R has a *primary decomposition* if it may be written as a finite intersection of primary ideals:

$$I = \bigcap_{i=1}^m Q_i \text{ where } Q_i\text{'s are primary ideal.}$$

- The primary decomposition above is said to be *minimal* and then we call Q_i 's the *primary components* of I if the following two conditions are satisfied:
 - no primary ideal contains the intersection of the remaining primary ideals, i.e.: $Q_i \not\supseteq \bigcap_{j \neq i} Q_j$ for all i , and
 - the associated prime ideals are all distinct: $\text{rad } Q_i \neq \text{rad } Q_j$ for all $i \neq j$.

Definition 2.53. Irreducible Ideals

A *proper* ideal I in the commutative ring R is said to be *irreducible* if I cannot be written nontrivially as the intersection of two other ideals, i.e.: if $I = J \cap K$, with J, K ideals, implies that $I = J$ or $I = K$.

Remark:

- It's easy to see that a prime ideal is irreducible.
- The ideal $(x, y)^2$ in $F[x, y]$ is *not* irreducible but is primary. In Noetherian ring, however, irreducible ideals are necessarily primary:

Proposition 2.54. Noetherian-Irreducible Proposition

Let R be a Noetherian ring.

1. Every irreducible ideal in R is primary.
2. Every proper ideal in R is a finite intersection of irreducible ideals.

Proof. 1. Let Q be an irreducible ideal in R and suppose that $ab \in Q$ and that $b \notin Q$. Note that for any fixed $m \in \mathbb{N}_+$, the set of elements $x \in R$ with $a^m x \in Q$ is an ideal in R , namely $A_m \triangleleft R$. Then it's clearly that we obtain an ascending chain $A_1 \subseteq A_2 \subseteq \cdots$ and since R is Noetherian, then this chain of ideals must stabilize, i.e.: $A_n = A_{n+1} = \cdots$ for some $n \in \mathbb{N}_+$. Consider the two ideals

$$I := (a^n) + Q, J := (b) + Q$$

in R , each containing $Q \Rightarrow Q \subseteq I \cap J$. For any $y \in I \cap J \subseteq I$, $y = a^n z + q$ for some $z \in R, q \in Q$. Since $ab \in Q$, then $aJ \subseteq Q$ and in particular $ay \in Q$. Hence,

$$a^{n+1}z = ay - aq \in Q \stackrel{\text{def of } A_m}{\Rightarrow} z \in A_{n+1} = A_n \stackrel{\text{def of } A_m}{\Rightarrow} a^n z \in Q \Rightarrow y \in Q$$

which follows that $I \cap J \subseteq Q$. Thus, $Q = I \cap J$. Since Q is irreducible, then $Q = I$ or $Q = J$.

- If $Q = J$, then $b \in Q$, contradicting our hypothesis.
- If $Q = I$, then $a^n \in Q$ and hence Q is primary.

2. Similar to the proof of the Affine Algebraic Sets-Decomposition Prop.2, so we omit it here. $\square$

Theorem 2.55. *Primary Decomposition Theorem / Lasker-Noetherian Decomposition Theorem*
 Let R be a Noetherian ring. Then every proper ideal I in R has a minimal primary decomposition.
 If

$$I = \bigcap_{i=1}^m Q_i = \bigcap_{i=1}^n Q'_i$$

are two minimal primary decompositions for I , then the set of associated primes in the two decompositions are the same:

$$\{\text{rad } Q_1, \text{rad } Q_2, \dots, \text{rad } Q_m\} = \{\text{rad } Q'_1, \text{rad } Q'_2, \dots, \text{rad } Q'_n\}$$

Moreover, the primary components Q_i belonging to the minimal elements in this set of associated primes are uniquely determined by I .

Proof. By the Noetherian-Irreducible Prop, we have that every proper ideal has a primary decomposition. If any of primary ideals in this decomposition contains the intersection of the remaining primary ideals, then we can remove this ideal since this will not change the intersection. Hence, the first condition in the def of minimal primary decomposition holds. By the previous prop, we know that a finite intersection of P -primary ideals is again P -primary and hence we can replace the primary ideals in the decomposition with the intersections of all those primary ideals belonging to the same prime. Therefore, the second condition in the def of minimal primary decomposition. This proves the first statement of the Primary Decomposition Theorem.

The proofs of the uniqueness of the set of associated primes and of the uniqueness of the primary components associated to the minimal primes are omitted. $\square$

Definition 2.56. If I is an ideal in the Noetherian ring R , then the associated prime ideals in any primary decomposition of I are called the *associated prime ideals of I* . If an associated prime ideal P of I does not contain any other associated prime ideal of I , then P is called an *isolated prime ideal*; the remaining associated prime ideals of I are called *embedded prime ideals*.

Corollary 2.57. *of the Primary Decomposition Theorem*
 Let I be a proper ideal in the Noetherian ring R .

1. A prime ideal P contains the ideal $I \Leftrightarrow P$ contains one of the associated primes of $I \Leftrightarrow P$ contains one of the isolated primes of I , i.e.: the isolated primes of I are precisely the minimal elements in the set of all prime ideals containing I . In particular, there are only finitely many minimal elements among the prime ideals containing I .
2. The radical of I is the intersection of the associated primes of I , hence also the intersection of the isolated primes of I .
3. There are prime ideals $P_1, \dots, P_n$ (not necessarily distinct) containing I such that $P_1 P_2 \cdots P_n \subseteq I$.

2.6 Integral Extensions

Intuition: In this section, we introduce a generalization to rings of algebraic extensions of fields — integral extension of rings.

Definition 2.58. Integral Extension of Rings

Let R be a subring of the ring S .

- An element $s \in S$ is *integral over R* if s is the root of a monic polynomial in $R[x]$.
- The ring S is an *integral extension of R* or just *integral over R* if every $s \in S$ is integral over R .
- The *integral closure of R in S* is the set of elements of S that are integral over R .
- The ring R is said to be *integrally closed in S* if R is equal to its integral closure in S . The integral closure of an ID in its field of fraction is called the *normalization of R* . An ID is called *integrally closed* or *normal* if it is integrally closed in its field of fractions.

Proposition 2.59. *Integral Elements-Properties Proposition*

Let R be a subring of the ring S and let $s \in S$. The followings are equivalent:

1. s is integral over R .
2. $R[s]$ ($:=$ the ring of all R -linear combinations of powers of s) is a finitely generated R -module.
3. $s \in T$ for some subring T , with $R \subseteq T \subseteq S$, that is a finitely generated R -module.

Proof. • $(1 \Rightarrow 2)$: Let s be a root of $x^n + a_{n-1}x^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1x + a_0 \in R[x]$. Then we have

$$s^n = -(a_{n-1}s^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1s + a_0)$$

and hence, s^n (and then all higher powers of s) can be expressed as R -linear combinations of $s^{n-1}, \dots, s, 1$. Hence $R[s] = R1 + Rs + \cdots + Rs^{n-1}$ is finitely generated as an R -module.

- $(2 \Rightarrow 3)$: Let $T = R[s]$ and then we're done.
- $(3 \Rightarrow 1)$: Let $\{v_1, v_2, \dots, v_n\}$ be a finite generating set for T . Since T is a ring, then

$sv_i \in T, \forall i = 1, \dots, n$. Hence, $\exists a_{ij} \in R$, s.t.:

$$sv_i = \sum_{j=1}^n a_{ij}v_j \Leftrightarrow 0 = \sum_{j=1}^n (\delta_{ij}s - a_{ij})v_j$$

where δ_{ij} denotes the Kronecker delta. If we denote by $B, \mathbf{v}$ the $n \times n$ matrix whose (i, j) -entrt is $\delta_{ij}s - a_{ij}$ and the $n \times 1$ column vector whose entries are $v_1, \dots, v_n$, respectively. Then we have $B\mathbf{v} = 0$. By the Cramer's Rule, $(\det B)v_i = 0, \forall i = 1, \dots, n$. Since $1 \in T$, then $\det B = 0$. But $B = sI - (a_{ij})_{ij}$. Hence, s is a root of monic polynomial $\det(xI - (a_{ij})_{ij}) \in R[x]$, which is the characteristic polynomial of $(a_{ij})_{ij}$. □

Corollary 2.60. *1 of the Integral Elements-Properties Proposition*

Let $R \subseteq S$ be as in the Integral Elements-Properties Proposition above and let $s, t \in S$.

1. If s and t are integral over R , then so is $s \pm t$ and st .
2. The integral closure of R in S is a subring of S containing R .
3. Integrality is transitive: let S be a subring of T ; if T is integral over S and S is integral over R , then T is integral over R .

Proof. By the Integral Elements-Properties Prop.2, both $R[s]$ and $R[t]$ are finitely generate R -modules, say

$$R[s] = Rs_1 + \dots + Rs_n, R[t] = Rt_1 + \dots + Rt_m$$

Then $R[s, t] = Rs_1t_1 + \dots + Rs_it_j + \dots + Rs_nt_m$ is a ring containing $s \pm t$ and st that is also finitely generated R -module. Hence, 1 and 2 hold.

To prove 3, $\forall b \in T$, it is integral over S , so it is the root of some monic polynomial $p(x) = x^n + a_{n-1}x^{n-1} + \dots + a_1x + a_0 \in S[x]$. Since $a_i \in S$ is integral over R , then each ring $R[a_i]$ is a finitely generated R -module and hence the ring $R_1 := R[a_0, a_1, \dots, a_{n-1}]$ is also a finitely generated R -module. Since the monic polynomial $p(x)$ has its coefficients in R_1 , then b is integral over R_1 . Therefore, $R_1[b] = R[a_0, a_1, \dots, a_{n-1}, b]$ is a finitely generated R -module. By the Integral Elements-Properties Prop.2, this means that b is integral over R . □

Remark: Corollary 1 of the Integral Elements-Properties Proposition 2 shows that taking the elements of S that are integral over R gives a (possibly larger) subring of S ; 3 shows that the process of taking the integral closure stops after one step:

Corollary 2.61. *2 of the Integral Elements-Properties Proposition*

Let R be a subring of the ring S . Then the integral closure of R in S is integrally closed in S .

Example:

- If R and S are fields, then S is integral over $R \Leftrightarrow S$ is algebraic over R . If $s \in S$ is a root of the polynomial $p(x) \in R[x]$, then it is a root of the monic polynomial obtained by dividing by the (nonzero) leading coefficient of $p(x)$.

- Suppose that S is an integral extension of R and that I is an ideal in S . Then S/I is an integral ring extension of $R/(R \cap I)$ (reducing the monic polynomial over R satisfied by $s \in S$ modulo I gives a monic polynomial satisfied by $\bar{s} := s + I \in S/I$ over $R/(R \cap I)$).
- If R is a UFD, then R is integrally closed as follows: Suppose that a/b is an element in field of fractions of R (with $b \neq 0$ and a, b having no common factors), and satisfies

$$(a/b)^n + r_{n-1}(a/b)^{n-1} + \cdots + r_1(a/b) + r_0 = 0$$

with $r_0, r_1, \dots, r_{n-1} \in R$. Then we have

$$a^n = b(-r_{n-1}a^{n-1} - \cdots - r_1ab^{n-2} - r_0b^{n-1})$$

which follows that any irreducible element dividing b divides a . Since a/b is in the lowest term, then b must be a unit, i.e.: $a/b \in R$.

- The polynomial ring $F[x, y]$ over the field F is integrally closed in its fraction field $F(x, y)$. The ideal $(x^2 - y^3)$ is prime and hence the quotient ring $R = F[x, y]/(x^2 - y^3) = F[\bar{x}, \bar{y}]$ is an ID. This domain is *not* integrally closed, however, since $\bar{x}/\bar{y}$ is an element of the fraction field of R that is integral over R ($(\bar{x}/\bar{y})^3 - \bar{x} = 0$), but is not an element of R . In particular, R is *not* a UFD by the above example.

Definition 2.62. Extension and Contraction of Ideals

Let $\varphi : R \rightarrow S$ be a homomorphism of commutative rings.

- If I is an ideal in R , then the *extension of I to S* is the ideal $\varphi(I)S$ of S generated by the image of I .
- If J is an ideal in S , then the *contraction in J of R* is the ideal $\varphi^{-1}(J)$.

Remark: In the special case where R is a subring of S and φ is the natural injection, the extension of $I \triangleleft R$ is the ideal IS in S and the contraction of $J \triangleleft S$ is the ideal $J \cap R$ of R . Furthermore, it is immediate from the def that

- $I \subseteq IS \cap R$, more generally, I is contained in the contraction of its extension to S , and
- $(J \cap R)S \subseteq J$, more generally, J contains the extension of its contraction in R .

Proposition 2.63. Contraction-Prime Proposition

Let $\varphi : R \rightarrow S$ be a homomorphism of commutative rings. If Q is a prime ideal in S , then its contraction is prime.

Proof. Since Q is proper, then $1_S \notin Q$ and hence $1_R \notin \varphi^{-1}(Q)$ which follows that $\varphi^{-1}(Q)$ is proper. $\forall a, b \in R$ with $ab \in \varphi^{-1}(Q)$, $\varphi(a)\varphi(b) = \varphi(ab) \in Q$. Since Q is prime, then WLOG, $\varphi(a) \in Q$ and hence $a \in \varphi^{-1}(Q)$. $\square$

Remark:

- The contraction of a maximal ideal need *not* be maximal. For instance, let $R = \mathbb{Z}, S = \mathbb{Q}$ and let $\varphi : \mathbb{Z} \hookrightarrow \mathbb{Q}$ be the inclusion map. Since $S = \mathbb{Q}$ is a field, then $Q = (0) \subseteq \mathbb{Q}$ is the only maximal ideal in $\mathbb{Q}$. But $\varphi^{-1}((0)) = (0) \subseteq \mathbb{Z}$ is *not* maximal in $\mathbb{Z}$.
- The extension of a prime ideal P in R need *not* be prime (or even proper) in S . For instance,
 - Let $R = \mathbb{Z}, S = \mathbb{Q}$, let $\varphi : \mathbb{Z} \hookrightarrow \mathbb{Q}$ be the inclusion map and let $P = (2) \subseteq \mathbb{Z}$ be a prime ideal in $R = \mathbb{Z}$. But $\varphi((2))\mathbb{Q} = \mathbb{Q}$ is *not* proper in $S = \mathbb{Q}$.
 - Let $R = \mathbb{Z}, S = \mathbb{Z}[i]$, let $\varphi : \mathbb{Z} \hookrightarrow \mathbb{Z}[i]$ be the inclusion map and let $P = (5) \subseteq \mathbb{Z}$ be a prime ideal in $R = \mathbb{Z}$. But $\varphi((5))\mathbb{Z}[i] = 5\mathbb{Z}[i]$ is *not* prime in $\mathbb{Z}[i]$ since $2+i, 2-i \notin 5\mathbb{Z}[i]$ but $5 = (2+i)(2-i) \in 5\mathbb{Z}[i]$.
- It is *not* generally true that any prime ideal of R is the contraction of a prime ideal S . For instance, let $R = \mathbb{Z}, S = \mathbb{Q}$, let $\varphi : \mathbb{Z} \hookrightarrow \mathbb{Q}$ be the inclusion map and let $P = (2) \subseteq \mathbb{Z}$ be a prime ideal in $R = \mathbb{Z}$. But the only prime ideal in $S = \mathbb{Q}$ is (0) , so there's not any prime ideal Q of S , s.t.: $\varphi^{-1}(Q) = (2)$. For integral ring extensions, however, the situation is more controlled:

Theorem 2.64. *Integral Ring Extensions-Prime Ideals Theorem*

Let R be a subring of the ring S and suppose that S is integral over R .

1. Assume that S is an ID. Then R is a field $\Leftrightarrow S$ is a field.
2. Let P be a prime ideal in R . Then there is a prime ideal Q in S with $P = Q \cap R$. Moreover, P is maximal $\Leftrightarrow Q$ is maximal.
3. (The Going-up Theorem) Let $P_1 \subseteq P_2 \subseteq \cdots \subseteq P_n$ be a chain of prime ideals in R and suppose that there are prime ideals $Q_1 \subseteq Q_2 \subseteq \cdots \subseteq Q_m$ of S with $P_i = Q_i \cap R, 1 \leq i \leq m$ and $m < n$. Then the ascending chain of ideals can be completed: there are prime ideals $Q_{m+1} \subseteq \cdots \subseteq Q_n$ in S such that $P_i = Q_i \cap R, \forall i$.
4. (The Going-down Theorem) Assume that S is an ID and that R is integrally closed in S . Let $P_1 \supseteq P_2 \supseteq \cdots \supseteq P_n$ be a chain of prime ideals in R and suppose that there are prime ideals $Q_1 \supseteq Q_2 \supseteq \cdots \supseteq Q_m$ of S with $P_i = Q_i \cap R, 1 \leq i \leq m$ and $m < n$. Then the descending chain of ideals can be completed: there are prime ideals $Q_{m+1} \supseteq \cdots \supseteq Q_n$ in S such that $P_i = Q_i \cap R, \forall i$.

Proof. 1. • $(\Rightarrow)$: $\forall s \in S \setminus \{0\}$, since S is integral over R , then s is integral over R and hence

$$s^n + a_{n-1}s^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1s + a_0 = 0$$

for some $a_0, a_1, \dots, a_{n-1} \in R$. Since S is an ID, then we may assume $a_0 \neq 0$ (otherwise we can apply cancellation law on s). Then

$$s(s^{n-1} + a_{n-1}s^{n-2} + \cdots + a_1) = -a_0 \xrightarrow{a_0 \in \text{field } R} s \cdot (-1/a_0)(s^{n-1} + a_{n-1}s^{n-2} + \cdots + a_1) = 1$$

Hence, $s \in U(S)$. Therefore, S is a field.

- ($\Leftarrow$): $\forall r \in R \setminus \{0\}$, since $R \subseteq S$, then $r \in S$ and hence $r^{-1} \in S$. It suffices to show that $r^{-1} \in R$. Since r^{-1} is integral over R , then we have

$$r^{-m} + a_{m-1}r^{m-1} + \cdots + a_1r + a_0 = 0$$

for some $a_0, a_1, \dots, a_{m-1} \in R$. Then $r^{-1} = -(a_{m-1} + \cdots + a_1r^{m-2} + a_0r^{m-1}) \in R$.

2. The first statement will be prove later by the corollary of Localization-on-Primary Decomposition Proposition. For the second statement, note that the ID S/Q is an integral extension of R/P . By 1, we're done.
3. It suffices by induction to show that: if $P_1 \subseteq P_2$ and Q_1 is a prime ideal of S with $Q_1 \cap R = P_1$, then there is a prime ideal Q_2 of S with $Q_1 \subseteq Q_2$ and $Q_2 \cap R = P_2$. Since $\bar{S} := S/Q_1$ is an integral extension of $\bar{R} := R/P_1$, then the first part of 2 shows that there exists a prime ideal $\bar{Q}_2$ of $\bar{S}$ with $\bar{Q}_2 \cap \bar{R} = P_2/P_1$. Then the preimage Q_2 of $\bar{Q}_2$ in S is the desired prime ideal of S .
4. The proof of the Going-down Theorem need the concept of *localization*, so we'll list the outline later after providing localization.

□

Corollary 2.65. *of Integral Ring Extensions-Prime Ideals Theorem*

Suppose that R is a subring of the ring S and that S is integral and finitely generated (as a ring) over R . If P is a maximal ideal in R , then there is a nonzero and finite number of maximal ideals Q of S with $Q \cap R = P$.

Proof. By the Integral Ring Extensions-Prime Ideals Thm.2, there exists at least one desired maximal ideal, so it suffices to prove the finiteness. Note that if Q is a maximal ideal of S with $Q \cap R = P$, then S/Q is a field containing the field R/P . Hence, it suffices to show that there are only finitely many homomorphisms from S to a field containing R/P that extend the homomorphism from R to R/P :

Let $S = R[s_1, \dots, s_n]$, where s_i 's are integral over R by assumption and let $p_i(x) \in R[x]$ be a monic polynomial satisfied by s_i . Note that $S/Q = (R/P)[\bar{s}_1, \dots, \bar{s}_n]$ is the field extension of the field R/P with generators $\bar{s}_i$'s, where $\bar{s}_i$ is a root of the monic polynomial $\bar{p}_i(x) \in (R/P)[x]$ obtained by reducing the coefficients of $p_i(x)$ mod P . Since there are only a finite number of possible roots of $\bar{p}_i(x)$ in a field algebraic closure of R/P , then only finitely many possible field extensions of the form $(R/P)[\bar{s}_1, \dots, \bar{s}_n]$. □

2.7 Algebraic Integers

Intuition: We can use the concept of an integral ring extension to define the "integers" in extension fields of the rational numbers $\mathbb{Q}$.

Definition 2.66. Algebraic Integers

Let K be an extension field of $\mathbb{Q}$.

- An element $\alpha \in K$ is called an *algebraic integer* if α is integral over $\mathbb{Z}$, i.e.: if α is the root of some monic polynomial with integer coefficients.
- The integral closure of $\mathbb{Z}$ in K is called the *ring of integers of K* , denoted as $\mathcal{O}_K$.

Example: $\sqrt{2}, \sqrt{-1}, \sqrt[3]{5}$, etc. are certainly roots of monic polynomials with integer coefficients.

Remark:

- An algebraic integer is clearly algebraic over $\mathbb{Q}$ and hence the ring of all algebraic integers is the ring of integers in $K = \overline{\mathbb{Q}}$, an algebraic closure of $\mathbb{Q}$.
- The def of an algebraic integer α is that α be a root of some monic polynomial in $\mathbb{Z}[x]$, a condition which is difficult to check.

Proposition 2.67. *Algebraic Integers-Criterion Proposition*

An element α in some field extension K of $\mathbb{Q}$ is an algebraic integer $\Leftrightarrow \alpha$ is algebraic over $\mathbb{Q}$ and its minimal polynomial $m_{\alpha, \mathbb{Q}}(x)$ has integer coefficients. In particular, the algebraic integers in $\mathbb{Q}$ are the integers $\mathbb{Z}$, i.e.: $\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{Q}} = \mathbb{Z}$.

Proof. • $(\Leftarrow)$: holds immediately by def.

- $(\Rightarrow)$: Let $f(x)$ be a monic polynomial in $\mathbb{Z}[x]$ of minimal degree having α as a root. If f is reducible in $\mathbb{Q}[x]$, then by the Gauss' Lemma, $f(x) = g(x)h(x)$ for some monic polynomials $g, h \in \mathbb{Z}[x]$ of degree smaller than the degree of f . But then α would be a root of either g or h , contradicting the minimality of degree of f . Hence, f is irreducible in $\mathbb{Q}[x]$, so $f(x) = m_{\alpha, \mathbb{Q}}(x)$ and thus the minimal polynomial for α has integer coefficients.

Finally, the minimal polynomial of $\alpha = a/b \in \mathbb{Q}$ where $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}$ with $\gcd(a, b) = 1$ is $bx - a$, which is monic $\Leftrightarrow b = 1$. Therefore, $\alpha \in \mathbb{Q}$ is an algebraic integer $\Leftrightarrow \alpha \in \mathbb{Z}$. $\square$

Definition 2.68. Number Fields

A field is called *number field* if it is an extension of finite degree over $\mathbb{Q}$.

Theorem 2.69. *Basic Structure-of-Rings of Integers-in Number Fields Theorem*

Let K be a number field of degree n over $\mathbb{Q}$.

1. The ring $\mathcal{O}_K$ of integers in K is a Noetherian ring and is a free $\mathbb{Z}$ -module of rank n .
2. For every $\beta \in K$, there is some nonzero $d \in \mathbb{Z} \setminus \{0\}$, s.t.: $d\beta$ is an algebraic integer. In particular, K is the field of fractions of $\mathcal{O}_K$.
3. If $\beta_1, \beta_2, \dots, \beta_n$ is any $\mathbb{Q}$ -basis of K , then there is an integer d such that $d\beta_1, d\beta_2, \dots, d\beta_n$ is a basis for a free- $\mathbb{Z}$ -submodule of $\mathcal{O}_K$ of rank n . Any basis of the $\mathbb{Z}$ -module $\mathcal{O}_K$ is also a basis for K as a vector space over $\mathbb{Q}$.

Definition 2.70. Integral Basis

An *integral basis* for the number field S is a basis of the ring of integers in S considered as a free $\mathbb{Z}$ -module of rank $[K : \mathbb{Q}]$.

2.8 Noetherian's Normalization Lemma and Hilbert's Nullstellensatz

Definition 2.71. Algebraical Independence

Let F be a field. The elements $y_1, y_2, \dots, y_q$ in some F -algebra are called algebraically independent over F if there is no non-zero polynomial p in q variables over F such that $p(y_1, y_2, \dots, y_q) = 0$.

Remark:

- $y_1, y_2, \dots, y_q$ are algebraically independent $\Leftrightarrow$ F -algebra homomorphism from the polynomial ring $F[x_1, \dots, x_q]$ to $F[y_1, \dots, y_q]$ given by $x_i \mapsto y_i$ is an isomorphism.
- Elements in a field extension of F are algebraically independent $\Leftrightarrow$ they are independent transcendentals over F .

Theorem 2.72. Noetherian's Normalization Lemma

Let F be a field and suppose that $A := F[r_1, \dots, r_m]$ is a finitely generated F -algebra. Then for some q , with $0 \leq q \leq m$, there are algebraically independent elements $y_1, y_2, \dots, y_q \in A$ such that A is integral over $F[y_1, \dots, y_q]$.

Proof. If $r_1, \dots, r_m$ are algebraically independent, then take $q = m, y_i = r_i$ and then we're done. Otherwise, $\exists 0 \neq f \in F[x_1, \dots, x_m]$, s.t.: $f(r_1, \dots, r_m) = 0$. Since $f \neq 0$, then WLOG, let x_m appear in the leading term, i.e.: we can consider f as:

$$f(x_1, \dots, x_m) = c_t(x_1, \dots, x_{m-1})x_m^t + c_{t-1}(x_1, \dots, x_{m-1})x_m^{t-1} + \dots + c_1(x_1, \dots, x_{m-1})x_m + c_0(x_1, \dots, x_{m-1})$$

where $c_i \in F[x_1, \dots, x_{m-1}]$ with $c_t \neq 0, t \geq 1$. Then we have $c_t(r_1, \dots, r_{m-1})r_m^t + \dots + c_0(r_1, \dots, r_{m-1}) = 0$. But c_t may not equal to 1, namely this polynomial over $F[r_1, \dots, r_{m-1}]$ may not be monic, so we need to perform a change of variables to "normalize" f into a monic polynomial in x_m .

For $1 \leq i \leq m-1$, define $\alpha_i := (1+d)^i$, where d denotes the degree of f , and define $X_i := x_i - x_m^{\alpha_i}$. Let $g \in F[X_1, \dots, X_{m-1}, x_m]$ be defined by

$$g(X_1, X_2, \dots, X_{m-1}, x_m) := f(X_1 + x_m^{\alpha_1}, X_2 + x_m^{\alpha_2}, \dots, X_{m-1} + x_m^{\alpha_{m-1}}, x_m)$$

Now we can see that the highest power N of x_m is with a "constant" coefficient, namely, g can be written as:

$$g(X_1, X_2, \dots, X_{m-1}, x_m) = cx_m^N + \sum_{i=0}^{N-1} h_i(X_1, \dots, X_{m-1})x_m^i$$

where $0 \neq c \in F, h_i \in F[X_1, \dots, X_{m-1}]$. If $s_i := r_i - r_m^{\alpha_i}$, then

$$\frac{1}{c}g(s_1, \dots, s_{m-1}, r_m) = \frac{1}{c}f(r_1, \dots, r_{m-1}, r_m) = 0$$

Hence, r_m is integral over $B = F[s_1, \dots, s_{m-1}]$. Note that $\forall i \in \{1, \dots, m-1\}$, r_i is a root of the monic polynomial $x - s_i - r_m^{\alpha_i}$. Hence, each r_i , for $1 \leq i \leq m-1$, is integral over $B[r_m]$, so

$A = F[r_1, \dots, r_m]$ is integral over $B[r_m]$. Since $B[r_m]$ is integral over B , then by the transitivity of integrality (the cor.1 of the Integral Elements-Properties Prop.3), A is integral over B . So we now reduce the case from m into $m - 1$. Repeat this procedure until we're done. $\square$

Theorem 2.73. *Hilbert's Nullstellensatz — Weak Form*

Let F be an algebraically closed field. Then M is a maximal ideal in the polynomial ring $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ $\Leftrightarrow M = (x_1 - a_1, \dots, x_n - a_n)$ for some $a_1, \dots, a_n \in F$. Equivalently, the maps $\mathcal{Z}$ and $\mathcal{I}$ give a bijective correspondence

$$\{\text{points in } \mathbb{A}^n\} \xrightleftharpoons[\mathcal{Z}]{\mathcal{I}} \{\text{maximal ideals in } F[\mathbb{A}^n]\}$$

Moreover, if I is any proper ideal in $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$, then $\mathcal{Z}(I) \neq \emptyset$.

Proof. • $(\Leftarrow)$: Certainly $(x_1 - a_1, \dots, x_n - a_n)$ is a maximal ideal in $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$.

- $(\Rightarrow)$: Let $E := F[x_1, \dots, x_n]/M$. Then E is a field containing F that is finitely generated over F (by $\bar{x}_1, \dots, \bar{x}_n$). By the Noetherian's Normalization Lemma, E is integral over $F[y_1, \dots, y_q]$. Since $F[y_1, \dots, y_q]$ is an ID and $F[y_1, \dots, y_q]$ is integral over F , then by the Integral Ring Extension-Prime Ideals Theorem.1, $F[y_1, \dots, y_q]$ is a field. But since a polynomial ring in one or more variables is never a field, then $q = 0$. Therefore, E is integral over F and hence E is algebraic over F . Since F is algebraically closed, then $E = F$, i.e.: $\bar{x}_i \in F$, for $1 \leq i \leq n$. Hence, $\forall i = 1, \dots, n, \exists a_i \in F$, s.t.: $x_i - a_i \in M$, which follows that $(x_1 - a_1, \dots, x_n - a_n) \subseteq M$. Note that $(x_1 - a_1, \dots, x_n - a_n)$ is maximal and M is proper. Therefore, $(x_1 - a_1, \dots, x_n - a_n) = M$.

Finally, if $I = 0$, then $\mathcal{Z}(I) = \mathbb{A}^n \neq \emptyset$. Otherwise, $I \subseteq M$ for some maximal ideal $M = (x_1 - a_1, \dots, x_n - a_n)$. Therefore, $(x_1 - a_1, \dots, x_n - a_n) \in \mathcal{Z}(I) \neq \emptyset$. $\square$

Theorem 2.74. *Hilbert's Nullstellensatz*

Let F be an algebraically closed field. Then $\mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(I)) = \text{rad } I$ for every ideal I of $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$. Moreover, the maps $\mathcal{Z}$ and $\mathcal{I}$ define inverse bijections

$$\{\text{affine algebraic sets}\} \xrightleftharpoons[\mathcal{Z}]{\mathcal{I}} \{\text{radical ideals}\}$$

Proof. • $\forall f \in \text{rad } I, \exists m \in \mathbb{N}_+$, s.t.: $f^m \in I$. Hence, $(f(a))^m = f^m(a) = 0, \forall a \in \mathcal{Z}(I)$. Since $f(a) \in F$ and F has no zero-divisors, then $f(a) = 0, \forall a \in \mathcal{Z}(I)$ and hence $f \in \mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(I))$.

- Since $\text{field} \Rightarrow \text{PID} \Rightarrow \text{Noetherian ring}$, then by the cor.1 of Hilbert's Basis Theorem, $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ is Noetherian. Then by the Equivalent-Conditions-of-Noetherian Rings Prop.3, $I = (f_1, \dots, f_m)$. Consider a new variable x_{n+1} . For any $g \in \mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(I))$, consider the ideal I' generated by $f_1, \dots, f_m, x_{n+1}g - 1$ in $F[x_1, \dots, x_n, x_{n+1}]$. $\forall a = (a_1, \dots, a_n, b) \in \mathbb{A}^{n+1}$ with $f_1(a) = \dots = f_m(a) = 0$, since $g \in \mathcal{I}(\mathcal{Z}(I))$, then $g(a) = 0 \Rightarrow (x_{n+1}g - 1)(a) = 0 - 1 = -1 \neq 0$ and hence $\mathcal{Z}(I') = \emptyset$ in $\mathbb{A}^{n+1}$. By the Weak Form of the Hilbert's Nullstellensatz, I' cannot be a proper

ideal, i.e.: $1 \in I' = (f_1, \dots, f_m, x_{n+1}g - 1)$ and hence we can write

$$1 = c_1 f_1 + \dots + c_m f_m + c_{m+1}(x_{n+1}g - 1) \text{ for some } c_i \in F[x_1, \dots, x_n, x_{n+1}]$$

Let $y = 1/x_{n+1}$ and let $N - 1$ be the highest power among $c_1, \dots, c_m, c_{m+1}$. Multiplying by y^N in the above equation and then we have

$$y^N = d_1 f_1 + \dots + d_m f_m + d_{m+1}(g - y) \text{ for some } d_i \in F[x_1, \dots, x_n, y]$$

If $y = g$, then we have $g^N = d_1 f_1 + \dots + d_m f_m \in I \Rightarrow g \in \text{rad } I$.

□

Corollary 2.75. *of Hilbert's Nullstellensatz*

If F is any field with algebraic closure $\overline{F}$ and I is an ideal in $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$, then $\mathcal{I}_F(\mathcal{Z}_{\overline{F}}(I)) = \text{rad } I$, where $\mathcal{Z}_{\overline{F}}(I) :=$ the zero set in $\overline{F}^n$ of the polynomials in I and $\mathcal{I}_F(\mathcal{Z}_{\overline{F}}(I))$ is the ideal of polynomials in $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ vanishing at all the points in $\mathcal{Z}_{\overline{F}}(I)$. In particular, $I = (1) \Leftrightarrow$ there are no common zeros in $\overline{F}^n$ of the polynomials in I .

Remark:

- This (coro.) is the geometric interpretation of the following: By the Radicals-Prime Ideals Prop. and the Integral Ring Extension-Prime Ideals Thm.2, if S is an integral extension of R with $1 \in R$ and if I is an ideal of R , then

$$(\text{rad}_S IS) \cap R = \text{rad}_R I$$

- From Nullstellensatz, we now have a dictionary between geometry and ring-theoretic objects over the algebraically closed field F :

Geometry	Algebra
affine algebraic set V	coordinate ring $k[V]$
points of V	maximal ideals of $k[V]$
affine algebraic subsets in V	radical ideals of $k[V]$
subvarieties in V	prime ideals in $k[V]$
morphism $\varphi: V \rightarrow W$	k -algebra homomorphism
	$\tilde{\varphi}: k[W] \rightarrow k[V]$

2.9 Localization

2.9.1 Localization of Rings

Intuition: Localization is an algebraic analogue of the familiar idea of localizing at a point when considering questions of, for example, the differentiability of a real-valued function $f(x) \in \mathcal{C}(\mathbb{R})$.

Definition 2.76. Multiplicative Closed Sets

A *multiplicatively closed set* $D \subseteq R$ is a subset, s.t.: $1 \in D$ and $a, b \in D \Rightarrow ab \in D$. Furthermore, let $U \subseteq R$ be any set. The *multiplicative closure* of U is the set

$$\{\prod_{i=1}^n u_i \mid n \geq 0, u_i \in U\}$$

which is the smallest multiplicatively closed set containing U .

Example:

- Let R be an ID. Then $D = R \setminus \{0\}$ is multiplicatively closed.
- If P is a prime ideal in R , then $D = R \setminus P$ is multiplicatively closed.
- If $x \in R$, then the set $\{x^n \mid n \in \mathbb{N}_+\}$ is multiplicatively closed.

Method: We first consider a very general construction of "rings of fractions". Let D be a multiplicatively closed subset of R . Then we construct a new ring $D^{-1}R$ which is the "smallest" ring in which the elements of D become units.

Theorem 2.77. *Universal Property of Localization of Rings*

Let R be a ring and let D be a multiplicatively closed subset of R . Then there is a ring $D^{-1}R$ and a ring homomorphism $\pi : R \rightarrow D^{-1}R$ satisfying the following universal property:

For any unital homomorphism $\psi : R \rightarrow S$ of rings such that $\psi(d) \in U(S)$, $\forall d \in D \subseteq R$, there exists a unique homomorphism $\Psi : D^{-1}R \rightarrow S$, s.t.: $\Psi \circ \pi = \psi$, i.e.: the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} R & \xrightarrow{\pi} & D^{-1}R \\ & \searrow \psi & \downarrow \exists! \Psi \\ & & S \end{array}$$

Proof. Define a relation $\sim$ on $R \times D$ by

$$(r, d) \sim (s, e) \Leftrightarrow x(er - ds) = 0 \text{ for some } x \in D$$

It's clear that $\sim$ is reflexive and symmetric. If $(r, d) \sim (s, e)$ and $(s, e) \sim (t, f)$, then $x(er - ds) = 0$ and $y(fs - et) = 0$ for some $x, y \in D$. Multiplying the first equation by fy and the second equation by dx and adding them gives $exy(fr - dt) = 0$. Since D is multiplicatively closed, then $(r, d) \sim (t, f)$ and hence $\sim$ is transitive, so $\sim$ is an equivalence relation.

Let r/d denote the equivalence class of (r, d) under $\sim$ and let $D^{-1}R$ be the set of these equivalence classes. Define addition and multiplication in $D^{-1}R$ by

$$\frac{a}{b} + \frac{c}{d} := \frac{ad + bc}{bd} \text{ and } \frac{a}{b} \cdot \frac{c}{d} := \frac{ac}{bd}$$

It's easy to check that these operations are well-defined and make $D^{-1}R$ into a commutative ring with $1_{D^{-1}R} = \frac{1}{1}$. For any $d \in D$, $\frac{d}{1} \in U(D^{-1}R)$ is a unit in $D^{-1}R$.

Define $\pi : R \rightarrow D^{-1}R$ by $\pi(r) := r/1$. It's easy to see that π is a ring homomorphism. Define $\Psi : D^{-1}R \rightarrow S$ by

$$\Psi\left(\frac{r}{d}\right) := \psi(r)\psi(d)^{-1}$$

which is well-defined since:

- by the def of ψ , $\psi(d)$ is a unit in S ;
- if $r/d = s/e$, then $x(er - ds) = 0$ for some $x \in D$; then $\psi(x)(\psi(er) - \psi(ds)) = 0 \in S$ and hence $\psi(er) - \psi(ds) = 0$ since $\psi(x) \in U(S)$ and therefore, $\psi(r)\psi(d)^{-1} = \psi(s)\psi(e)^{-1}$.

Then it's immediately that Ψ is a ring homomorphism and $\Psi \circ \pi = \psi$.

As for the uniqueness of Ψ , note that $\forall$ element $r/d \in D^{-1}R$, it can be written as $(r/1)(d/1)^{-1}$ since

$$\frac{r}{d} = \frac{r}{1} \cdot \frac{1}{d} = \left(\frac{r}{1}\right) \cdot \left(\frac{d}{1}\right)^{-1}$$

that the value of Ψ on each element of the form $x/1$ is uniquely determined by ψ , namely $\Psi(x/1) = \Psi(\pi(x)) = \psi(x)$ and that $\forall$ unit $u \in U(D^{-1}R)$, since Ψ is ring homomorphism, then its value on u^{-1} is uniquely determined by $\Psi(u)$. Therefore, Ψ is uniquely determined on every element of $D^{-1}R$. $\square$

Corollary 2.78. *of Universal Property of Localization of Rings*

In the notation of the Universal Property of Localization of Rings,

1. $\ker \pi = \{r \in R \mid xr = 0 \text{ for some } x \in D\}$. In particular, $\pi : R \rightarrow D^{-1}R$ is injective $\Leftrightarrow D$ contains no zero-divisors of R .
2. $D^{-1}R = 0 \Leftrightarrow 0 \in D \Leftrightarrow D$ contains nilpotent elements.

Proof. 1. $\pi(r) = 0 \Leftrightarrow r/1 = 0_{D^{-1}R} \Leftrightarrow (r, 1) \sim (0, 1) \Leftrightarrow xr = 0$ for some $x \in D$.

2. $D^{-1}R = 0 \Leftrightarrow (1, 1) \sim (0, 1) \Leftrightarrow x1 = 0$ for some $x \in D \Leftrightarrow 0 \in D$.

$\square$

Definition 2.79. Localization of Rings

The ring $D^{-1}R$ is called the *ring of fractions of R with respect to D* or the *localization of R at D* .

Example:

- Given any $f \in R$, let $D = \{f^n \mid n \in \mathbb{N}_+\}$. Define

$$R_f := D^{-1}R$$

Note that $R_f = 0 \Leftrightarrow f$ is nilpotent by the corollary of Universal Property of Localization of Rings. If f is *not* nilpotent, then $f = f/1$ becomes a unit in R_f . It's easy to see that

$$R_f \cong R[x]/(xf - 1)$$

Note that $R_f \cong R_{f^n}, \forall n \in \mathbb{N}_+$, since both f and f^n are units. If f is a zero-divisor, then $\pi : R \rightarrow R_f$ does *not* embed R into R_f . For instance, let $R = F[x, y]/(xy)$ and take $f = \bar{x} + (xy)$. Since $\bar{x}$ is *not* nilpotent in R , then $\bar{x} = \bar{x}/1$ is a unit in R_f . Since $\bar{x} \in D$ and $\bar{x} \cdot \bar{y} = 0_R$, then by the cor. of Universal Property of Localization of Rings.1, $\bar{y} \in \ker \pi$. Hence,

$$\pi(R) = F[x] \subseteq R_f = F[x, x^{-1}]$$

- *Localizing at a Prime:* Let P be a prime ideal in R and let $D = R \setminus P$. In this case, $D^{-1}R$ is called *localizing R at P* , which can be denoted as R_P . For instance, if $R = \mathbb{Z}$ and $P = (p)$ is a prime ideal, then

$$\mathbb{Z}_{(p)} = \left\{ \frac{a}{b} \in \mathbb{Q} \mid p \nmid b \right\} \subseteq \mathbb{Q}$$

and every integer not divisible by p is a unit.

- Let V be any non-empty set, let F be a field and let R be any ring of F -valued functions on V containing the constant functions (for instance, $\mathcal{C}([0, 1])$). For any $a \in V$, let M_a be the ideal of functions in R that vanish at a . Then M_a is the kernel of the ring homomorphism from R to the field F given by evaluating each function in R at a . Since R contains the constant functions, then evaluation is surjective, so M_a is a maximal (hence also prime) ideal. The localization of R at M_a is

$$R_{M_a} = \left\{ \frac{f}{g} \mid f, g \in R, g(a) \neq 0 \right\}$$

Each function in R_{M_a} can then be evaluated at a by $(f/g)(a) = f(a)/g(a)$ and this value does *not* depend on the choice of representative for the class f/g and hence R_{M_a} becomes a ring of F -valued "rational functions" defined at a .

2.9.2 Extensions and Contractions of Ideals in Localization

Notation:

- If I is an ideal of R , then we denote by ${}^e I$ or by $D^{-1}I$ the extension of I to $D^{-1}R$ with respect to $\pi : R \rightarrow D^{-1}R$, namely,

$${}^e I := D^{-1}R\pi(I)$$

- If J is an ideal of $D^{-1}R$, then we denote by ${}^c J$ the contraction of J to R with respect to $\pi : R \rightarrow D^{-1}R$, namely,

$${}^c J := \pi^{-1}(J)$$

Proposition 2.80. *Extensions and Contractions-Localization-Properties-Proposition*

1. $\forall$ ideal J of $D^{-1}R$, we have $J = {}^e({}^c J)$. In particular, every ideal of $D^{-1}R$ is the extension of some ideal of R and distinct ideals of $D^{-1}R$ have distinct contractions in R .
2. $\forall$ ideal I of R , we have

$${}^c({}^e I) = \{r \in R \mid dr \in I \text{ for some } d \in D\}$$

Furthermore, ${}^e I = D^{-1}R \Leftrightarrow I \cap D \neq \emptyset$.

3. Extension and contraction give a bijective correspondence

$$\left\{ \begin{array}{l} \text{prime ideals } P \text{ of } R \\ \text{with } P \cap D = \emptyset \end{array} \right\} \xrightleftharpoons[{}^c]{e} \{\text{prime ideals of } D^{-1}R\}$$

4. If R is Noetherian (or Artinian), then $D^{-1}R$ is Noetherian (respectively Artinian).

Proof. 1. It's immediately by def that ${}^e({}^c J) \subseteq J$. For the reverse inclusion, let $a/d \in J$. Then $a/1 = d(a/d) \in J$ and hence $a \in \pi^{-1}(J) = {}^c J$. Hence, $a/1 = \pi(a) = {}^e({}^c J)$, so we have

$$a/d = (a/1)(1/d) \in {}^e({}^c J)$$

Therefore, ${}^e({}^c J) = J$.

2. Let $I' := \{r \in R \mid dr \in I \text{ for some } d \in D\}$.

- $I' \subseteq {}^c({}^e I)$: $\forall r \in I', \exists d \in D$, s.t.: $dr \in I$. Then $r/1 = (dr)/d \in {}^e I$ and hence $r \in {}^c({}^e I)$.
- ${}^c({}^e I) \subseteq I'$: $\forall r \in {}^c({}^e I), \exists a \in I, d \in D$, s.t.: $r/1 = a/d \in {}^e I$. Then $x(dr - a) = 0$ for some $x \in D$ and hence $xdr = xa \in I$. Since $xd \in D$, then by the def of I' , $r \in I'$.

Therefore, $I' = {}^c({}^e I)$ which proves the first statement of 2. For the further part,

$${}^e I = D^{-1}R \Leftrightarrow 1/1 \in {}^e I \Leftrightarrow 1 \in {}^c({}^e I) \stackrel{1}{=} I' \stackrel{\text{def of } I'}{\Leftrightarrow} I \cap D \neq \emptyset.$$

3. Note that if Q is a prime ideal in $D^{-1}R$, then its preimage under any unital homomorphism is a prime ideal and hence c maps prime ideals of $D^{-1}R$ to prime ideals of R disjoint from D . In the reverse direction, let P be a prime ideal of R disjoint from D and let $Q := {}^e P$. Suppose $(a/d_1)(b/d_2) \in Q$. Then

$$(ab)/(d_1 d_2) \in Q \Rightarrow (ab)/(d_1 d_2) = c/d \text{ for some } c \in P, d \in D.$$

Hence, $x(dab - d_1 d_2 c) = 0$ for some $x \in D$. Since $c \in P$, then $x dab = x d_1 d_2 c \in P$. Since $P \cap D = \emptyset$, then $ab \in P \Rightarrow a \in P$ or $b \in P$ and hence $a/d_1 \in Q$ or $b/d_2 \in Q$.

4. By 1, every ascending (or descending) chain of distinct ideals in $D^{-1}R$ contrasts to an as-

ending (respectively descending) chain of distinct ideals in R .

□

Remark: By 2, we can easily see that $I \subseteq^c ({}^e I)$.

Definition 2.81. Saturation

Let R be a ring and D be a multiplicatively closed subset of R . The *saturation* of the ideal I in R with respect to D is the ideal ${}^c({}^e I)$ in R , where contraction and extension are computed with respect to $\pi : R \rightarrow D^{-1}R$. If $I = {}^c({}^e I)$, then I is said to be *saturated* with respect to D .

2.9.3 Localization of Modules

Definition 2.82. Localization of Modules

Let M be an R -module and let D be a multiplicatively closed subset of R . Then we define an equivalence relation on $D \times M$ by

$$(d, m) \sim (e, n) \Leftrightarrow x(dn - em) = 0 \text{ for some } x \in D.$$

Let m/d denote the equivalence class of (d, m) and let $D^{-1}M$ denote the set of equivalence classes. Then it is easy to verify that the operations

$$\frac{m}{d} + \frac{n}{e} := \frac{em + dn}{de} \text{ and } \left(\frac{r}{d}\right) \cdot \left(\frac{m}{e}\right) := \frac{rm}{de}$$

are well-defined and give $D^{-1}M$ the structure of a $D^{-1}R$ -module, called the *module of fractions of M with respect to D* or the *localization of M at D* .

Remark: Since each $r \in R$ can act by $r/1$ on $D^{-1}M$, then the localization $D^{-1}M$ is also an R -module. Hence, the map $\pi : M \rightarrow D^{-1}M$ given by $m \mapsto \frac{m}{1}$ is an R -module homomorphism. It follows immediately from the def of the equivalence relation on $D \times M$ that

$$\ker \pi = \{m \in M \mid dm = 0 \text{ for some } d \in D\}$$

similarly as the coro. of Universal Property of Localization of Rings.1. Also, similar as the Universal Property of Localization of Rings, we have a universal property of localization of modules:

Theorem 2.83. *Universal Property of Localization of Modules*

Let M be an R -module, let D be a multiplicatively closed subset of R and let $D^{-1}M$ be the localization of M at D . Suppose N is an R -module with the property that dN is a bijection of N for every $d \in D$. Consider the R -module homomorphism $\pi : M \rightarrow D^{-1}M$ with $m \mapsto \frac{m}{1}$. If $\psi : M \rightarrow N$ is any R -module homomorphism, then there is a unique R -module homomorphism $\Psi : D^{-1}M \rightarrow N$,

s.t.: $\Psi \circ \pi = \psi$, i.e.: the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M & \xrightarrow{\pi} & D^{-1}M \\ & \searrow \psi & \downarrow \exists! \Psi \\ & & N \end{array}$$

Remark: If M and N are R -modules and $\varphi : M \rightarrow N$ is an R -module homomorphism, then for any multiplicatively closed subset D of R , it is easy to check that there is an induced $D^{-1}R$ -module homomorphism from $D^{-1}M$ to $D^{-1}N$ defined by $m/d \mapsto \varphi(m)/d$.

Proposition 2.84. *Localization of Modules-Tensor Products Proposition*

Let D be a multiplicatively closed subset of R and let M be an R -module. Then

$$D^{-1}M \cong D^{-1}R \otimes_R M$$

as $D^{-1}R$ -modules, i.e.: $D^{-1}M$ is the $D^{-1}R$ -module obtained by extension of scalars from the R -module M .

Proof. The map from $D^{-1}R \times M$ to $D^{-1}M$ defined by $(r/d, m) \mapsto (rm)/d$ is clearly well-defined, which induces, by the def of tensor products, an R -module homomorphism from $D^{-1}R \otimes_R M$ to $D^{-1}M$ with $m/d \mapsto (1/d) \otimes m$, which is a well-defined inverse homomorphism (if $m/d = m'/d' \in D^{-1}M$, then $x(d'm - dm') = 0$ for some $x \in D$ and hence $(1/d) \otimes m = (1/(xd'd)) \otimes (xd'm) = (1/(xd'd)) \otimes (x d m') = (1/d') \otimes m'$). Hence, we're done. $\square$

Proposition 2.85. *Localization-Operations Proposition*

Let R be a ring and let $D^{-1}R$ be its localization with respect to the multiplicatively closed subset D of R .

1. *Localization commutes with finite sums and intersections of ideals: If I and J are ideals of R , then*

$$D^{-1}(I + J) = D^{-1}(I) + D^{-1}(J) \text{ and } D^{-1}(I \cap J) = D^{-1}(I) \cap D^{-1}(J)$$

Localization commutes with quotients:

$$D^{-1}R/D^{-1}I \cong D^{-1}(R/I)$$

where the localization on the right is with respect to the image of D in the quotient R/I .

2. *Localization commutes with taking ideals: If N is the nilradical of R , then $D^{-1}N$ is the nilradical of $D^{-1}R$. If I is an ideal in R , then $\text{rad}(D^{-1}I) = D^{-1}(\text{rad } I)$.*
3. *Primary ideals correspond to primary ideals in the correspondence 3 of the Extensions and Contractions-Localization-Properties Prop. More precisely, suppose that Q is a P -primary*

ideal in R . If $D \cap P \neq \emptyset$, then $D^{-1}Q = D^{-1}R$. If $D \cap P = \emptyset$, then $D^{-1}P$ is a prime ideal, the extension $D^{-1}Q$ of Q is a $D^{-1}P$ -primary ideal in $D^{-1}R$, and the contraction back to R of $D^{-1}Q$ is Q .

4. Localization commutes with finite sums, intersections and quotients of modules: If L and N are submodules of an R -module M , then:

$$(a) \ D^{-1}(L + N) = D^{-1}L + D^{-1}N \text{ and } D^{-1}(L \cap N) = D^{-1}L \cap D^{-1}N.$$

$$(b) \ D^{-1}N \text{ is a submodule of } D^{-1}M \text{ and } D^{-1}M/D^{-1}N = D^{-1}(M/N).$$

5. Localization commutes with finite direct sums of modules: If M and N are R -modules, then $D^{-1}(M \oplus N) \cong D^{-1}M \oplus D^{-1}N$.

6. Localization is exact (i.e.: $D^{-1}R$ is a flat R -module): If $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$ is a short exact sequence of R -modules, then the induced sequence $0 \rightarrow D^{-1}L \xrightarrow{\psi'} D^{-1}M \xrightarrow{\varphi'} D^{-1}N \rightarrow 0$ of $D^{-1}R$ -modules is also exact.

Proof. We first prove 6:

- Every element of $D^{-1}N$ is of the form n/d for some $n \in N, d \in D$. Since φ is surjective, then $n = \varphi(m)$ for some $m \in M$, so $\varphi'(m/d) = \varphi(m)/d = n/d$ and hence φ' is surjective.
- If $m/d \in \ker \varphi'$, then $d_1\varphi(m) = 0$ for some $d_1 \in D$. Then $\varphi(d_1m) = 0 \xrightarrow{\ker \varphi = \text{im } \psi} d_1m = \psi(l)$ for some $l \in L$ and hence $m/d = (d_1m)/(d_1d) = \psi(l)/(d_1d) = \psi'(l/(d_1d)) \Rightarrow \ker \varphi' \subseteq \text{im } \psi'$. If $\psi(l)/d \in \text{im } \psi'$, then $\varphi'(\psi(l)/d) = \varphi(\psi(l))/d \xrightarrow{\ker \varphi = \text{im } \psi} 0 \Rightarrow \text{im } \psi' \subseteq \ker \varphi'$, so we have the exactness of the induced sequence at $D^{-1}M$.
- Suppose $\psi'(l/d) = 0$. Then $d_2\psi(l) = 0$ for some $d_2 \in D$, i.e.: $\psi(d_2l) = 0 \Rightarrow d_2l = 0$, by the injectivity of ψ . Hence, $l/d = (d_2l)/(d_2d) = 0$ and hence we're done for 6.

Next, we'll prove in order.

1. $(i + j)/d := i/d + j/d \in D^{-1}(I) + D^{-1}(J) \Rightarrow D^{-1}(I + J) \subseteq D^{-1}(I) + D^{-1}(J)$; $i/d_1 + j/d_2 := (d_2i + d_1j)/(d_1d_2) \in D^{-1}(I + J) \Rightarrow D^{-1}(I) + D^{-1}(J) \subseteq D^{-1}(I + J)$.

For the second statement, the inclusion $D^{-1}(I \cap J) \subseteq D^{-1}(I) \cap D^{-1}(J)$ is immediate. If $a/d \in D^{-1}(I) \cap D^{-1}(J)$, then $d_1a \in I, d_2a \in J$ for some $d_1, d_2 \in D \Rightarrow d_1d_2a \in I \cap J \Rightarrow a/d = (d_1d_2a)/(d_1d_2d) \in D^{-1}(I \cap J) \Rightarrow D^{-1}(I \cap J) \subseteq D^{-1}(I) \cap D^{-1}(J)$.

The last statement in 1 follows by applying 6 to the exact sequence $0 \rightarrow I \xrightarrow{\psi} R \xrightarrow{\varphi} R/I \rightarrow 0$.

2. $a \in \text{rad } I \Rightarrow a^n \in I$ for some $n \in \mathbb{N}_+ \Rightarrow (a/d)^n = a^n/d^n \in D^{-1}I \Rightarrow d_1a^n \in I$ for some $d_1 \in D \Rightarrow (d_1a)^n = d_1^n a^n = d_1^{n-1}(d_1a^n) \in I \Rightarrow \text{rad } (D^{-1}I) \subseteq D^{-1}(\text{rad } I)$. This prove the second statement in 2, and then the first statement follows by applying 2 to $I = (0)$.
3. Note that $D \cap P = \emptyset \Leftrightarrow D \cap Q = \emptyset$ (" $\Rightarrow$ " is obvious since $Q \subseteq \text{rad } Q = P$; " $\Leftarrow$ ": if $d \in D \cap P$, then $d^n \in Q$ for some $n \in \mathbb{N}_+$, so by the multiplicative closed-ness of D , $d^n \in D$, contradiction). Hence, by the Extensions and Contractions-Localization-Properties Prop.2, we have: $D \cap P \neq \emptyset \Rightarrow D \cap Q \neq \emptyset \Leftrightarrow^e Q = D^{-1}Q = D^{-1}R$.

To see that $D^{-1}Q$ is a primary ideal in $D^{-1}R$, suppose that $(a/d_1)(b/d_2) \in D^{-1}Q$ and $a/d_1 \notin D^{-1}Q$. Then there is $d \in D$, s.t.: $dab \in Q$. Since $a \notin Q$ and Q is primary, then $(db)^n \in Q$ for some $n \in \mathbb{N}_+$. Then $(b/d_1)^n = (d^n b^n)/(d^n d_2^n) \in D^{-1}Q$ and hence we're done.

Finally, by the Extensions and Contractions-Localization-Properties Prop.2, the contraction of $D^{-1}Q$ is an ideal of R containing Q and consists of precisely of the elements $r \in R$ with $dr \in Q$ for some $d \in D$. Since Q is P -primary, then by assumption ($D \cap P = \emptyset \Rightarrow d \notin P$), $r \in Q$ and hence, ${}^c(D^{-1}Q) = Q$.

4. Similarly as 1.

5. Note that if the exact sequence $0 \rightarrow L \xrightarrow{\psi} M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \rightarrow 0$ of R -modules splits, then the exact sequence $0 \rightarrow D^{-1}L \xrightarrow{\psi'} D^{-1}M \xrightarrow{\varphi'} D^{-1}N \rightarrow 0$ of $D^{-1}R$ -modules also splits, which gives 5.

□

Proposition 2.86. *Localization-on-Primary Decomposition Proposition*

Let R be a Noetherian ring and let

$$I = Q_1 \cap \cdots \cap Q_m$$

be a minimal primary decomposition of the proper ideal I , where Q_i is a P_i -primary ideal. Suppose that D is a multiplicatively closed subset of R and the primary ideals $Q_1, \dots, Q_m$ are numbered so that $D \cap P_i = \emptyset$ for $i \leq t$ and $D \cap P_i \neq \emptyset$ for $t+1 \leq i \leq m$. Then

$$D^{-1}I = D^{-1}Q_1 \cap \cdots \cap D^{-1}Q_t$$

is a minimal primary decomposition of $D^{-1}I$ in $D^{-1}R$ and $D^{-1}Q_i$ is a $D^{-1}P_i$ -primary ideal. Furthermore, the contraction of $D^{-1}Q_i$ back to R is Q_i for $1 \leq i \leq t$ and

$${}^c(D^{-1}I) = Q_1 \cap \cdots \cap Q_t$$

is a minimal primary decomposition of the contraction of $D^{-1}I$ back to R .

Proof. By the Localization-Operations Prop.3, $D^{-1}Q_i = D^{-1}R$ for $t+1 \leq i \leq m$, and $D^{-1}Q_i$ is a $D^{-1}P_i$ -primary ideal with pullback Q_i for $1 \leq i \leq t$. By the Localization-Operations Prop.1, we have

$$D^{-1}I = D^{-1}Q_1 \cap \cdots \cap D^{-1}Q_t$$

and then 3 shows that this is a primary decomposition. Contracting to R shows that ${}^c(D^{-1}I) = Q_1 \cap \cdots \cap Q_t$, which also implies that the decompositions are minimal. □

Corollary 2.87. *of Localization-on-Primary Decomposition Proposition*

The primary ideals belonging to the isolated primes in a minimal primary decomposition of I are uniquely defined by I .

Proof. Let P be a minimal element in $\{P_1, \dots, P_m\}$ of primes belonging to I and take $D = R \setminus P$ in the Localization-on-Primary Decomposition Prop. Then $D \cap P_i = \emptyset$ only for $P = P_i$, so the

contraction of the localization of I at D is precisely the primary ideal Q belonging to the minimal prime P . Since the prime ideals $\{P_1, \dots, P_m\}$ of primes belonging to I are uniquely determined by I , which follows that the primary ideals Q belonging to the isolated primes of I are also uniquely determined by I . $\square$

Remark: This coro. proves the Integral Ring Extensions-Prime Ideal Thm.2.

2.9.4 Local Rings and Localization at Prime Ideals

Definition 2.88. Local Rings

A ring is *local* if it has a unique maximal ideal.

Proposition 2.89. Equivalent-Conditions-of-Local Rings Proposition

Let R be a ring. The followings are equivalent:

1. R is a local ring with unique maximal ideal M .
2. If M is the set of elements of R that are not units, then M is an ideal.
3. There is a maximal ideal M of R , s.t.: every element $1 + m$ with $m \in M$ is a unit in R .

Proof. • $(1 \Leftrightarrow 2)$: Note that $\forall a \in R$, the ideal (a) is either R , in which case a is a unit, or is a proper ideal, in which case (a) is contained in a maximal ideal. Hence, we're immediately done.

- $(3 \Rightarrow 1)$: $\forall a \in R \setminus M$, since M is maximal, then $(a) + M = R$, so $ab + m = 1$ for some $b \in R, m \in M$. By 3, $ab = 1 - m \in U(R) \Rightarrow abc = 1$ for some $c \in R \Rightarrow a \in U(R)$ (with inverse $a^{-1} = bc$). Hence, M is the unique maximal ideal.
- $(1 \Rightarrow 3)$: $\forall m \in M$, since M is maximal, then $1 + m \notin M \Rightarrow 1 + m \in U(R)$.

$\square$

Proposition 2.90. Localization of Rings-at-Prime Ideals-Properties Proposition

Let R_P be the localization of the ring R at the prime ideal P in R and let eP be the extension of P to R_P .

1. R_P is a local ring with unique maximal ideal eP . The contraction of eP to R is P , i.e.: ${}^c({}^eP) = P$, and the map from R to R_P induces an injection of the ID R/P into $R_P/{}^eP$. The quotient $R_P/{}^eP$ is a field and is isomorphic to the fraction of the ID R/P .
2. If R is an ID, then R_P is an ID. The ring R injects into the local ring R_P and, identifying R with its image in R_P , the unique maximal ideal of R_P is PR_P .
3. The prime ideals in R_P are in bijective correspondence with the prime ideals of R contained in P .
4. If P is a minimal nonzero prime ideal of R , then R_P has a unique nonzero prime ideal.

5. If $P = M$ is a maximal ideal in R and I is any M -primary ideal of R , then $R_M/{}^eI \cong R/I$.
In particular,

$$R_M/{}^eM \cong R/M \text{ and } ({}^eM)/({}^eM)^n \cong M/M^n \forall n \in \mathbb{N}_+.$$

Proof. If P' is a prime ideal in R , then $P' \cap (R \setminus P) = \emptyset \Leftrightarrow P' \subseteq P$, so by the Extensions and Contractions-Localization-Properties Prop.3, 3 holds, and 4 follows. Since ${}^eP \neq R_P$ by the Extensions and Contractions-Localization-Properties Prop.2, then by 3, R_P is a local ring with unique maximal ideal eP , which proves the first statement in 1.

By the Extensions and Contractions-Localization-Properties Prop.2, the contraction ${}^c({}^eP)$ is the set $\{r \in R \mid dr \in P \text{ for some } d \in R \setminus P\}$ and since P is prime, then $dr \in P$ with $d \notin P$ implies $r \in P$, which follows that ${}^c({}^eP) = P$ and hence 1 follows.

For 2, note that the kernel of the map from R to $R_P/{}^eP$ is ${}^c({}^eP) = P$, so the induced map from R/P into $R_P/{}^eP$ is injective. The quotient $R_P/{}^eP$ is then a field by the first part of 1 and hence there is an induced homomorphism from the fraction field of the ID R/P into $R_P/{}^eP$. Then by the Universal Property of localization, there is an inverse homomorphism from $R_P/{}^eP$ to the fraction field of R/P (since every element of R not in P maps to a unit in R/P). It follows that $R_P/{}^eP \cong$ the fraction field of R/P . If R is an ID, then R/P has no zero-divisor, so by the coro of Universal Property of Localization of Rings, R injects into R_P ; if R is identified with its image in R_P , then ${}^eP = PR_P$, and hence 2 follows.

To prove 5, by the Localization-Operations Prop.1, we may pass to the quotient R/I , so reduce to the case $I = 0$. In this case, the maximal ideal $P = M$ in R is the nilradical of R and hence is the unique maximal ideal of R . By the Equivalent-Conditions-of-Local Rings Prop.2, every element of R/M is a unit, so $R_P = R$ and then each of the statements in 5 follows immediately. $\square$

Remark: The results of the Localization-at-Prime Ideals-Properties Prop.5 above *not* true in general if P is a prime ideal that is *not* maximal. For instance, $P = (0)$ in $R = \mathbb{Z}$ has $R/P = \mathbb{Z}$ and $R_P/PR_P = \mathbb{Q}$; in this case $(PR_P)/(PR_P)^n \cong P/P^n = 0, \forall n \in \mathbb{N}_+$.

Definition 2.91. Localization of Modules at Prime Ideals

Let M be an R -module, let P be a prime ideal in R and let $D = R \setminus P$. The R_P -module $D^{-1}M$ is called the *localization of M at P* , denoted as M_P .

Remark:

- By the Localization of Modules-Tensor Products Prop, M_P can be identified with the tensor product $R_P \otimes_R M$.
- If R is an ID and $P = (0)$, then $M_{(0)}$ is a module over the field of fractions F of R , i.e.: is a vector space over F .

- $m/1 = 0_{M_P} \Leftrightarrow rm = 0$ for some $r \in R \setminus P$, so localizing at P annihilates the P' -torsion elements of M for prime P' not contained in P . In particular, *localizing at (0) over an ID annihilates the torsion subgroup of M .*

Definition 2.92. Rank of Modules

If R is an ID, then the *rank* of an R -module M is the dimension of the localization $M_{(0)}$ as a vector space over the field of fractions of R .

Remark: It's easy to see that this def of rank agrees with the *free module of rank over R* given in the example of def of submodules.

2.9.5 Local-Global Principle

Proposition 2.93. *Local-Global Principle for Zero Modules*

Let M be an R -modules. The followings are equivalent:

1. $M = 0$.
2. $M_P = 0$ for all prime ideals P of R .
3. $M_N = 0$ for all maximal ideals N of R .

Proof. $(1 \Rightarrow 2)$ and $(2 \Rightarrow 3)$ are obvious, so it suffices to prove $(3 \Rightarrow 1)$: Suppose on the contrary that there is a non-zero element m in M . Consider the annihilator I of m in R , i.e.: $I := \{r \in R \mid rm = 0\}$. Since $m \neq 0$, then I is proper. Let N be a maximal ideal of R containing I and then consider $m/1$ in the corresponding localization M_N of M . If $m/1 \neq 0$, then $rm = 0$ for some $r \in R \setminus N \Leftrightarrow I \cap (R \setminus N) \neq \emptyset$, contradicting $I \subseteq N$. Hence, $m/1 \neq 0 \Rightarrow M_N \neq 0$, contradicting 3. $\square$

Remark: It's *not* generally true that a property shared by all of the localizations of a module M is also shared by M . For instance, all of the localizations of a ring R can be IDs, without R itself being an ID. But this technique — localization — is still useful: If R is an ID, for example, then each of the localizations R_P can be considered as a subring of the fraction field F of R that contains R . The next proposition shows that the elements of the ID R are the only elements of F contained in every localization.

Proposition 2.94. *Local-Global Principle for Integral Domain*

Let R be an ID. Then R is the intersection of the localizations of R :

$$R = \bigcap_P R_P$$

In fact, $R = \bigcap_M R_M$ is the intersection of the localizations of R at the maximal ideals M of R .

Proof. It's clear that $R \in \bigcap_{M \text{ maximal}} R_M$. For the reverse inclusion, we consider an element a of the fraction field F of R that is contained in R_M for any maximal ideal M and consider

$$I_a := \{r \in R \mid ra \in R\}$$

which is easy to check that I_a is an ideal of R and that $a \in R \Leftrightarrow 1 \in I_a \Leftrightarrow I_a = R$. Suppose that $I_a \neq R$. Then there is a maximal ideal M containing I_a . Since $a \in R_M$, then $a = r/d$ for some $r \in R, d \in R \setminus M$. But then $d \in I_a$ and $d \notin M$, contradiction. Hence, $a \in R$, so we have $\bigcap_{M \text{ maximal}} R_M \subseteq R$. Therefore, the second part holds and the first then follows. $\square$

Proposition 2.95. *Local-Global Principle for Normality Propersition*

Let R be an ID. The followings are equivalent:

1. R is normal, i.e.: R is integrally closed (in its field of fractions).
2. R_P is normal for all prime ideals P of R .
3. R_M is normal for all maximal ideals M of R .

Proof. Let F be the field of fractions of R , so all of the localizations of R may be considered as subrings of F .

- $(1 \Rightarrow 2)$: $\forall y \in F$ integral over R_P , let $f(x) = x^n + (a_{n-1}/d_{n-1})x^{n-1} + \cdots + (a_1/d_1)x + a_0/d_0$ be the monic polynomial with a root y , where $a_i \in R, d_i \in R \setminus P$. The element $y' := y(d_0 d_1 \cdots d_{n-1})^n$ is then a root of a monic polynomial of degree n with coefficients from R , so y' is integral over R and hence by 1, $y' \in R$. Therefore, $y = y'/(d_0 d_1 \cdots d_{n-1})^n \in R_P$.
- $(2 \Rightarrow 3)$: Obvious.
- $(3 \Rightarrow 1)$: $\forall y \in F$ integral over R , since $R \subseteq R_M$ for every maximal ideal M of R , then y is integral over R_M and hence by 3, $y \in R_M$ for every maximal ideal M of R . Therefore, by the Local-Global Principle for ID, we have

$$y \in \bigcap_{M \text{ maximal}} R_M = R$$

$\square$

Corollary 2.96. *of Local-Global Principle for Normality*

Let R be a subring of a ring S and assume that S is integral over R . If P is a prime ideal in R , then there is a prime ideal Q of S with $P = Q \cap R$.

Proof. Let $D = R \setminus P$, which is a multiplicatively closed subset of both R and S . Then the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} R & \xrightarrow{\pi} & D^{-1}R = R_P \\ \downarrow & & \downarrow \\ S & \xrightarrow{\pi} & D^{-1}S \end{array}$$

It's easy to see that $D^{-1}S$ is integral over R_P . Let M be any maximal ideal of $D^{-1}S$. Then by the second statement of the Integral Ring Extensions-Prime Ideals Thm.2, $M \cap R_P$ is a maximal ideal in R_P . By the Extensions and Contractions-localization-Properties Prop.1, $M \cap R_P$ is the extension of P to the local ring R_P and the contraction of this ideal to R is just P . Namely, the

preimage of M by the maps along $R \xrightarrow{\pi} R_P \hookrightarrow D^{-1}S$ is P . If $Q \subseteq S$ denotes the preimage of M by the map along $R \hookrightarrow S \xrightarrow{\pi} D^{-1}S$, then Q is a prime ideal by the Extensions and Contractions-Localization-Properties Prop.3. Since $Q \cap R$ is the pullback of Q by the map along $R \hookrightarrow S$, then the commutativity of the diagram shows that $Q \cap R = P$. $\square$

Remark: This coro. gives a more easy proof of the first part of the Going-up Thm — the Integral Ring Extensions-Prime Ideals Thm.

2.9.6 Local Rings of Affine Algebraic Varieties

Convention: For the remainder of this section, let F be an algebraically closed field and let V be an affine variety over F with coordinate ring $F[V]$. Then by the coro. of Affine Algebraic Sets-Decomposition Prop, $F[V]$ is an ID, so we may form its field of fractions:

$$F(V) := \{f/g \mid f, g \in F[V], g \neq 0\}$$

Definition 2.97. Rational Functions

The elements of $F(V)$ are called *rational functions* on V and $F(V)$ is called the *field of rational functions* on V .

Remark:

- Since $F[V]$ is an ID, then $f_1/g_1 = f_2/g_2 \Leftrightarrow f_1g_2 = f_2g_1$.
- If $F[V]$ is a UFD, then there is an essentially unique representative for f/g that is in "lowest terms", but in general, each fraction $f/g \in F(V)$ has many representatives as a ratio of two elements of $F[V]$.

Definition 2.98. Regularity

We say that f/g is *regular at v* or *defined at the point $v \in V$* if there is some $f_1, g_1 \in F[V]$ with

$$f/g = f_1/g_1 \text{ and } g_1(v) \neq 0.$$

Example: The variety $V = \mathcal{Z}(xz - yw)$ in $\mathbb{A}^4$ has coordinate ring $F[V] = F[x, y, z, w]/(xz - yw)$. Consider $f = \bar{x}/\bar{y} \in F(V)$. Since $\bar{x}\bar{z} = \bar{y}\bar{w}$, then f can also be written as $\bar{w}/\bar{z}$. From the first expression for $f = \bar{x}/\bar{y}$, f is regular at all points of V where $\bar{y} \neq 0$, and from the second expression for $f = \bar{w}/\bar{z}$, f is regular at all points of V where $\bar{z} \neq 0$. It's easy to show that these are all the points of V where f is regular. Furthermore, there is no single expression $f = a/b$ for f with $a, b \in F[V]$ such that $b(v) \neq 0, \forall v$ where f is regular.

Remark:

- If $f/g \in F(V)$ is regular at the point v , say $f/g = f_1/g_1$ with $g_1(v) \neq 0$, then f/g is also regular at all the points v in the Zariski open neighborhood V_{g_1} of v where $0 \notin g_1(V_{g_1})$. Note that any non-empty open set of an affine algebraic variety is Zariski dense. Hence, every rational function on V is defined at a dense set of points in V . Furthermore, each pair f_1/g_1

and f_2/g_2 representing f/g agree as functions on the open neighborhood $V_{g_1} \cap V_{g_2}$ of v , but the "size" of this neighborhood depends on g_1 and g_2 . In fact, there is generally *not* a common open neighborhood of v where all representatives of f/g with nonzero denominator at v are defined.

- Fix $v \in V$. A rational function f/g is regular at $v \Leftrightarrow f/g = f_1/g_1$ for some $f_1, g_1 \in F[V]$ with $g_1 \notin \mathcal{I}(v)$. Hence, the set of rational functions that are defined at v is the same as the localization of $F[V]$ at the maximal ideal $\mathcal{I}(v)$:

Definition 2.99. Local Rings of Affine Algebraic Sets

For each point $v \in V$, the collection of rational functions on V that are defined at v ,

$$\mathcal{O}_{v,V} := \{f/g \in F(V) \mid f/g \text{ is regular at } v\}$$

is called the *local ring of V at v* . Equivalently, the local ring of V at v is the localization of $F[V]$ at the maximal ideal $\mathcal{I}(v)$.

Remark:

- In particular, $\mathcal{O}_{v,V}$ is a local ring with unique maximal ideal $M_{v,V}$ where

$$M_{v,V} := \{f/g \in \mathcal{O}_{v,V} \mid f/g = f_1/g_1 \text{ with } f_1(v) = 0, g_1(v) \neq 0\}$$

is the set of rational functions on V that are defined and equal to 0 at v .

- Since $\mathcal{O}_{v,V}$ is a localization of the Noetherian ID $F[V]$ at a prime ideal, then $\mathcal{O}_{v,V}$ is also a Noetherian ID. Then by the Localization of Rings-at-Prime Ideals-Properties Prop.5,

$$\mathcal{O}_{v,V}/M_{v,V} \cong F[V]/\mathcal{I}(v) \cong F$$

Proposition 2.100. *Local-Global Principle-for-Regularity Proposition*

If V is an affine variety over an algebraically closed field F , then the rational functions on V that are regular at all points of V are precisely the polynomial functions $F[V]$.

Proof. By the Local-Global Principle for ID Prop, the intersection (in $F(V)$) of all of the localizations of $F[V]$ at the maximal ideals of $F[V]$ is precisely $F[V]$. Then we're done. $\square$

Remark: Now we can use the language of localization to build geometric intuition for algebraic geometry:

- *The intrinsic nature of the local ring $\mathcal{O}_{v,V}$:* Since by the weak form Hilbert's Nullstellensatz, we have a bijective correspondence between

$$\{\text{maximal ideals of } F[V]\} \leftrightarrow \{\text{points in } V\}$$

then the fact, that the local ring $\mathcal{O}_{v,V}$ is the same as the localization of $F[V]$ at the maximal

ideal corresponding to v , shows that $\mathcal{O}_{v,V}$ depends intrinsically on the ring $F[V]$ and is independent of the embedding of V in a particular affine algebraic space.

- *A morphism of affine varieties induces a local homomorphism of local rings:* Suppose $\varphi : V \rightarrow W$ is a morphism of affine varieties with associated F -algebra homomorphism $\tilde{\varphi} : F[W] \rightarrow F[V]$. If $\varphi(v) = w$ with $v \in V, w \in W$, then it is straightforward to show that $\tilde{\varphi}$ induces a homomorphism (also denoted as $\tilde{\varphi}$) between the corresponding local rings:

$$\tilde{\varphi} : \mathcal{O}_{w,W} \rightarrow \mathcal{O}_{v,V} \text{ with } \tilde{\varphi}(h/k) = \tilde{\varphi}(h)/\tilde{\varphi}(k)$$

and that under this homomorphism, $\tilde{\varphi}^{-1}(M_{v,V}) = M_{w,W}$ (a homomorphism of local rings having this property is called a *local homomorphism*). Note that $\tilde{\varphi}$ does *not* in general extend to a field homomorphism from all of $F(W)$ into $F(V)$, since elements of $F[W]$ lying in the kernel of $\tilde{\varphi}$ do not map to invertible elements in $F(V)$. It's also easy to check that if $\psi \circ \varphi$ is a composition of morphisms, then on the local rings $\widetilde{\psi \circ \varphi} = \tilde{\varphi} \circ \tilde{\psi}$.

- *Define geometric smoothness and tangent spaces via local rings:* Suppose first that $V = \mathcal{Z}(f)$ is the hypersurface variety in $\mathbb{A}^n$ defined by the zeros of an irreducible polynomial f in $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$. $\forall v = (v_1, \dots, v_n) \in V$, let $D_v(f)(x_1, \dots, x_n)$ be the linear polynomial:

$$D_v(f)(x_1, \dots, x_n) := \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_i}(v) x_i$$

where the partial derivative of f with respect to x_i is given by the usual formal rule for the derivative of a polynomial x_i (with all other variables considered constant). The polynomial $D_v(f)(x_1 - v_1, \dots, x_n - v_n)$ is the first order Taylor polynomial of the function f at v , so gives the approximation to $f(x_1, \dots, x_n) \in F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ at v . Hence, if $\mathbf{T}$ is the linear variety $\mathcal{Z}(D_v(f)(x_1, \dots, x_n))$ consisting of those points where $D_v(f)$ is zero, then the translate $v + \mathbf{T}$ is "tangent" to the hypersurface $\mathcal{Z}(f)$ at v .

Definition 2.101. Tangent Spaces to Affine Varieties / Zariski Tangent Spaces

The *tangent space to V at v* is defined by the linear variety

$$\mathbb{T}_{v,V} := \mathcal{Z}(\{D_v(f)(x_1, \dots, x_n) \mid f \in \mathcal{I}(V)\})$$

Remark:

- The formal partial derivatives are F -linear and obey the usual product rule for derivatives, so the tangent space may be computed from the generators for $\mathcal{I}(V)$:

$$\mathcal{I}(V) = (f_1, f_2, \dots, f_m) \Rightarrow \mathbb{T}_{v,V} = \bigcap_{i=1}^m \mathcal{Z}(D_v(f_i))$$

- Since $\mathbb{T}_{v,V}$ is an intersection of vector spaces, then $\mathbb{T}_{v,V}$ is a vector subspace of F^n .

- This def of the tangent space $\mathbb{T}_{v,V}$, while making apparent the connection with tangents to the variety V , seems to depend on the embedding of V in $\mathbb{A}^n$:

Proposition 2.102. *Independence of Embedding for Tangent Spaces Proposition*

Let V be an affine variety over the algebraically closed field F and let v be a point on V with local ring $\mathcal{O}_{v,V}$ and corresponding maximal ideal $M_{v,V}$. Then there is a F -vector space isomorphism

$$(\mathbb{T}_{v,V})^* \cong M_{v,V}/M_{v,V}^2$$

where $(\mathbb{T}_{v,V})^*$ denotes the vector space dual of the tangent space $\mathbb{T}_{v,V}$ to V at v .

Proof. Denote by $(F^n)^*$ the n -dimensional vector space dual to F^n . Since each $D_v(f)$ is a linear function, then D_v is a linear transformation from $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ to $(F^n)^*$.

Let M_v be the maximal ideal in $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ generated by the set $\{x_1 - v_1, \dots, x_n - v_n\}$. The image $M_v/\mathcal{I}(V)$ of M_v in $F[V]$ is the ideal $\mathcal{I}(v)$ of functions on V that vanishes at v and

$$\mathcal{I}(v) = M_v^2 + \mathcal{I}(V)$$

Then $\mathcal{O}_{v,V}$ is the localization of $F[V]$ at $\mathcal{I}(v)$ and identifying $\mathcal{I}(v)$ with its image in $\mathcal{O}_{v,V}$, we have $M_{v,V} = \mathcal{I}(v)\mathcal{O}_{v,V}$ by the Localization of Rings-at-Prime Ideals-Properties Prop.2. By the def of D_v , we have $D_v(x_i - v_i) = x_i$. Since these linear functions form a basis of $(F^n)^*$, then D_v maps M_v surjective onto $(F^n)^*$. The kernel of D_v consists of the elements of $F[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ whose Taylor expansion at v starts in degree at least 2 and these are the elements in M_v^2 . Hence, by the first isomorphism theorem, D_v defines an isomorphism between

$$M_v/M_v^2 \cong (F^n)^*$$

Since tangent space $\mathbb{T}_{v,V}$ is a vector space over F^n , then every linear function on F^n restricts to a linear function on $\mathbb{T}_{v,V}$. Composing D_v with this restriction map, say res , gives a linear transformation

$$D^v := M_v \xrightarrow{D_v} (F^n)^* \xrightarrow{\text{res}} (\mathbb{T}_{v,V})^*$$

which is surjective since so are D_v and res . Since $\mathcal{I}(v)^2 = M_v^2 + \mathcal{I}(V)$, we have

$$\mathcal{I}(v)/\mathcal{I}(v)^2 \cong M_v/(M_v^2 + \mathcal{I}(V))$$

which follows, by the Localization of Rings-at-Prime Ideals-Properties Prop.5, that $M_{v,V}/M_{v,V}^2 \cong \mathcal{I}(v)/\mathcal{I}(v)^2$. Therefore, it suffices to show that $\ker D^v = M_v^2 + \mathcal{I}(V)$, since then

$$M_{v,V}/M_{v,V}^2 \cong M_v/(M_v^2 + \mathcal{I}(V)) = M_v/\ker D^v \cong (\mathbb{T}_{v,V})^*$$

$f \in \ker D^v \Leftrightarrow D_v(f) = 0 \in \mathbb{T}_{v,V} \Leftrightarrow$ the linear term of the Taylor polynomial of expanded about v lies in $\mathcal{I}(\mathbb{T}_{v,V})$. Since the linear terms of the functions in $\mathcal{I}(V)$ generate the ideal $\mathcal{I}(\mathbb{T}_{v,V})$, then

$f \in \ker D^v \Leftrightarrow f - g$ has zero linear term for some $g \in \mathcal{I}(V) \Leftrightarrow f \in \mathcal{I}(V) + M_v^2$. □

Definition 2.103. Singularity

- We say V is *nonsingular* at the point $v \in V$ (or v is a *nonsingular point* of V) if $\dim_F \mathbb{T}_{v,V} = \dim V :=$ the transcendence degree of $F(V)$ over $F =$ the greatest number of {algebraic independent functions}, or equivalently, by the Independence of Embedding for Tangent Spaces Proposition, $\dim_F(M_{v,V}/M_{v,V}^2) = \dim V$. Otherwise, the point v is called a *singular point*.
- V is *nonsingular* or *smooth* if it is nonsingular at every point.